# Towards Scalable and Generalizable Video Retrieval

**by**

**Zhuoning Guo**

A Thesis Submitted to
The Hong Kong University of Science and Technology (Guangzhou)
in Partial Fulfillment of the Requirements for
the Degree of Doctor of Philosophy
in Doctor of Philosophy in Artificial Intelligence

July 2026, Guangzhou

Copyright © by Zhuoning Guo 2026 

# AUTHORIZATION

I hereby declare that I am the sole author of the thesis.

I authorize the Hong Kong University of Science and Technology (Guangzhou) to lend this thesis to other institutions or individuals for the purpose of scholarly research.

I further authorize the Hong Kong University of Science and Technology (Guangzhou) to reproduce the thesis by photocopying or by other means, in total or in part, at the request of other institutions or individuals for the purpose of scholarly research.

_____

Zhuoning Guo

29 July 2026

# Towards Scalable and Generalizable Video Retrieval

**by**

**Zhuoning Guo**

This is to certify that I have examined the above PhD thesis
and have found that it is complete and satisfactory in all respects,
and that any and all revisions required by
the thesis examination committee have been made.

---

Prof. Xiaowen Chu and Prof. Renjing Xu, Thesis Supervisor

---

Prof. Xiaowen Chu, Head of Thrust

Thrust of Artificial Intelligence
29 July 2026

# ACKNOWLEDGMENTS

I would like to express my sincere gratitude to my supervisors, Prof. Xiaowen Chu and Prof. Renjing Xu, for their invaluable guidance, continuous support, and encouragement throughout my PhD journey. Their expertise, vision, and patience have been instrumental in shaping this work.

I am deeply grateful to all committee members for their insightful feedback and constructive suggestions that have greatly improved this thesis.

I wish to thank my colleagues and collaborators in the Thrust of Artificial Intelligence at HKUST(GZ) for the stimulating discussions, collaborative spirit, and friendship that made my research journey rewarding.

My heartfelt appreciation goes to my family and friends for their unwavering support, understanding, and love throughout these years.

Finally, I acknowledge the generous support from the Hong Kong University of Science and Technology (Guangzhou) for providing excellent research facilities and resources.

# TABLE OF CONTENTS

**Title Page** i

**Authorization** ii

**Signature Page** iii

**Acknowledgments** iv

**Table of Contents** v

**List of Figures** x

**List of Tables** xii

**Abstract** xv

**Chapter 1 Introduction** 1

1.1 Background and Motivation 1

1.2 Organization of the Thesis 4

**Chapter 2 Background and Literature Review** 5

2.1 Basic Concepts 5

2.1.1 Information Retrieval 5

2.1.2 Video Retrieval 6

2.1.3 Video Embedding Models 7

2.1.4 Spatiotemporal Sampling 9

2.1.5 Approximate Nearest Neighbor Search 9

2.1.6 Industrial Retrieval Systems 11

2.2 Literature Review 11

2.2.1 Video Retrieval Benchmarks and Embedding Models 12

2.2.2 Long-Video Retrieval and Spatiotemporal Scaling 13

2.2.3 Learned Metrics and Graph-based Retrieval 14

**Chapter 3 Towards Universal Video Retrieval: Generalizing Video Embedding via Synthesized Multimodal Pyramid Curriculum** **16**

3.1 Introduction 16

3.2 Related Works 19

3.3 Preliminary 21

3.3.1 Formulations 21

3.3.2 Unified Evaluation Protocol 21

3.4 Methodology 23

3.4.1 Scalable Synthesis of Cross-Domain Multi-Task Video Retrieval Data 23

3.4.2 Modality Pyramid: Customized Curriculum Contrastive Learning 25

3.5 Experiments 28

3.5.1 Experimental Setups 28

3.5.2 Main Results 30

3.5.3 Analysis of Dimensional Capabilities 33

3.6 Conclusion 35

**Chapter 4 Demystifying Spatiotemporal Scaling Laws of Multimodal Video Embeddings** **37**

4.1 Introduction 37

4.2 Related Works 41

4.2.1 Video Retrieval Benchmarks 41

4.2.2 Video Embedding Models 41

4.3 Rethinking Text-Video Retrieval Evaluation 42

4.3.1 Formulations 43

4.3.2 MG-LVR: Sparse-to-Dense Benchmark Construction 44

4.4 Spatiotemporal Scaling Laws: Experiments, Analysis, and Discoveries 46

4.4.1 Experimental Setup 47

4.4.2 Baseline Comparison 48

4.4.3 Test-Time Scaling 49

4.4.4 Training-Time Scaling 50

4.5 VEterfall: Channeling Scaling Potential for Self-Enhancement of Video Embedding Models 53

4.5.1 Method 53

4.5.2 Experiments 54
4.6 Conclusion 56

**Chapter 5 GPU-accelerated Multi-relational Parallel Graph Retrieval for Web-scale Recommendations 58**
5.1 Introduction 59
5.2 Preliminaries 63
5.2.1 Online Retrieval at Baidu 63
5.2.2 Retrieval Pipeline at Baidu 63
5.3 GPU-accelerated Multi-relational Parallel Graph Retrieval Framework 66
5.3.1 Multi-relational User-item Relevance Metric Learning 66
5.3.2 GPU-accelerated Hierarchically Parallel Approximate Nearest Neighbor Search 69
5.4 System Optimization 70
5.5 Experiments 73
5.5.1 Experimental Setup 73
5.5.2 Offline Evaluation 74
5.5.3 Online Testing 77
5.6 Related Works 79
5.7 Conclusion 82

**Chapter 6 Conclusions and Future Works 83**
6.1 Conclusions 83
6.1.1 Summary of Contributions 83
6.1.2 Unified Methodology and Insights 85
6.2 Future Works 86
6.2.1 Query- and Content-Adaptive Observation 86
6.2.2 Retrieval-Oriented Video Foundation Models 87
6.2.3 Joint Optimization of Embeddings and Indexes 88
6.2.4 Evaluation Protocols for Real-World Video Retrieval 89

**Chapter 7 List of Involved Publications 91**

**Appendix A Supplementary Material for Towards Universal Video Retrieval:**

**Generalizing Video Embedding via Synthesized Multimodal Pyramid Curriculum 106**
A.1 Overview of Appendix 106
A.1.1 UVRB Details 107
A.1.2 Evaluation Pipeline 111
A.1.3 Training Data 112
A.1.4 Dataset Construction Pipeline Details 113
A.1.5 Prompt for Synthetic Video Retrieval Data Generation 116
A.1.6 Model Architecture Details 123
A.1.7 Training Implementation and Hyperparameters 124
A.1.8 Baseline Details 127
A.1.9 Training Dynamics 128
A.1.10 Experiments of Training-time Scaling: More Results of Data Scaling 128
A.1.11 Experiments of Test-time Scaling 130
A.1.12 Human-in-the-Loop Quality Validation of UVRD 133
A.1.13 Experimental Analysis of Modality Pyramid 133
A.1.14 Experiments of Video Classification 135

**Appendix B Supplementary Material for Demystifying Spatiotemporal Scaling Laws of Multimodal Video Embeddings 136**
B.1 Error Analysis & Case Studies 136
B.2 Baseline Results at 32 Frames 138
B.3 Additional Scaling Analyses 138
B.3.1 Test-Time Spatial Scaling Across Temporal Densities 138
B.3.2 Training-Time Spatial Scaling (Evaluated at 8 Test Frames) 140
B.3.3 Training-Time Temporal Scaling (Evaluated at 100 Spatial Tokens) 140
B.4 Prompts Used in the Pipeline 142
B.4.1 Retrieval Query Synthesis 142
B.4.2 Clip Caption Merging 143

**Appendix C Supplementary Material for GPU-accelerated Multi-relational Parallel Graph Retrieval for Web-scale Recommendations 146**
C.1 Pseudo Code of HiPANNS Algorithm 146
C.1.1 Implementation Details 146

C.1.2 Additional Efficiency Analysis 148
C.1.3 Additional Ablation Study 149

# LIST OF FIGURES


3.1 Universal Video Retrieval organizes heterogeneous retrieval settings into a unified capability space. 17

3.2 Model performance on UVRB for 16 datasets and 9 abilities (3 main tasks and 6 (sub-) domains). 18

3.3 V-SynFlow: a multi-stage synthesis workflow for diverse video retrieval data. 20

3.4 The architecture of GVE, a MLLM-based embedding model. We only fine-tune the LLM part. GVE inputs compositional multimodal elements and outputs a high-dimensional vector as an embedding. Details are in Appendix A.1.6. 22

3.5 Modality Pyramid: simpler tasks lay the foundation for specific ones. 22

3.6 Performance effect from data scaling for GVE series. See Appendix A.1.10 for detailed results. 33

3.7 Correlation between dimensional abilities on UVRB for CLIP or MLLM-based models. 33

3.8 Correlation between averaged performance and abilities or datasets on UVRB. 34

4.1 Overview of Multi-granular Long Video Retrieval (MG-LVR) benchmark. 38

4.2 The MG-LVR construction pipeline. We model long videos as *Clip Relation Graphs* to transform unstructured content into a quantifiable semantic topology. This structural foundation allows for the systematic discovery of retrieval units across varying temporal granularities and continuity levels, which are then synthesized by an LLM into natural language queries. 44

4.3 Test-time spatial scaling results at 32 frames per video. Sensitivity results under varying temporal densities are provided in the supplementary material. 49

4.4 Test-time temporal scaling across model families. MLLM-based models exhibit continuous improvement with increasing frame count, whereas CLIP-based models plateau and degrade at high frame counts. 49

4.5 Retrieval performance under a fixed total token budget. The optimal allocation between spatial and temporal tokens shifts systematically with query granularity. 50

4.6 VEterfall progressively distills video embeddings across progressively sparser input sampling configurations using the pretrained model itself as the teacher at each stage. 54

5.1 Applications of recommender systems at Baidu. 59

5.2 An overview of the GPU-accelerated Multi-relational Parallel Graph Retrieval framework. 65

5.3 Analysis of correlations between retrieval performance and efficiency on Video and Explore datasets. Methods close to the left top (↖) have better retrieval performance, *i.e.* Cov (↑), with less time costs (←). 75

5.4 Ablation study of GMP-GR on retrieval performance (Cov) and speed. 76

5.5 Temporal statistics of traffic and latency. 77

5.6 Analysis of distributions of traffic and latency. 79

5.7 Traffic and latency distributions. 80

A.1 The dataset category of Universal Video Retrieval Benchmark (UVRB). 108

A.2 Training dynamics of `GVE-3B` across four metrics. 128

A.3 Training dynamics of `GVE-7B` across four metrics. 129

A.4 Performance effect from data scaling for GVE-3B and GVE-7B in detail. 129

A.5 Model performance as a function of the number of sampled frames at inference time (max tokens fixed at 200). 131

A.6 Model performance versus the maximum number of tokens per frame (frame count fixed at 8), determining the resolution of frames in resizing. 132

B.1 Example of Error Type 1: *Degradation on Long Continuous Temporal Segments*. 137

B.2 Example of Error Type 2: *Failure in Fine-Grained Temporal Retrieval*. 137

B.3 Example of Error Type 3: *Incomplete Satisfaction of Semantic Constraints*. 138

B.4 Test-time spatial scaling sensitivity of GVE at temporal densities $F \in \{8, 32, 128\}$ frames per video. Each panel fixes $F$ and varies the number of spatial tokens $T$ per frame. 139

C.1 Analysis of correlations between retrieval performance and efficiency on four datasets. Methods close to the left top (↖) have better retrieval performance, *i.e.* Cov (↑), with less time costs (←). 148

C.2 Additional ablation study of GMP-GR on retrieval performance (Rec@10 and Rec@100). 149

# LIST OF TABLES


3.1 Video retrieval performance for datasets of UVRB. The AVG values are averaged over 16 datasets. For each column: highest score is **bolded**, second-highest is underlined. Metrics: R@1 (Recall@1), R@10 (Recall@10), P@1 (Precision@1). 26

3.2 Video retrieval performance by specific abilities (tasks and domains) on UVRB. The AVG values are averaged over tasks (textual (TXT), composed (CMP), visual (VIS)) and domains (coarse-grained (CG), fine-grained (FG), long-context (LC)) video retrieval tasks. Besides, we provide sub-domain results, including spatial (S), temporal (T), partially relevant (PR). For each column: highest score is **bolded**, second-highest is underlined. 28

3.3 Ablation study for UVRD and Modality Pyramid. **AVG of D**: average across datasets, **AVG of A**: average across abilities. For each column of each size of model (3B or 7B): highest score is **bolded**, second-highest is underlined. 30

3.4 Ablation on curriculum strategies at 3B scale. 32

4.1 Comparison of text-video retrieval benchmarks. **MG-LVR** is the first benchmark supporting multi-granular queries for retrieving long-form videos. **Gran.**: Temporal granularity of queries, including fine (FN), medium (MD), and coarse (CR) -grained; **Cont.**: Temporal continuity of queries, including discrete (DC) and continuous (CT). 40

4.2 Multi-granularity retrieval performance of all baselines at 8 uniformly sampled frames per video. **Bold** and underline indicate the best and second-best results within each model group, respectively. 46

4.3 Multi-granularity retrieval performance of MLLM-based baselines at 128 uniformly sampled frames per video. **Bold** and underline indicate the best and second-best results within each model group, respectively. 47

4.4 Training-time spatial scaling results at a fixed temporal density of 4 frames. Models trained at varying spatial resolutions ($T_{\text{train}} \in \{50, 100, 200, 400\}$) are evaluated across all spatial test configurations. Bold indicates the best result within each group. 51

4.5 Training-time temporal scaling results at a fixed spatial density of 50 tokens per frame. Models trained at varying frame counts ($F_{\text{train}} \in \{4, 8, 16, 32\}$) are evaluated across six temporal test configurations. Bold indicates the best result within each group. 52

4.6 **Iterative Distillation.** R@1 performance across successive rounds ($K = 1, 2$). VEterfall effectively recovers performance at lower densities, particularly for fine-grained queries. 55

4.7 **Frame-Efficiency.** Evaluated at fixed $T = 200$. VEterfall ($\mathcal{V}^{(1)}$) significantly improves performance as frame count $F$ decreases. 55

4.8 **Token-Efficiency.** Evaluated at fixed $F = 8$. Benefits are consistent but less pronounced than frame-count adjustments. 56

4.9 **Ablation on $\lambda$.** Impact of contrastive loss term weight on 8F-200T performance. $\lambda = 0.5$ provides the best alignment balance. 56

5.1 Offline retrieval performance of different methods on four datasets for three metrics. 71

5.2 Retrieval speed (items per second). 74

5.3 Online user statistics for two services. 77

A.1 Statistics of datasets in the Universal Video Retrieval Benchmark (UVRB). All videos use 8 uniformly sampled frames. # Query: the number of queries; # Corpus: the number of corpus; Dur (s): Duration in seconds; # Word: text length in words. 109

A.2 Query Prompts and Metrics for Datasets in UVRB. 111

A.3 Configuration of the main training data mixture for our 3B and 7B models. 'K' denotes thousands, 'M' denotes millions. Notes: (a) Task: T=Text, I=Image, V=Video. The format is Query→Corpus. (b) Neg.: Number of explicit hard negatives per positive. '0' indicates use of in-batch negatives only. 114

A.4 Configuration of UVRD. Sample sizes are identical for both 3B and 7B models. Notes: (a) Task: T=Text, I=Image, V=Video (Query→Corpus). (b) Neg.: Explicit hard negatives per positive. '0' denotes in-batch negatives only. 115

A.5 Total number of instances for our 3B and 7B models across all data categories. 115

A.6 Key hyperparameters used for model training. 126

A.7 Model Abbreviations, Architectures, Parameter Sizes, and Training Data Types. The checkmark (✓) indicates the model was trained on the corresponding data pair types. 127

A.8 Average cosine similarity of positive pairs across task types at initialization. The scores reveal a natural task difficulty hierarchy, providing an empirical basis for our curriculum design. T: text, I: image, V: video. 134

A.9 Performance comparison of temperature scheduling strategies at 3B scale. 134

A.10 Video classification accuracy comparison across different models and datasets. For each column: highest score is **bolded**, second-highest is underlined. 134

B.1 Section correspondence between the supplementary and the main paper. 136

B.2 Multi-granularity retrieval performance of all baselines at **32 uniformly sampled frames** per video. **Bold** and underline indicate the best and second-best results within each model group, respectively. 139

B.3 Training-time spatial scaling results with fixed temporal density ($F_{\text{train}} = 4$), evaluated at **8 test frames**. Models trained at varying spatial resolutions ($T_{\text{train}} \in \{50, 100, 200, 400\}$) are evaluated across all spatial test configurations. **Bold** indicates the best result within each group. 140

B.4 Training-time temporal scaling results with fixed spatial density ($T_{\text{train}} = 50$ tokens per frame), evaluated at **100 test spatial tokens**. Models trained at varying frame counts ($F_{\text{train}} \in \{4, 8, 16, 32\}$) are evaluated across six temporal test configurations. **Bold** indicates the best result within each group. 141

C.1 Number of nodes in HNSW layers for four datasets. 148

C.2 GPU equipment of five servers for two services. 148

# Towards Scalable and Generalizable Video Retrieval

by

**Zhuoning Guo**

Thrust of Artificial Intelligence

The Hong Kong University of Science and Technology (Guangzhou)

## ABSTRACT

Video retrieval is a foundational operation in modern multimedia search, recommendation, and content discovery systems. Given a user query, a retrieval system must identify relevant videos from a large candidate collection and provide reliable candidates for downstream ranking, recommendation, or user interaction. As online video collections continue to grow in scale, duration, modality, and semantic complexity, video retrieval can no longer be adequately characterized as short-clip matching under a fixed benchmark protocol. Practical retrieval systems must support heterogeneous query forms, recognize evidence at different semantic granularities, construct dependable video representations from limited visual observations, and search large candidate spaces under stringent latency and throughput constraints.

This thesis studies video retrieval as a pipeline-level problem of generalization and scalability. It is organized around three connected research questions. First, how can retrieval

representations be learned so that they remain effective across diverse query types, semantic conditions, and relevance patterns, rather than being specialized to a narrow set of datasets? Second, how does the density of visual observation, including temporal coverage and spatial detail, shape the corpus-side embeddings used for retrieval, and how can retrieval quality be preserved when inference must be computationally efficient? Third, how can learned retrieval signals be made searchable over large candidate collections, where relevance modeling, approximate search, graph traversal, and hardware execution are tightly coupled? By addressing these questions, the thesis connects representation learning, video embedding generation, and large-scale candidate retrieval into a coherent methodology for building video retrieval systems that are more general, more efficient, and more practical for deployment.

# CHAPTER 1

# INTRODUCTION

## 1.1 Background and Motivation

Video retrieval is a central task in multimedia information systems, supporting content search, recommendation, personalization, and large-scale video discovery. Given a query, a retrieval system identifies relevant videos from a candidate collection and provides a compact set of candidates for subsequent ranking or decision-making. The rapid growth of online video content in scale, duration, diversity, and semantic complexity has made video retrieval an important research problem at the intersection of multimedia representation learning, information retrieval, and recommender systems.

Early research on video retrieval was commonly formulated as text-to-video matching over short clips. In this setting, each video is typically paired with one or more concise textual descriptions, and retrieval is evaluated by the alignment between the text query and the corresponding clip. This formulation has provided a productive foundation for video-language contrastive learning, spatiotemporal encoding, and multimodal embedding models. Contemporary video retrieval, however, extends beyond this controlled regime. Retrieval systems increasingly encounter heterogeneous query forms, richer semantic conditions, complex video content, and candidate collections whose size precludes exhaustive scoring. These developments shift video retrieval from a fixed benchmark matching problem to a broader methodological question: how can retrieval remain effective as the semantic scope, visual input, and search space of the problem continue to expand?

This thesis studies this question through three connected aspects of retrieval: semantic

scale, observational scale, and search scale. Semantic scale defines the scope of relevance that a video retrieval representation is expected to model. Observational scale determines the visual evidence from which such a representation is formed. Search scale governs the extent to which the resulting retrieval signal can be applied over large candidate collections. Together, these aspects characterize a complete retrieval process: the representation defines the relevance space, visual observation determines the evidence available to the representation, and search determines whether the learned signal can be applied at corpus scale.

Semantic scale defines the breadth and structure of the relevance space in video retrieval. Real-world retrieval scenarios rarely reduce to a single form of query-video alignment. They may involve textual, visual, or composed queries; global scene-level semantics or fine-grained event details; temporal dynamics, spatial relations, and partial relevance; as well as both short clips and long-context videos. A general-purpose retrieval representation should therefore support diverse relevance conditions rather than optimize for one narrow matching pattern. The first study addresses this dimension by organizing heterogeneous retrieval capabilities, synthesizing targeted multi-task supervision, and training a general video embedder through curriculum learning. In this way, task organization and data synthesis expand the semantic scope of video retrieval representation learning.

Observational scale concerns the fidelity and selectivity with which visual evidence is preserved for retrieval. A video retrieval model cannot process a video at full spatiotemporal resolution, and should instead construct its representation from a finite set of sampled frames and visual tokens. This constraint creates a fundamental trade-off between temporal coverage and spatial detail under a fixed computational budget. Increasing the number of frames may improve the chance of capturing transient or localized events, whereas preserving more spatial tokens may better support queries that depend on object appearance, scene layout, or global visual semantics. The appropriate allocation is therefore not universal, but depends on the granularity and structure of the query. The second study investigates

this dimension by analyzing retrieval behavior across temporal sampling densities, spatial token budgets, training densities, and inference densities, and further develops dense-to-sparse self-distillation to transfer retrieval capability from high-density observation to efficient sparse inference.

Search scale determines whether learned retrieval signals remain usable under the computational constraints of large candidate collections. Although small benchmarks often permit exhaustive similarity computation between a query and every candidate video, practical video retrieval and recommendation systems operate over collections that may contain hundreds of millions of items. At this scale, video representations are expensive to store, compare, and update, and exhaustive neural scoring is incompatible with online latency and throughput requirements. A useful retrieval signal should therefore be not only accurate, but also searchable and executable within large-scale serving systems. The third study addresses this dimension by co-designing learned retrieval metrics, graph-based approximate nearest neighbor search, and GPU-parallel execution. This design improves the compatibility between learned similarity functions and graph traversal, while accelerating irregular retrieval computation under high-concurrency large-corpus settings.

Taken together, these studies form a coherent research trajectory for scalable and generalizable video retrieval. The thesis begins with representation learning that expands the semantic and supervisory basis of video retrieval, proceeds to spatiotemporal sampling analysis and adaptation under varying visual density, and culminates in efficient candidate search over large video corpora. This trajectory reflects a unified view of video retrieval: effective retrieval depends on the relevance conditions represented by the model, the visual evidence preserved by sampling, and the efficiency with which the resulting retrieval signal is searched at scale. By addressing these aspects jointly, the thesis develops methods for video retrieval systems that support richer semantic tasks, adapt to different sampling budgets, and operate over large candidate spaces while maintaining effectiveness across heterogeneous

queries, videos, and deployment conditions.

## 1.2 Organization of the Thesis

The remainder of this thesis is organized as follows. Chapter 2 reviews the background and related literature on video retrieval, organized into fundamental concepts (including information retrieval formulation, video retrieval paradigms, embedding models, spatiotemporal sampling, and large-scale retrieval systems) and a literature review covering retrieval benchmarks, embedding model evolution, spatiotemporal scaling challenges, and learned metrics for graph-based retrieval. Chapter 3 presents the first study, which focuses on scalable video retrieval representation learning through capability-guided evaluation, targeted multi-task data synthesis, curriculum learning, and the General Video Embedder. Chapter 4 extends the investigation to observational scale by analyzing retrieval behavior across temporal and spatial sampling densities and introducing dense-to-sparse self-distillation for efficient inference. Chapter 5 advances the thesis toward search scale by studying search-friendly learned metrics, graph-based approximate nearest neighbor search, parallel graph traversal, and GPU execution under high-concurrency large-corpus settings. Chapter 6 concludes the thesis by summarizing the main contributions and discussing future directions, including adaptive sampling policies, retrieval-oriented video foundation models, joint optimization of embeddings and indexes, and evaluation protocols for real-world video retrieval. Finally, Chapter 7 lists the publications involved in this thesis.

# CHAPTER 2

# BACKGROUND AND LITERATURE REVIEW

This chapter provides the foundational background and surveys the literature relevant to this thesis. We organize the review into two main sections: §2.1 introduces the fundamental concepts and formulations along the video retrieval pipeline, while §2.2 surveys existing work and identifies research gaps.

## 2.1 Basic Concepts

This section introduces the fundamental concepts and formulations underlying this thesis, organized along the core pipeline of video retrieval: from problem formulation (§2.1.1–§2.1.2), to the embedding models that produce representations (§2.1.3), to the spatiotemporal preprocessing required before videos enter the model (§2.1.4), and finally to the large-scale retrieval systems that deploy these components in practice (§2.1.5–§2.1.6).

### 2.1.1 Information Retrieval

Information retrieval (IR) is the task of identifying items from a collection that satisfy a user's information need. Formally, given a query $q$ and a corpus $\mathcal{C} = \{c_1, c_2, \ldots, c_N\}$ of $N$ candidate items, the goal is to retrieve the subset of items most relevant to $q$ according to some relevance criterion. In the ranking formulation, the system produces an ordered list of items sorted by their estimated relevance scores $s(q, c_i)$.

The effectiveness of an IR system depends on two core components: a **representation function** that encodes queries and items into a comparable form, and a **similarity function**

that measures the relevance between their representations. The choice of representation determines what aspects of the data can be captured, while the similarity function determines how these representations are compared.

### 2.1.2 Video Retrieval

Video retrieval extends the general IR framework to the domain of video content, where the corpus consists of videos and queries can take multiple modalities. Given a query $q$ and a video corpus $\mathcal{V} = \{v_1, v_2, \ldots, v_N\}$, the task is to identify videos whose content is relevant to $q$ [1].

#### Query Modalities

Video retrieval systems support diverse query formats:

**Textual Video Retrieval** (a.k.a., Text-to-Video Retrieval). The query $q$ is a natural language description, and the system retrieves videos matching the textual description. This is the most widely studied formulation, with benchmarks such as MSR-VTT [2] and DiDeMo [3] establishing the standard evaluation paradigm.

**Composed Video Retrieval**. The query $q$ combines multiple modalities, typically a text description and a reference image or video. This formulation supports scenarios where users provide both visual examples and textual specifications to refine their search intent [4, 5].

**Visual Video Retrieval**. The query $q$ is a pure visual input (image or video), and the system retrieves semantically similar videos from the corpus [6].

#### Semantic Domains

Beyond query modality, video retrieval tasks vary in the granularity and nature of the semantic match required:

**Coarse-grained retrieval** involves matching high-level semantics, such as overall video themes or general content categories. Short-clip benchmarks like MSR-VTT typically fall into this category.

**Fine-grained retrieval** requires understanding detailed spatial relationships or temporal dynamics within videos, such as identifying specific objects, actions, or camera movements [7, 8].

**Partially relevant retrieval** addresses scenarios where only a portion of a video is relevant to the query [9]. Benchmarks such as TVR [10] and ActivityNet Captions [11] provide fine-grained temporal annotations for moment localization.

**Long-video retrieval** extends the temporal scope to hour-long videos, where relevant content may occupy only a small fraction of the total duration [12]. This setting introduces challenges of temporal sparsity and multi-granular query understanding.

### 2.1.3 Video Embedding Models

Modern video retrieval systems rely on embedding-based approaches, where queries and videos are mapped to dense vector representations in a shared semantic space, reducing retrieval to nearest neighbor search in the embedding space.

#### Embedding Formulation

Let $E_q : \mathcal{Q} \to \mathbb{R}^d$ and $E_v : \mathcal{V} \to \mathbb{R}^d$ denote the query and video embedding functions, which map inputs to $d$-dimensional vectors. The relevance between a query $q$ and a video $v$ is computed as the cosine similarity between their embeddings:

$$s(q, v) = \frac{E_q(q) \cdot E_v(v)}{\|E_q(q)\| \, \|E_v(v)\|} \tag{2.1}$$

The embedding functions are implemented as neural network encoders. Depending on

the underlying architecture, these encoders can be broadly categorized into two families.

### CLIP-based Embedding Models

The first family builds upon CLIP [13], a vision-language model pretrained via contrastive learning on large-scale image-text pairs. CLIP employs a **dual-encoder architecture**: a text encoder and an image encoder project their respective inputs into a shared embedding space where cross-modal similarity is measured by cosine similarity.

To extend CLIP to video retrieval, researchers have introduced temporal modeling into the visual encoder. These CLIP-based models retain the dual-encoder paradigm: a **text encoder** processes natural language queries, while a separate **video encoder** processes sampled frames, and the two encoders are trained to align text and video representations through contrastive objectives. A characteristic of CLIP-based models is that the query and video encoders are architecturally distinct modules tailored to their respective modalities. While effective for text-to-video retrieval, this design limits their ability to handle composed queries or visual queries, as the text encoder cannot natively process visual inputs and vice versa.

### MLLM-based Embedding Models

The second family leverages Multimodal Large Language Models (MLLMs) as embedding backbones [14]. Unlike CLIP-based models with separate modality-specific encoders, MLLM-based models employ a **unified architecture** that processes text, images, and video through the same model. Typically, an MLLM consists of a visual encoder (e.g., a ViT) that converts images or video frames into visual tokens, which are then concatenated with text tokens and jointly processed by a large language model (LLM). The final embedding is extracted via pooling over the output token sequence.

Representative MLLM-based embedding models include UNITE [14], VLM2Vec-V2 [15], and LLaVE [16]. These models inherit the strong language understanding and

visual generalization capabilities of their LLM backbones, enabling them to handle diverse query formats—textual, composed, and visual—within a single model. This architectural shift from modality-specific encoders to unified MLLM-based encoders reflects a broader trend toward general-purpose video embedding models [17].

### 2.1.4 Spatiotemporal Sampling

Before a video can be processed by an embedding model, it must be converted into a discrete sequence of visual inputs through **spatiotemporal sampling**. Since encoding every frame at full resolution is computationally prohibitive [18], this preprocessing step critically determines both the available visual evidence and the retrieval quality [19].

**Temporal sampling** selects $F$ frames from a video of duration $T$. The most common strategy is uniform sampling, where frames are evenly spaced across the video duration.

**Spatial sampling** determines the visual resolution or token representation per frame. For ViT-based architectures, this involves converting frames into sequences of visual tokens, where the token count $S$ determines the spatial detail preserved.

The combination of temporal frame count $F$ and spatial token count $S$ per frame defines the total input size $F \times S$ for the embedding model. This decomposition into orthogonal spatiotemporal dimensions allows systems to trade off temporal coverage against spatial detail under a fixed computational budget [20].

### 2.1.5 Approximate Nearest Neighbor Search

Given a query embedding $\mathbf{q} \in \mathbb{R}^d$ and a large-scale database $\mathcal{D} = \{\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2, \ldots, \mathbf{v}_N\}$ of $N$ candidate embeddings, the nearest neighbor search task is to find the $K$ items in $\mathcal{D}$ most similar to $\mathbf{q}$. When $N$ is large (millions to billions), exact search via exhaustive comparison becomes computationally prohibitive, motivating the development of **Approximate Near-**

**est Neighbor Search (ANNS)** algorithms that achieve sub-linear query time by building index structures for selective exploration of the database.

Three main categories of index structures have been developed for ANNS:

**Tree-based methods** recursively partition the vector space using hierarchical structures. KD-trees [21] perform well in low-dimensional spaces but suffer from the "curse of dimensionality" as dimensionality increases.

**Hashing-based methods** map high-dimensional vectors to compact binary codes using locality-sensitive hashing (LSH) [22], enabling fast similarity estimation through Hamming distance.

**Graph-based methods** construct a proximity graph where nodes represent database items and edges connect similar items. During retrieval, a greedy traversal starting from entry points iteratively expands the candidate set by examining neighbors of visited nodes. The Hierarchical Navigable Small World (HNSW) algorithm [23] builds a multi-layered graph where upper layers provide sparse long-range connections for coarse navigation and lower layers provide dense local connections for fine-grained search. Graph-based methods have demonstrated superior performance on high-dimensional data and are widely adopted in production systems [24].

A key property for efficient graph traversal is the **triangle inequality**: for any three points $a$, $b$, $c$ in a metric space, $d(a, c) \leq d(a, b) + d(b, c)$. When this property holds, greedy graph traversal is guaranteed to follow optimal paths. However, learned neural relevance metrics often violate the triangle inequality [25], forcing the exploration of redundant edges and degrading retrieval efficiency. Designing search-compatible metrics that approximately satisfy this property is important for effective graph-based retrieval.

### 2.1.6 Industrial Retrieval Systems

Modern large-scale recommendation systems adopt a **retrieval-and-ranking architecture** [26, 27]. The retrieval stage reduces a billion-scale item catalog to a thousand-scale candidate set using lightweight models, which then serves as input for more sophisticated ranking models. This multi-stage design is essential for balancing effectiveness and efficiency at web scale [28].

The **two-tower architecture** [29] is widely adopted for the retrieval stage. It encodes queries and items through separate neural networks into embeddings compared via efficient similarity metrics such as inner product or cosine similarity. This architecture enables pre-computation and indexing of item representations, allowing real-time retrieval through ANNS.

Beyond simple distance metrics, recent works leverage **DNN-based learnable metrics** [30, 31] to estimate user-item relevance through high-dimensional computation over user and item embeddings, capturing more complex interaction patterns than hand-designed similarity functions [25, 32]. Representative systems include YouTube's recommendation engine [27], Pinterest's Pixie [33], and LinkedIn's CaSMoS [34].

## 2.2 Literature Review

This section surveys existing work along the video retrieval pipeline, covering the evolution of retrieval benchmarks and embedding models (§2.2.1), the challenges of spatiotemporal scaling for long-video retrieval (§2.2.2), and the integration of learned retrieval metrics with large-scale graph-based search systems (§2.2.3).

### 2.2.1 Video Retrieval Benchmarks and Embedding Models

Text-to-video retrieval has progressed from matching coarse phrases to parsing fine-grained spatio-temporal descriptions. Early datasets established the foundational paradigm: MSR-VTT [2] introduced large-scale video-caption pairing with short clips, while DiDeMo [3] focused on temporal moment localization. Subsequent benchmarks extended the scope in complementary directions: CaReBench [7] incorporates spatio-temporal grounding annotations, UltraVideo [35] targets scene understanding, and CameraBench [8] evaluates camera motion comprehension. Beyond text-to-video retrieval, new retrieval paradigms have emerged, including composed queries with text-image pairs (e.g., CoVR [4, 5]) and purely visual queries in egocentric contexts [6]. For long-video retrieval, LoVR [12] targets retrieval over hour-long videos, while TVR [10] and ActivityNet Captions [11] provide fine-grained temporal annotations for partially relevant video retrieval [9]. Despite this progress, evaluation remains fragmented, with models optimized and tested on isolated benchmarks, preventing a holistic understanding of model generalization across heterogeneous retrieval settings.

The development of video embedding models can be traced through two major phases. The first phase extended CLIP [13] to video by introducing temporal modeling: CLIP4Clip [36] pioneered temporal aggregation over frame-level features, followed by InternVideo2 [37] and X-CLIP [38], which developed more sophisticated spatiotemporal encoders. These models, all built on the dual-encoder paradigm, achieved strong results on standard text-to-video benchmarks but were inherently constrained by their modality-specific architecture.

The second phase, more recent, shifted to MLLM-based backbones that process multiple modalities within a unified architecture. Models such as LLaVE [16], UNITE [14], and VLM2Vec-V2 [15] demonstrated that leveraging the language understanding and vi-

sual generalization of large pretrained models could yield strong embedding performance. Qwen3-VL-Embedding [17] further showed the potential of large-scale supervised training for MLLM-based embeddings. Despite these advances, a systematic evaluation of such models across diverse retrieval tasks and semantic domains has been lacking, leaving their true generalization capabilities unclear.

### 2.2.2 Long-Video Retrieval and Spatiotemporal Scaling

Early text-video retrieval benchmarks such as MSR-VTT [2] and DiDeMo [3] consist of short clips where sparse frame sampling suffices to capture the full content, rendering sampling strategy largely inconsequential. As retrieval extends to longer and more informationally dense videos, the choice of spatiotemporal sampling becomes critical [19]. Since encoding every frame at full resolution is computationally prohibitive [18], models must carefully balance temporal coverage and spatial detail under a fixed computational budget.

Scaling-law studies in this domain have primarily examined model size and training data volume, establishing how performance scales with these factors. A complementary effort [20] establishes power-law scaling with respect to frame count and caption density on short clips, providing insights into the data efficiency of video models. Prior work on efficient video modeling has studied sparse sampling strategies, with VideoMAE [39] demonstrating that masked autoencoders can learn effective representations from sparsely sampled frames by reconstructing masked portions of the input. However, these studies focus on representation learning rather than retrieval performance, and their findings may not transfer to retrieval settings where the goal is to compare videos against queries in a shared embedding space.

How spatiotemporal sampling interacts with retrieval performance across different query granularities—from coarse thematic descriptions to fine-grained moment localization—remains underexplored, particularly for long-form videos where tempo-

ral sparsity poses distinct challenges. Intuitively, coarse-grained retrieval may benefit from dense temporal sampling to capture broad video themes, while fine-grained retrieval may require high spatial resolution to capture subtle visual details. However, this intuition has not been systematically validated, and the optimal sampling strategy may vary depending on the query type, video length, and computational constraints. This gap motivates the spatiotemporal scaling analysis proposed in Chapter 4.

### 2.2.3 Learned Metrics and Graph-based Retrieval

As defined in §2.1.5, graph-based ANNS methods such as HNSW [23] have become the dominant approach for high-dimensional similarity search, with subsequent works developing K-nearest neighbor graphs [40], relative neighborhood graphs [41], and GPU-optimized constructions [42]. These methods achieve sub-linear query time by constructing proximity graphs that enable greedy traversal toward the query, but their effectiveness depends critically on the properties of the similarity metric used during traversal. In parallel, the retrieval metrics deployed in industrial systems have evolved from simple distance functions such as cosine similarity to learned DNN-based metrics that capture more complex relevance patterns (as discussed in §2.1.6).

A critical challenge arises at the intersection of these two trends: neural relevance metrics often violate the triangle inequality [25], a property that ensures optimal pathfinding in graph traversal (see §2.1.5). This violation forces the exploration of redundant edges and degrades retrieval efficiency, as the greedy traversal may follow paths that appear promising according to the learned metric but do not lead to the true nearest neighbors. Early industrial frameworks such as SL2G [32] first leveraged DNN-based metrics for graph-based ANNS in real-world recommendations, demonstrating that learned metrics could improve retrieval accuracy despite their incompatibility with graph traversal. NANN [25] extended this by improving the DNN-based metric for better accuracy and adaptivity, but the fundamental

tension between metric expressiveness and search compatibility remained unresolved.

The co-design of learned retrieval metrics with graph traversal efficiency—ensuring that the metric not only captures relevance accurately but also supports efficient navigation—remains an open problem, particularly in GPU-accelerated environments serving high-concurrency workloads [28, 43].

# CHAPTER 3

# TOWARDS UNIVERSAL VIDEO RETRIEVAL: GENERALIZING VIDEO EMBEDDING VIA SYNTHESIZED MULTIMODAL PYRAMID CURRICULUM

**Chapter Abstract.** The prevailing video retrieval evaluation suffers from fragmented benchmarks that obscure true model generalization. To diagnose this limitation, we conduct a structured assessment across 16 established public datasets, revealing critical capability gaps, particularly pronounced deficiencies in fine-grained, temporal, and partially relevant video retrieval. The discoveries directly motivate the holistic design of our framework: V-SynFlow synthesizes 1.55 million high-quality, multi-task video-text pairs explicitly targeting the uncovered deficiencies, while the Modality Pyramid curriculum trains the General Video Embedder (GVE) by leveraging inherent task hierarchies for progressive learning. GVE achieves state-of-the-art zero-shot performance across diverse scenarios. Our analysis further demonstrates that conventional benchmarks poorly correlate with holistic retrieval capability, and identifies partially relevant retrieval as a pivotal yet overlooked real-world challenge. This work establishes a practical pathway toward universal video retrieval by tightly coupling evaluation diagnostics with structured training on diverse synthesized data.

## 3.1 Introduction

Video retrieval is a critical and challenging task for modern search engines and recommendation systems, requiring effective video embedding models [1]. Early efforts extended Contrastive Language-Image Pretraining (CLIP) [13] to video [44]. Currently, Multimodal Large Language Models (MLLMs) are rapidly displacing CLIP due to the superior language

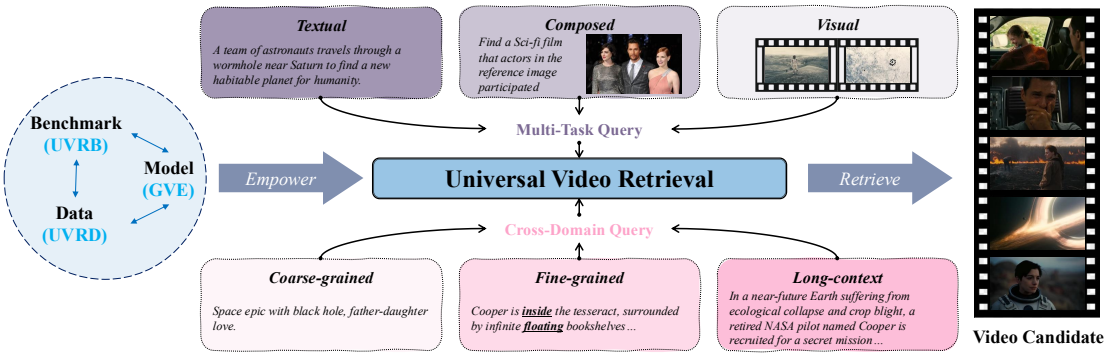



Figure 3.1: Universal Video Retrieval organizes heterogeneous retrieval settings into a unified capability space.

understanding and visual generalization capabilities of these models [14]. Current practices involve training these models on massive datasets with simple and noisy text annotations (e.g., WebVid [45]), which yields strong results for coarse-grained text-to-video retrieval on standard benchmarks (e.g., MSRVTT [2]).

However, these models struggle with the complexity of diverse real-world video retrieval scenarios (Figure 3.1). First, a narrow semantic distribution renders these models less effective in fine-grained queries required to understand spatial relations or temporal dynamics [7], as well as in long-context retrieval within lengthy videos [12]. Second, the scope of applicable tasks is restricted, with limited support for diverse query formats, such as composed retrieval using text-and-image pairs. Furthermore, these capability gaps are often obscured by the fragmented evaluation landscape, where models are optimized and tested on isolated benchmarks, preventing a clear understanding of comprehensive generalization.

Therefore, to establish a framework for universal video retrieval that supports multi-domain, multi-granularity, and multi-task capabilities, *two critical hurdles in data and modeling* must be addressed: (1) *Large-Scale Quality-Controlled Data Synthesis*: Existing datasets are either too small or are biased, while collecting a new, massive dataset is prohibitively expensive. Growing works attempt to synthesize data to address this challenge [4, 46, 47]. However, these resources often exhibit uneven quality and distribu-

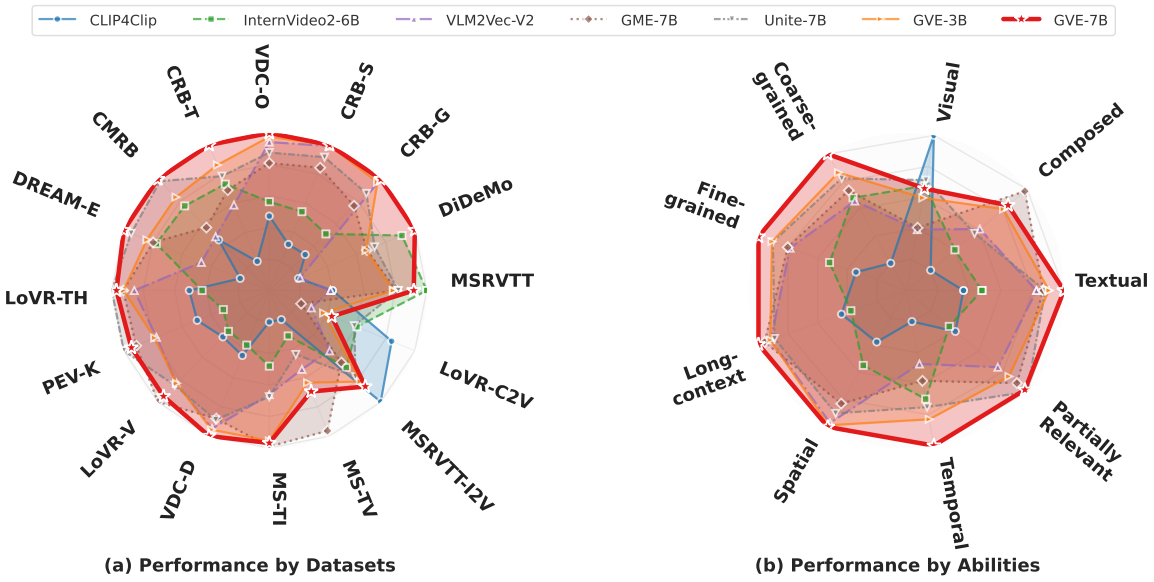



Figure 3.2: Model performance on UVRB for 16 datasets and 9 abilities (3 main tasks and 6 (sub-) domains).

tion. Therefore, gaining precise control over the properties of large-scale, cross-domain, multi-task data via a unified synthesis process is a primary challenge. (2) *Interconnected Multi-task Representation Learning*: A critical, often-ignored aspect is the inherent hierarchy among tasks. Foundational abilities such as spatial perception (e.g., object recognition) serve as building blocks for higher-order temporal reasoning (e.g., action recognition). This principle is evidenced by the remarkable success of image-only trained models like GME [48] on video retrieval tasks (see Figure 3.2), highlighting latent cross-task adaptability. Nevertheless, conventional models that assume task independence fail to capitalize on this structure, which is a key to unlocking superior generalization.

To this end, we propose a holistic framework that couples targeted data synthesis with stable modeling. First, to expose the concrete limitations of current approaches, we perform a standardized evaluation across 16 established public datasets, assessing 14 state-of-the-art models under unified preprocessing and metrics. Second, directly guided by the capability gaps identified in this evaluation (e.g., deficiencies in temporal and composed retrieval), we design **V-SynFlow**. This workflow transforms raw videos into a targeted,

high-quality dataset, the **Universal Video Retrieval Dataset (UVRD)**, consisting of over 1.55 million multi-task pairs. Third, to ensure stability during heterogeneous training, we apply the **Modality Pyramid**, a training curriculum that leverages inherent task dependencies. It optimizes the **General Video Embedder (GVE)** by prioritizing foundational tasks before progressing to complex ones, facilitating smooth gradient convergence.

Extensive experiments validate the effectiveness of the GVE model (Figure 3.2). In addition to strong zero-shot performance, the analysis reveals that performance on conventional benchmarks correlates poorly with overall retrieval capability; meanwhile, partially relevant video retrieval can serve as a representative indicator of universal video retrieval.

The main contributions of this work are summarized as follows: (1) **Data**: We propose V-SynFlow, a synthesis pipeline that produces UVRD with over 1.55 million video-text pairs to explicitly address the data deficiencies identified in current models. (2) **Training**: We introduce the Modality Pyramid curriculum, a training strategy that mitigates modality interference in heterogeneous multi-task learning, enabling the GVE model to achieve stable and strong zero-shot generalization. (3) **Analysis**: Rather than proposing a novel benchmark, we establish a unified evaluation protocol across 16 existing datasets. This standardized assessment systematically diagnoses model universality and offers new empirical insights beyond traditional evaluation paradigms.

## 3.2 Related Works

**Video Retrieval.** Text-to-video retrieval has progressed from matching coarse phrases to parsing fine-grained spatio-temporal descriptions [2]. While recent benchmarks have advanced beyond simple recognition by incorporating detailed annotations like spatio-temporal grounding (CaReBench [7]), scene understanding (UltraVideo [35]), and camera motion (CameraBench [8]), they remain specialized. Concurrently, the scope of retrieval

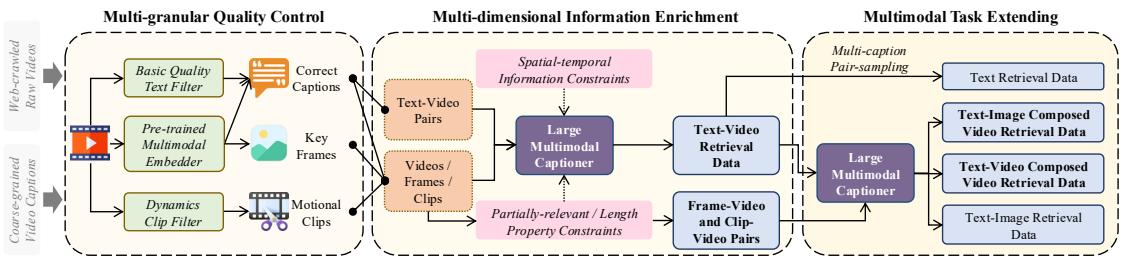



Figure 3.3: V-SynFlow: a multi-stage synthesis workflow for diverse video retrieval data.

has expanded to include new paradigms like composed queries with text-image pairs (e.g., CoVR [4, 5]) and purely visual queries in egocentric contexts [6]. Despite these advances, the field remains fragmented, with models and evaluation siloed within specific tasks or domains. This prevents a holistic understanding of a model's true generalization capabilities.

**Video Embedding Models.** Video embedding models have evolved from the adaptation of image-centric ones, such as CLIP [13], to powerful, larger language-based encoders. Early methods such as CLIP4Clip [36] and InternVideo2 [37] added temporal modules to CLIP but inherited its limitations in complex language understanding and long-context processing [49, 50]. To overcome these issues, recent work leverages Multimodal Large Language Models (MLLMs) as video embedders. Models like LLaVE [16], UNITE [14], and VLM2Vec-V2 [15] achieve strong performance on benchmarks by training on text-image and text-video data. However, this data has so far been limited for learning generalizable embeddings, and these video embedding models have not been systematically evaluated on more complex video retrieval tasks and across diverse video domains.

## 3.3 Preliminary

To bridge the persistent gap of fragmented evaluation protocols, we formulate the core problem from a holistic perspective by introducing the unified paradigm of Universal Video Retrieval (UVR). This preliminary setup provides an objective diagnostic foundation to motivate our method contributions.

### 3.3.1 Formulations

**Definition 3.3.1 (Universal Video Retrieval (UVR))** *Given a matching pair comprising a query $q$ and a video $v$, UVR aims to learn a $\theta$-parameterized model $E_\theta(\cdot)$ to compute a relevance score $s_{q\to v} = \cos(E_\theta(q), E_\theta(v))$. This score must be consistently higher than the similarity scores of irrelevant pairs across any query format or data domain. Specifically, this paradigm categorizes the retrieval space into two primary dimensions:* ***(1) Query Format*** *incorporates Textual (TXT, e.g., natural language), Composed (CMP, combinations such as text and image or text and video), and Visual (VIS, pure image or video queries).* ***(2) Data Domain*** *incorporates Coarse-grained (CG, high-level semantics), Fine-grained categories including Spatial (S, object), Temporal (T, dynamics), and Partially Relevant (PR, parital information), alongside Long-context (LC, lengthy inputs).*

This formalization integrates isolated retrieval tasks into a comprehensive taxonomy, delineating the full spectrum of capabilities required for a truly universal video retrieval system.

### 3.3.2 Unified Evaluation Protocol

To operationalize the UVR paradigm and systematically diagnose generalization bottlenecks, we establish a standardized evaluation protocol across 16 public video retrieval

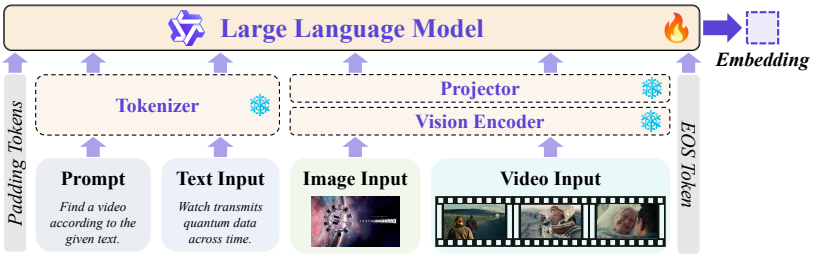



Figure 3.4: The architecture of GVE, a MLLM-based embedding model. We only fine-tune the LLM part. GVE inputs compositional multimodal elements and outputs a high-dimensional vector as an embedding. Details are in Appendix A.1.6.

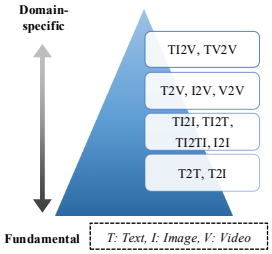



Figure 3.5: Modality Pyramid: simpler tasks lay the foundation for specific ones.

datasets. The consolidation of these existing resources into a unified evaluation suite—which we refer to as the Universal Video Retrieval Benchmark (UVRB) protocol—provides a comprehensive framework for assessing model universality against the exhaustive query formats and domain complexities outlined in Definition 3.3.1.

To guarantee an objective assessment, all datasets undergo identical preprocessing, including uniform frame sampling, query normalization per task type, and strict adherence to a vision-only input scope. The evaluation follows a strictly model-agnostic protocol. Embeddings are extracted directly from the frozen representation space, and relevance is computed solely via cosine similarity without task-specific post-processing or learnable projections. This standardization eliminates heuristics and isolates the visual-semantic alignment capabilities of the backbones.

This comprehensive diagnostic framework (detailed in Appendix A.1.1) exposes systemic capability deficiencies across current models, directly motivating the necessity and design of our targeted data synthesis pipeline and heterogeneous task curriculum in the subsequent methodology.

## 3.4 Methodology

This section introduces a co-designed framework for universal video retrieval. Guided by UVR, we first propose V-SynFlow. This workflow synthesizes the Universal Video Retrieval Dataset (UVRD), comprising 1.55 million targeted video-text pairs to explicitly supplement general retrieval data. Subsequently, we introduce the Modality Pyramid curriculum, an strategy designed to stabilize the optimization of the General Video Embedder (GVE) by leveraging inherent task hierarchies across heterogeneous modalities.

### 3.4.1 Scalable Synthesis of Cross-Domain Multi-Task Video Retrieval Data

Training a universal video embedder is fundamentally impeded by a deficiency of high-quality supervision for divergent tasks. Guided by the concrete capability gaps identified in the preliminary diagnostics, such as severe shortcomings in fine-grained temporal reasoning and composed retrieval, we introduce **V-SynFlow** (Figure 3.3). This pipeline transforms weakly annotated web videos from raw datasets (e.g., PVD [51], InternVid-FLT [52], and WebVid [45]) into structured, high-fidelity, and gap-targeted multi-task training instances. Through this targeted approach, we construct the **Universal Video Retrieval Dataset (UVRD)**, containing over 1.55 million descriptive pairs tailored for multidimensional training enhancement (detailed in Appendix A.1.3). Specifically, the V-SynFlow workflow proceeds in three stages as follows. Detailed procedures and the applied prompts for synthesis are provided in Appendix A.1.5.

**Multi-granular Quality Control.** Given a raw corpus $\mathcal{D} = \{(v_i, t_i)\}$, we produce a high-fidelity asset pool, $\mathcal{A}_{tfc}$. The process applies a filter cascade: *Annotation Rectification* removes non-descriptive text; *Cross-Modal Consistency Filtering* discards pairs where the similarity measured by a pretrained embedder $\Phi(\cdot)$ (e.g., GME-7B [48]) falls below a prede-

fined threshold (empirically set to 0.25, with detailed ablation provided in Appendix A.1.7); and *Temporal Dynamics Filtering* forcibly removes static content to ensure sufficient temporal signals. The resulting asset pool $\mathcal{A}_{tfc}$ contains a set of validated videos $\{v_j\}$, the original captions $\{t_j\}$, and corresponding sets of extracted frames $\{f_{jk}\}$ alongside cropped clips $\{c_{jl}\}$.

**Multi-dimensional Information Enrichment.** We leverage the filtered assets within $\mathcal{A}_{tfc}$ to generate richer data structures. To create an enriched text-video dataset $\mathcal{D}^{+}$, we utilize an MLLM, $\mathcal{M}_{\text{cap}}$ (e.g., Keye-VL-8B [53]), as a conditional captioning engine. For each video $v_j$, the engine synthesizes multiple captions $\{t'_{jk}\}$ conditioned by diagnostic-driven information profiles. Specifically, because the diagnostic evaluation revealed a pronounced spatial-temporal decoupling wherein temporal skills constitute the primary bottleneck, we deliberately skew the synthesis distribution: $60\%$ temporal, $30\%$ spatial, and $10\%$ targeted at partially relevant or abstract semantics, informed by our preliminary diagnostic results on UVRB. By sampling one caption for each video, we obtain a set of novel high-quality text-video pairs $\{(v_j, t'_{jk})\}$. Furthermore, we pair videos with the corresponding visual components to construct collections of visual pairs $\mathcal{P}_{f\leftrightarrow v}$ and $\mathcal{P}_{c\leftrightarrow v}$, resulting in frame-to-video $\{(f_{jk}, v_j)\}$ and clip-to-video $\{(c_{jl}, v_j)\}$ instances. To mitigate potential hallucination biases inherent in generative MLLMs, we enforce strict instructional prompts and rely on the aforementioned cross-modal consistency filtering to automatically discard misaligned generations.

**Multimodal Task Extension.** The final stage assembles the unified training corpus, $\mathcal{D}_{\star}$. To explicitly address the composed retrieval deficiency, we synthesize complex composed tasks by leveraging $\mathcal{P}_{f\leftrightarrow v}$ and $\mathcal{P}_{c\leftrightarrow v}$. For each visual pair, such as $(f_{jk}, v_j)$, the engine $\mathcal{M}_{\text{cap}}$ generates a query text $t^{f_{jk}\to v_j}$ describing the temporal evolution, forming a training instance $((t^{f_{jk}\to v_j}, f_{jk}), v_j)$. Additionally, basic alignment tasks (e.g., text-image pairs) are sampled

from $\mathcal{A}_{tfc}$. For each video, two candidates from the unselected synthesized captions are mapped as text-to-text pairs. The resulting dataset $\mathcal{D}_\star$ provides the comprehensive mixture of tasks essential for training a universal embedder.

**Human Validation**

To assess the quality of the automatically generated UVRD, human expert evaluation was conducted on a random sample of 100 instances. Validation confirmed a 95% factual accuracy rate. While this human-verified sample is a preliminary subset, it corroborates the efficacy of our automated multi-granular quality control pipeline, which serves as the primary scalable safeguard for the entire 1.55 million-pair corpus. Detailed analysis of the minor erroneous instances and the corresponding error taxonomy are in Appendix A.1.12.

### 3.4.2 Modality Pyramid: Customized Curriculum Contrastive Learning

The synthesized dataset provides a rich mixture of retrieval tasks spanning diverse query formats and data domains. To embed these multimodal inputs into a unified space, we introduce the **General Video Embedder (GVE)** (Figure 3.4), a multimodal encoder derived from Qwen2.5-VL [54] to inherit the pretrained vision-language alignment of the backbone model. For arbitrary modality combinations, the GVE model fuses the tokenized prompt and text inputs with projected visual features into a joint input sequence. The LLM processes this sequence to autoregressively produce representations. We extract the final embedding via last token pooling and $\ell_2$-normalization for retrieval.

However, naively mixing this highly heterogeneous data leads to severe modality interference and optimization instability. In early training stages under random scheduling, gradient signals from complex temporal and composed tasks are frequently submerged by sim-

Table 3.1: Video retrieval performance for datasets of UVRB. The AVG values are averaged over 16 datasets. For each column: highest score is **bolded**, second-highest is underlined. Metrics: R@1 (Recall@1), R@10 (Recall@10), P@1 (Precision@1).

| Model | AVG | MSRVTT R@1 | DiDeMo R@1 | CRB-G R@1 | CRB-S R@1 | VDC-O R@1 | CRB-T R@1 | CMRB R@10 | DREAM-E R@1 |
|---|---|---|---|---|---|---|---|---|---|
| CLIP4Clip | 0.390 | 0.333 | 0.297 | 0.511 | 0.497 | 0.620 | 0.289 | 0.280 | 0.191 |
| ViCLIP | 0.352 | 0.386 | 0.306 | 0.447 | 0.437 | 0.530 | 0.349 | 0.229 | 0.235 |
| VideoCLIP-XL | 0.491 | 0.443 | 0.403 | 0.828 | 0.839 | 0.735 | 0.487 | 0.274 | 0.263 |
| LanguageBind | 0.487 | 0.479 | 0.421 | 0.716 | 0.687 | 0.759 | 0.466 | 0.290 | 0.280 |
| InternVideo2-1B | 0.404 | 0.449 | 0.404 | 0.586 | 0.568 | 0.644 | 0.470 | 0.355 | 0.242 |
| InternVideo2-6B | 0.427 | **0.485** | 0.418 | 0.608 | 0.612 | 0.650 | 0.455 | 0.346 | 0.271 |
| GME-2B | 0.488 | 0.390 | 0.303 | 0.690 | 0.718 | 0.715 | 0.400 | 0.298 | 0.240 |
| Unite-2B | 0.480 | 0.367 | 0.298 | 0.699 | 0.723 | 0.727 | 0.409 | 0.284 | 0.223 |
| VLM2Vec-V2 | 0.508 | 0.330 | 0.299 | 0.828 | 0.843 | 0.775 | 0.410 | 0.286 | 0.228 |
| BGE-VL | 0.443 | 0.337 | 0.318 | 0.690 | 0.688 | 0.639 | 0.359 | 0.225 | 0.212 |
| UniME-7B | 0.521 | 0.351 | 0.335 | 0.815 | 0.827 | 0.743 | 0.476 | 0.317 | 0.293 |
| B3-7B | 0.511 | 0.282 | 0.350 | 0.815 | 0.825 | 0.768 | 0.415 | 0.312 | 0.216 |
| GME-7B | 0.530 | 0.436 | 0.377 | 0.740 | 0.767 | 0.731 | 0.442 | 0.304 | 0.274 |
| Unite-7B | 0.538 | 0.439 | 0.386 | 0.798 | 0.804 | 0.753 | 0.472 | 0.351 | 0.279 |
| GVE-3B | 0.544 | 0.431 | 0.376 | 0.850 | 0.846 | 0.786 | 0.496 | 0.363 | 0.280 |
| GVE-7B | **0.573** | 0.464 | **0.433** | **0.865** | **0.847** | **0.794** | **0.539** | **0.398** | **0.302** |

| Model | LoVR-TH R@10 | PEV-K R@1 | LoVR-V R@1 | VDC-D R@1 | MS-TI P@1 | MS-TV P@1 | MSRVTT-I2V R@1 | LoVR-C2V R@1 |
|---|---|---|---|---|---|---|---|---|
| CLIP4Clip | 0.338 | 0.179 | 0.360 | 0.566 | 0.173 | 0.183 | **0.924** | 0.503 |
| ViCLIP | 0.202 | 0.075 | 0.230 | 0.395 | 0.283 | 0.243 | 0.846 | 0.433 |
| VideoCLIP-XL | 0.439 | 0.229 | 0.380 | 0.820 | 0.230 | 0.223 | 0.861 | 0.403 |
| LanguageBind | 0.425 | 0.303 | 0.540 | 0.679 | 0.228 | 0.233 | 0.827 | 0.463 |
| InternVideo2-1B | 0.298 | 0.026 | 0.280 | 0.485 | 0.265 | 0.230 | 0.794 | 0.368 |
| InternVideo2-6B | 0.302 | 0.086 | 0.330 | 0.516 | 0.235 | 0.205 | 0.868 | 0.452 |
| GME-2B | 0.446 | 0.354 | 0.530 | 0.839 | **0.350** | **0.340** | 0.827 | 0.366 |
| Unite-2B | 0.445 | 0.355 | 0.570 | 0.792 | 0.250 | 0.233 | 0.863 | 0.445 |
| VLM2Vec-V2 | 0.492 | 0.324 | 0.610 | 0.913 | 0.275 | 0.250 | 0.841 | 0.385 |
| BGE-VL | 0.387 | 0.184 | 0.550 | 0.722 | 0.303 | 0.233 | 0.779 | 0.465 |
| UniME-7B | 0.504 | 0.323 | 0.480 | 0.847 | 0.310 | 0.305 | 0.867 | **0.537** |
| B3-7B | 0.462 | 0.387 | 0.590 | 0.853 | 0.275 | 0.265 | 0.884 | 0.471 |
| GME-7B | 0.523 | 0.396 | **0.710** | 0.865 | 0.348 | 0.333 | 0.860 | 0.370 |
| Unite-7B | **0.555** | **0.440** | 0.620 | 0.871 | 0.278 | 0.230 | 0.883 | 0.448 |
| GVE-3B | 0.522 | 0.330 | 0.610 | 0.918 | 0.340 | 0.268 | 0.891 | 0.403 |
| GVE-7B | 0.542 | 0.413 | 0.680 | **0.948** | 0.343 | 0.280 | 0.899 | 0.415 |

pler spatial alignment tasks, leading to erratic loss convergence and suboptimal performance on complex tasks. To ensure stable optimization across heterogeneous formats, we propose **Modality Pyramid** (Figure 3.5), a curriculum that schedules training from atomic to composite tasks for progressive knowledge acquisition. This bottom-up design is grounded in empirical evidence: after a single epoch, a clear task hierarchy emerges based on alignment scores, descending from text-image (0.65) down to text-video (0.46) and composed video (0.43) tasks (Appendix A.1.13). The curriculum functions as a stabilizing strategy, guiding the embedding model to master perceptual primitives prior to advancing to complex integration, thereby mitigating gradient submergence.

**Alignment-aware Dynamic Scheduling.** At the beginning of each epoch $t$, we estimate the alignment of every task $k \in \mathcal{K}$ using a *prober model* $\Psi_t$. For $t = 1$, $\Psi_1$ is a robust off-the-shelf embedder (e.g., GME-7B [48]). The selection of a robust, MLLM-based prober is deliberate to ground the curriculum in reliable and semantically rich task difficulty estimates for a stable initial anchor. For $t > 1$, $\Psi_t$ utilizes the GVE checkpoint from the conclusion of epoch $t - 1$. To prevent computational bottlenecks, this probing evaluation is performed offline using a randomly downsampled subset. For each task, we sample $N_p = 1000$ positive pairs and compute the relevance score as the average cosine similarity: $R_k^{(t)} = \frac{1}{N_p} \sum_i \cos(\Psi_t(x_i), \Psi_t(y_i))$. A higher $R_k^{(t)}$ indicates better current alignment. During epoch $t$, tasks are sampled with a probability $P^{(t)}(k) \propto \exp(R_k^{(t)}/\sigma(t))$, where the temperature $\sigma(t)$ increases linearly from $\sigma_{\text{min}}$ to $\sigma_{\text{max}}$ ($\sigma_{\text{min}} = 0.1$ and $\sigma_{\text{max}} = 1.0$ by default) across the total duration of the training epochs. This topological progression ensures an initial focus on well-aligned tasks while progressively encouraging challenging exploration.

**Unified Contrastive Optimization.** The GVE model is trained using a symmetric InfoNCE loss [55] across all scheduled tasks. To strengthen discrimination, we augment in-batch negatives with hard negatives mined from a large external corpus utilizing the identical prober $\Psi_t$. To mitigate the risk of false negatives (i.e., visually similar but distinct videos that happen to share target semantics), we apply a strict similarity margin constraint during mining, discarding any candidates that exceed a similarity threshold of $0.90$ with the query. For a query–target pair $(q, v^+)$, the loss contrasts $v^+$ against both other positive samples in the batch and the top-$K$ retrieved hard negatives. The similarity is computed as $s_{q \to v} = \cos(E_\theta(q), E_\theta(v))$, and the final loss is symmetrized over the query and target

Table 3.2: Video retrieval performance by specific abilities (tasks and domains) on UVRB. The AVG values are averaged over tasks (textual (TXT), composed (CMP), visual (VIS)) and domains (coarse-grained (CG), fine-grained (FG), long-context (LC)) video retrieval tasks. Besides, we provide sub-domain results, including spatial (S), temporal (T), partially relevant (PR). For each column: highest score is **bolded**, second-highest is underlined.

| | | Tasks | | | Domains | | | Sub-domains | | |
|---|---|---|---|---|---|---|---|---|---|---|
| **Model** | **AVG** | **TXT** | **CMP** | **VIS** | **CG** | **FG** | **LC** | **S** | **T** | **PR** |
| CLIP4Clip | 0.416 | 0.401 | 0.178 | **0.714** | 0.380 | 0.360 | 0.463 | 0.559 | 0.285 | 0.236 |
| ViCLIP | 0.375 | 0.336 | 0.263 | 0.640 | 0.380 | 0.315 | 0.313 | 0.484 | 0.289 | 0.171 |
| VideoCLIP-XL | 0.510 | 0.550 | 0.227 | 0.632 | 0.558 | 0.493 | 0.600 | 0.787 | 0.381 | 0.310 |
| LanguageBind | 0.508 | 0.543 | 0.231 | 0.645 | 0.539 | 0.479 | 0.610 | 0.723 | 0.378 | 0.336 |
| InternVideo2-1B | 0.420 | 0.422 | 0.248 | 0.581 | 0.480 | 0.403 | 0.383 | 0.606 | 0.413 | 0.189 |
| InternVideo2-6B | 0.445 | 0.448 | 0.220 | 0.660 | 0.504 | 0.417 | 0.423 | 0.631 | 0.400 | 0.220 |
| GME-2B | 0.416 | 0.539 | **0.345** | 0.597 | 0.461 | 0.471 | 0.685 | 0.716 | 0.349 | 0.347 |
| Unite-2B | 0.507 | 0.536 | 0.242 | 0.654 | 0.455 | 0.471 | 0.681 | 0.725 | 0.347 | 0.341 |
| VLM2Vec-V2 | 0.538 | 0.587 | 0.263 | 0.613 | 0.498 | 0.502 | 0.762 | 0.809 | 0.348 | 0.348 |
| BGE-VL | 0.480 | 0.497 | 0.268 | 0.622 | 0.448 | 0.406 | 0.636 | 0.664 | 0.292 | 0.261 |
| UniME-7B | 0.542 | 0.561 | 0.308 | 0.702 | 0.500 | 0.518 | 0.664 | 0.785 | 0.396 | 0.373 |
| B3-7B | 0.538 | 0.570 | 0.270 | 0.678 | 0.482 | 0.505 | 0.722 | 0.797 | 0.364 | 0.355 |
| GME-7B | 0.562 | 0.604 | 0.341 | 0.615 | 0.518 | 0.507 | 0.788 | 0.749 | 0.373 | 0.398 |
| Unite-7B | 0.559 | 0.609 | 0.254 | 0.666 | 0.541 | 0.539 | 0.746 | 0.779 | 0.412 | **0.425** |
| GVE-3B | 0.571 | 0.619 | 0.304 | 0.647 | 0.552 | 0.541 | 0.764 | 0.816 | 0.430 | 0.377 |
| GVE-7B | **0.600** | **0.657** | 0.312 | 0.657 | **0.587** | **0.570** | **0.814** | **0.821** | **0.469** | 0.419 |

directions:

$$\mathcal{L}_i^{(q\to y)} = -\log\left\{ \exp(s_{q_i\to y_i^+}/\tau_l) \Big/ \left[ \exp(s_{q_i\to y_i^+}/\tau_l) + \sum_{j\neq i} \exp(s_{q_i\to y_j^+}/\tau_l) + \sum_{y_k^-\in\mathcal{H}_i} \exp(s_{q_i\to y_k^-}/\tau_l) \right] \right\} \tag{3.1}$$

where $s_{q\to v} = \cos(E_\theta(q), E_\theta(v))$ (with $q$ and $y$ denoting the query and target modalities, respectively), and $\tau_l$ represents a pre-defined temperature. The total loss constitutes the symmetric sum $\mathcal{L}_i = \frac{1}{2}(\mathcal{L}_i^{(q\to y)} + \mathcal{L}_i^{(y\to q)})$.

## 3.5 Experiments

### 3.5.1 Experimental Setups

**Baselines.** Our evaluation benchmarks 14 prominent baselines. Our selection spans a wide range of architectures, parameter sizes (from 87M to 8.3B), and training data

compositions. The models are broadly divided into two categories: First, traditional *CLIP-based* embedding models include CLIP4Clip [36], ViCLIP [52], VideoCLIP-XL [56], LanguageBind [57], and the InternVideo2 series (1B and 6B) [37]. Second, a more recent category of *MLLM-based* embedding models includes GME-2B [48], Unite-2B [14], VLM2Vec-V2 [15], BGE-VL [58], UniME-7B [59], B3-7B [60], GME-7B [48], and Unite-7B [14]. While we prioritize evaluating the zero-shot generalization capabilities of these models (strictly for our GVE series), we acknowledge that baselines extensively trained on in-domain data (e.g., Qwen3-VL-Embedding [17]) establish a supervised upper bound. A detailed discussion and comparison with these in-domain models is deferred to Appendix A.1.8.

**Metrics.** Our primary metric is Recall@1 (R@1), which measures whether the most relevant item is the correct one. For more challenging datasets with fuzzy queries (e.g., CMRB and LoVR-TH), we choose to report Recall@10 (R@10). Additionally, we use Precision@1 (P@1) for the MS-TI and MS-TV with multiple positive candidates.

**Evaluation Implementations.** All models are evaluated under the aforementioned unified protocol (UVRB) to ensure fair and reproducible comparisons across diverse domains. To isolate core representational power, we standardize the output pipeline: model parameters are loaded in bf16 precision, all embeddings are $\ell_2$-normalized, and cosine similarity serves as the universal metric, with no model-specific post-processing or re-ranking. Critically, we follow [7] to remove any learnable projection heads (e.g., the MLP head in the InternVideo2 series), using the hidden state from the final backbone layer as the general-purpose embedding. On the input side, the evaluation is vision-only, with each video uniformly sampled into exactly $8$ frames. To balance fairness with architectural diversity, CLIP-based models process frames at a fixed $224 \times 224$ resolution, while MLLM-based models are constrained to a budget of $< 200$ visual tokens per frame via adaptive resizing.

Table 3.3: Ablation study for UVRD and Modality Pyramid. **AVG of D**: average across datasets, **AVG of A**: average across abilities. For each column of each size of model (3B or 7B): highest score is **bolded**, second-highest is underlined.

| | D | A | Tasks | | | Domains | | | Sub-domains | | |
|---|---|---|---|---|---|---|---|---|---|---|---|
| **Model** | **AVG** | **AVG** | **TXT** | **CMP** | **VIS** | **CG** | **FG** | **LC** | **S** | **T** | **PR** |
| GVE-i-3B | 0.528 | 0.558 | **0.620** | 0.237 | 0.632 | 0.532 | 0.521 | **0.808** | 0.781 | 0.402 | **0.379** |
| GVE-s-3B | 0.537 | 0.564 | 0.617 | 0.301 | 0.617 | 0.539 | 0.536 | 0.775 | 0.811 | 0.421 | 0.377 |
| GVE-3B | **0.544** | **0.571** | 0.619 | **0.304** | **0.647** | **0.552** | **0.541** | 0.764 | **0.816** | **0.430** | 0.377 |
| GVE-i-7B | 0.563 | 0.587 | 0.643 | 0.274 | **0.678** | 0.567 | 0.566 | 0.795 | 0.812 | 0.459 | **0.426** |
| GVE-s-7B | 0.568 | 0.594 | 0.648 | **0.313** | 0.662 | 0.576 | 0.563 | 0.804 | 0.814 | 0.458 | 0.418 |
| GVE-7B | **0.573** | **0.600** | **0.657** | 0.312 | 0.657 | **0.587** | **0.570** | **0.814** | **0.821** | **0.469** | 0.419 |

All input sequences are capped at 8192 tokens, and for models without native video support (e.g., BGE-VL), we implement a multi-image pipeline to ensure comparability. Given the substantial computational overhead of training 7B models over 13 million pairs, our main results are reported from a single definitive run. This aligns with standard evaluation protocols for large-scale MLLMs, where the massive scale of both training and zero-shot test sets naturally minimizes small-sample stochastic variance.

**Others.** Extended implementation details, including prompt templates, architecture specifics, and supplementary baseline comparisons, are comprehensively provided in the Appendix.

### 3.5.2 Main Results

**Overall Performance.** We evaluate GVE on the UVRB benchmark under a strictly zero-shot setting without any exposure to in-domain data during training. Although some competing models are exposed to training data corresponding to several test sets, our results in Table 3.1 and Table 3.2 show clear superiority and confirm the strong generalization of GVE. Specifically, GVE-7B achieves state-of-the-art results with mean scores of 0.573 across datasets and 0.600 across task categories. It outperforms UNITE-7B by +6.5% and +7.3% even though UNITE-7B may have seen in-domain data. GVE-7B leads in every major di-

mension including TXT at 0.657 versus 0.609, CMP at 0.312 versus 0.254, CG at 0.587, FG at 0.570, and LC at 0.814 versus 0.746. It also leads in fine-grained subdomains with S at 0.821 versus 0.779 and T at 0.469 versus 0.412. UNITE-7B shows strength in VIS and PR tasks but underperforms in compositional and temporal reasoning. Its performance is uneven and relies heavily on specific training data. The compact GVE-3B with 3.8B parameters scores 0.571, higher than UNITE-7B at 0.559 with over 7B parameters. This shows our gains come from better data synthesis and curriculum design not from model size or data leakage. Our smaller models match or beat larger ones under fair zero-shot evaluation. This advantage translates to top results while UNITE-7B's strength on a few datasets reflects narrow capability. Furthermore, we evaluated GVE on video classification benchmarks in Appendix A.1.14, where our model demonstrates strong performance, confirming the embedding transferability. While the foundational backbone (Qwen2.5-VL) underwent large-scale pre-training, our GVE training strictly excludes any samples from the UVRB training and test sets, and the retrieval is performed in a model-agnostic, zero-shot manner without task-specific fine-tuning on the target domains.

**Ablation Studies.** To dissect the individual contributions of UVRD and Modality Pyramid, we conduct a series of ablation studies. First, we analyze their impact in Table 3.3. We define GVE-I as a baseline trained on public data with random task scheduling, and GVE-S as the same model enhanced with our synthesized UVRD. As the results show, integrating UVRD (GVE-S vs. GVE-I) yields a significant performance gain (+2.3% for GVE-3B). The benefit is particularly pronounced on complex tasks underrepresented in public data, with a remarkable +27% relative improvement on CMP. Subsequently applying the Modality Pyramid curriculum (GVE vs. GVE-S) further enhances performance across the board, confirming the benefit of structured learning.

Second, to specifically validate the hierarchical design of the curriculum, we compare

Table 3.4: Ablation on curriculum strategies at 3B scale.

| Model Variant | Score |
|---|---|
| GVE (Ours) | **0.571** |
| GVE-s (Random) | 0.564 |
| GVE-r (Reverse) | 0.545 |
| GVE-ov (Video-Only) | 0.550 |
| GVE-nv (Non-Video) | 0.521 |

our full model (GVE) against several variants with different training strategies according to their average scores across datasets, presented in Table 3.4. These variants include random scheduling (GVE-S), a reverse top-down curriculum (GVE-R), and models trained on only video (GVE-OV) or non-video (GVE-NV) data. The performance ranking is that GVE $>$ GVE-S $>$ GVE-OV $>$ GVE-R $>$ GVE-NV. The order offers two key insights. (1) *The learning sequence is critical:* Our structured curriculum (GVE) significantly outperforms both random (GVE-S) and reversed (GVE-R) scheduling. (2) *A synergy exists between modalities:* The full model (GVE) also surpasses training on uni-modal data sources alone (GVE-OV and GVE-NV). These findings confirm that a hierarchical integration of diverse data modalities is essential for optimal performance.

**Data Scaling.** Figure 3.6 shows the training-time scaling behavior that performance logarithmically improves with more data, but with diminishing returns. We quantify scaling efficiency by fitting a logarithmic model $y = a \ln x + b$ ($x$: data size, $y$: performance) and report the absolute and relative gain per $10\times$ data increase. On average across datasets (abilities), GVE-3B improves by $+7.4\%$ ($+7.1\%$) per decade, while GVE-7B gains $+5.4\%$ ($+5.4\%$). While GVE-3B exhibits higher scaling efficiency in relative terms, GVE-7B starts from a higher baseline, suggesting a trade-off between scaling slope and absolute capability. This result highlights the potential for scaling a more powerful video embedding model with training data at a larger scale. In addition, we also explore the test-time scaling of spatial

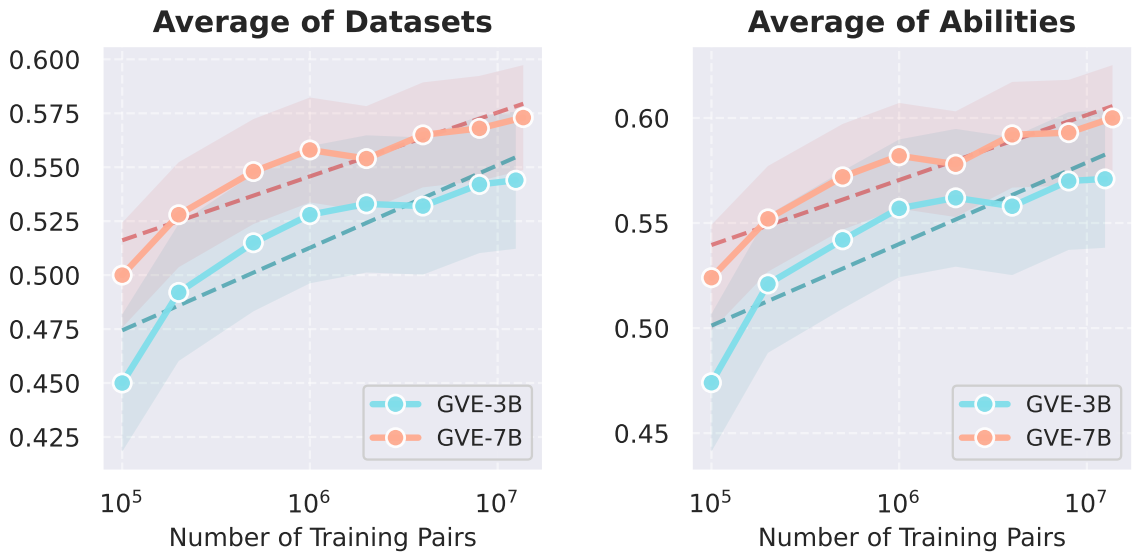



Figure 3.6: Performance effect from data scaling for GVE series. See Appendix A.1.10 for detailed results.

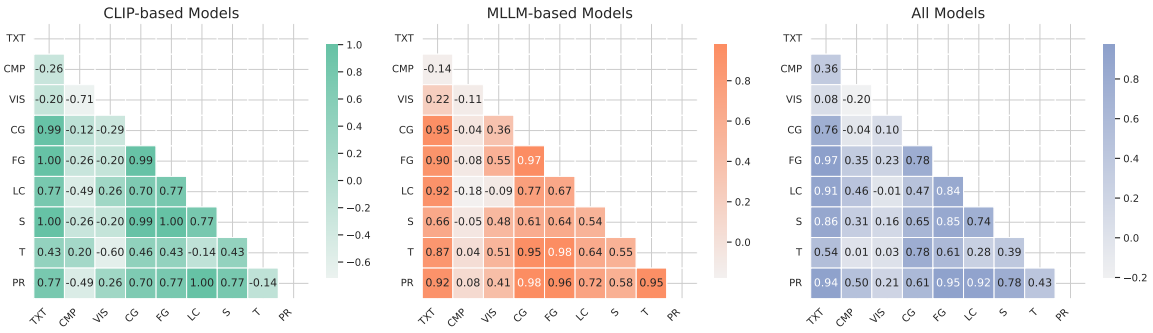



Figure 3.7: Correlation between dimensional abilities on UVRB for CLIP or MLLM-based models.

and temporal density (the frame number and resolution) in Appendix A.1.11 as a dimension of generalization.

### 3.5.3 Analysis of Dimensional Capabilities

Figures 3.7 and 3.8 reveal patterns in how video retrieval models develop capabilities and what their relationships are, as measured primarily by Pearson correlation ($\rho$) for their performance results. Here, we present several discoveries from the analysis in underexplored

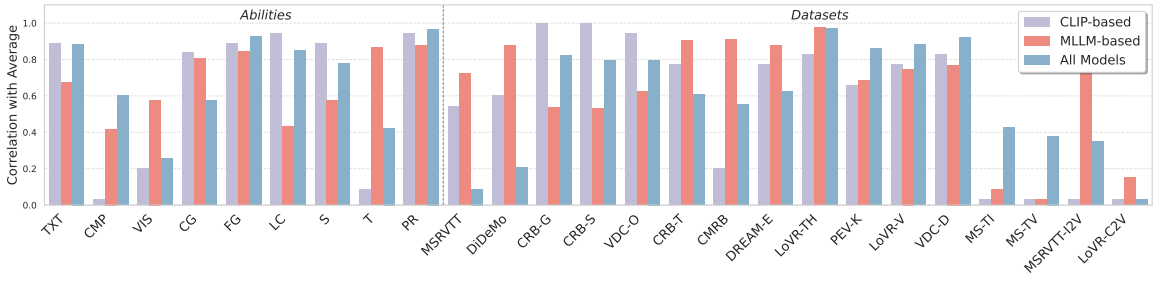



Figure 3.8: Correlation between averaged performance and abilities or datasets on UVRB.

perspectives.

**Finding 1: Partially Relevant Video Retrieval Better Reflects Universality than Traditional Benchmarks.** Standard benchmarks such as MSRVTT show a low correlation with average UVR performance ($\rho_{\text{avg}} = 0.58$), suggesting limited representativeness, likely due to overfitting or simplified task design. In contrast, fine-grained (FG), partially relevant (PR), and long-context (LC) retrieval exhibit strong mutual correlations ($\rho \geq 0.90$). More importantly, PR retrieval, although understudied, achieves the highest average correlation with overall performance ($\rho_{\text{avg}} = 0.97$), positioning it as the most reliable proxy for universal capability. We hypothesize this is because successful PR retrieval demands an embedding space that preserves a rich spectrum of information, e.g., from global context to subtle, localized details, rather than collapsing video semantics into a single "gist". The ability to maintain this multi-granular semantic richness is a core tenet of universal capability.

**Finding 2: Disentangled Spatial and Temporal Representations.** Models exhibit a marked decoupling between spatial (S) and temporal (T) representation ($\rho = 0.12$). This asymmetry is critical that temporal skills dominate fine-grained understanding ($\rho_{\text{T-FG}} = 0.98$), while spatial skills contribute minimally ($\rho_{\text{S-FG}} = 0.39$). This suggests current works fail to jointly model *when* and *where*, highlighting the requirements for inductive biases that

encourage spatiotemporal integration in video embedding.

**Finding 3: Performance Divergence Between CLIP and MLLM-based Models.** Model failures are architecture-dependent. For example, CLIP-based models are spatially biased ($\rho_{\text{S-CG}} = 0.99$) but temporally weak ($\rho_{\text{T-CG}} = 0.46$), leading to ability trade-offs. Compositional representation inversely correlates with visual accuracy ($\rho_{\text{CMP-VIS}} = -0.71$). And a near-zero link between temporal and long-context skills ($\rho_{\text{T-LC}} = -0.14$). In contrast, MLLM-based models demonstrate more balanced and integrated learning: superior semantic matching (PR-CG: MLLM $\rho = 0.98$ vs. CLIP $0.70$) and stronger temporal-long-context coupling ($\rho_{\text{LC-T}} = 0.64$). Therefore, architecture fundamentally shapes the development of capability, and MLLM has been increasingly popular because of its generalizability in video embedding modeling.

**Finding 4: Scaling Has Limited Impact on Visual Perception.** Parameter scaling improves high-level semantic coherence, but yields negligible gains in low-level visual perception. Notably, the $87$M-parameter `CLIP4Clip` (VIS: $0.714$) defeats the $8$B-parameter `Unite-7B` (VIS: $0.702$). Given the weak correlation between visual fidelity and overall retrieval success ($\rho_{\text{AVG-VIS}} = 0.26$), future progress requires targeted improvements in visual grounding.

## 3.6 Conclusion

This work advances the paradigm of universal video retrieval by shifting from isolated task optimization to a holistic, capability-driven framework. Guided by our standardized diagnostic protocol across existing benchmarks, we demonstrated that overcoming inherent model bottlenecks requires tightly coupling quality-controlled data synthesis with structured multi-task learning. Specifically, our V-SynFlow pipeline systematically bridges semantic

gaps via a million-pair UVRD dataset, while the Modality Pyramid curriculum stabilizes heterogeneous modality training for video embeddings. Consequently, our GVE achieves robust and leading generalization under zero-shot settings. Besides, our statistically rigorous evaluation provides the community with actionable empirical insights. To ensure full reproducibility, our evaluation codes, synthesized dataset, and pre-trained weights will be publicly released, establishing a principled and scalable pathway toward more robust multimodal retrieval systems.

# CHAPTER 4

# DEMYSTIFYING SPATIOTEMPORAL SCALING LAWS OF MULTIMODAL VIDEO EMBEDDINGS

**Chapter Abstract.** As text-video retrieval becomes essential for large-scale video applications, models are expected to handle a diverse range of queries, from broad thematic summaries to descriptions of fleeting moments. However, since long videos are typically processed via sparse sampling, it remains unclear how sampling density affects retrieval across varying granularities. To address this, we introduce MG-LVR, a benchmark of multi-granular queries over a long-video corpus, constructed via a sparse-to-dense, semantics-aware pipeline. Evaluation across 23 multimodal embedding models reveals a significant granularity gap: fine-grained retrieval lags coarse-grained performance by over 75% under sparse sampling. Our analysis of spatiotemporal scaling shows that while spatial resolution is most beneficial at low frame counts, the optimal token allocation shifts systematically with query granularity. We further observe a training-time asymmetry where temporal representations are heavily anchored to specific frame counts. Leveraging these insights, we propose a progressive dense-to-sparse self-distillation framework that improves fine-grained query performance by up to 20%. This work provides a granularity-aware perspective on spatiotemporal scaling, offering principled designs for more robust video embedding training and inference.

## 4.1 Introduction

Text-video retrieval has been studied primarily in settings where a query summarizes the entirety of a short clip [61]. However, real-world videos are increasingly long and informationally dense, spanning tens of minutes to hours [62, 63]. Within such videos, a user query may describe anything from the overall theme to a brief, specific moment, making retrieval

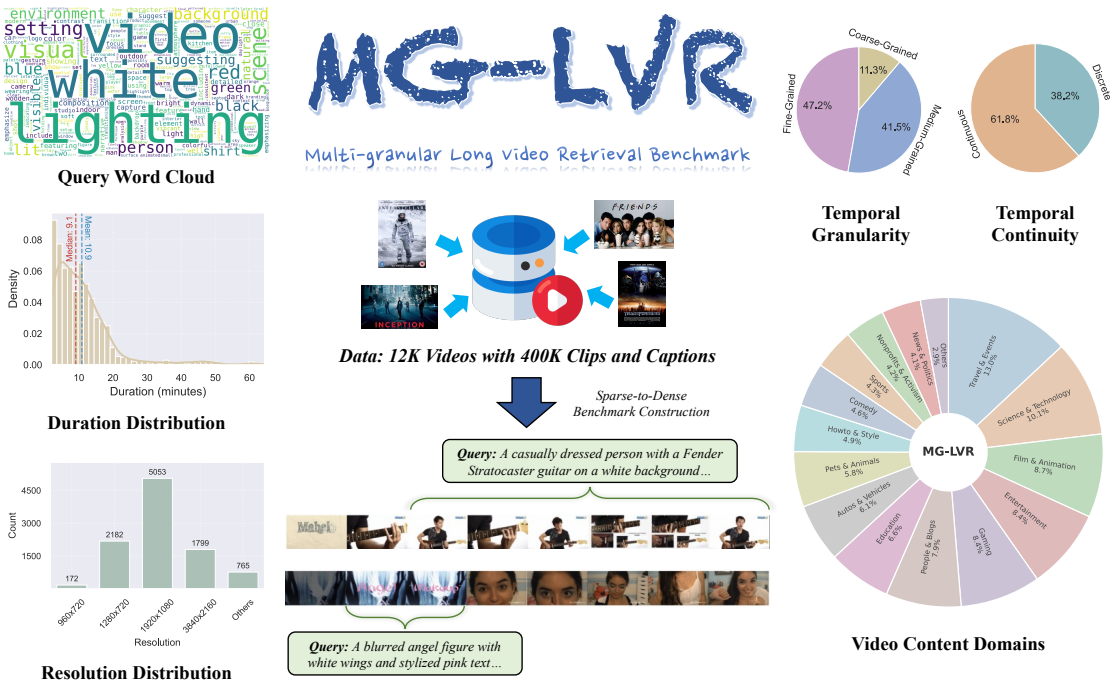



Figure 4.1: Overview of Multi-granular Long Video Retrieval (MG-LVR) benchmark.

inherently multi-granular [64, 65]. Since encoding every frame at full resolution is computationally prohibitive [18], models must rely on spatiotemporal sampling to produce video embeddings, which is a process proven critical for retrieval quality [19]. The sampling strategy thus determines the available visual evidence. Too few frames or too low a resolution can cause the target moment to be missed entirely, constituting a structural information loss. Therefore, how sampling density interacts with query granularity is a central question for long-video retrieval. Nevertheless, while previous works have demonstrated the sensitivity of performance to sampling [19, 20], this relationship remains underexplored because no existing benchmark provides the multi-granular and controllable testbed required to isolate these effects.

Current benchmarks are insufficient for this purpose. Short-clip datasets such as MSR-VTT [2] and DiDeMo [3] are too brief for sampling density to have a meaningful impact. Recent long-video retrieval benchmarks [12] extend the temporal scope but evaluate at a single query granularity, making it impossible to determine whether sampling configurations

should vary with query specificity. No existing setting jointly provides long-form videos and multi-granular query categorization within a unified evaluation framework. Such a combination is essential for exploring spatiotemporal scalability across diverse semantic scales.

To address this gap, we introduce the Multi-Granular Long Video Retrieval (MG-LVR) benchmark shown in Figure 4.1. MG-LVR pairs long-form videos with queries categorized by temporal granularity, defined as the fraction of the video duration that a query covers. Importantly, the benchmark allows the relevant evidence for a query to be grounded either in a single clip or across multiple clips that may occur at different timestamps, reflecting realistic retrieval scenarios. Evaluation across 23 models reveals a pronounced granularity gap: fine-grained retrieval lags coarse-grained performance by over 75% under sparse sampling and recovers only marginally as frame count increases. This provides a clear signal for studying how sampling configurations affect retrieval performance across different semantic granularities.

Using MG-LVR, we conduct a comprehensive spatiotemporal scaling analysis across both Contrastive Language-Image Pretraining (CLIP)-based [38] and Multimodal Large Language Model (MLLM)-based families [14]. At test time, increasing spatial resolution helps most when frames are few, while its benefit saturates at higher frame counts. Under a fixed token budget, the optimal spatial-temporal allocation shifts with query granularity. Coarse queries favor fewer frames at higher resolution, while fine-grained queries favor more frames at lower resolution. At training time, the interaction between spatial and temporal density is asymmetric. Spatial representations are resolution-robust, maintaining accuracy across varying input resolutions. Temporal representations exhibit frame-count anchoring, where performance peaks when the inference frame count matches the training configuration and degrades significantly when they diverge, particularly for fine-grained queries.

Table 4.1: Comparison of text-video retrieval benchmarks. **MG-LVR** is the first benchmark supporting multi-granular queries for retrieving long-form videos. **Gran.**: Temporal granularity of queries, including fine (FN), medium (MD), and coarse (CR) -grained; **Cont.**: Temporal continuity of queries, including discrete (DC) and continuous (CT).

| **Dataset** | **# Query** | **# Corpus** | **Dur (s)** | **# Word** | **Gran.** | **Cont.** |
|---|---|---|---|---|---|---|
| MSRVTT [2] | 1,000 | 1,000 | 15.0 | 9.4 | CR | CT |
| DiDeMo [3] | 1,004 | 1,004 | 53.9 | 29.1 | CR | CT |
| TVR [10] | 10,895 | 2,179 | 76.2 | 13.4 | FN, MD | CT |
| ActivityNet Captions [11] | 18,000 | 4,917 | 117.6 | 14.8 | FN, MD | CT |
| LoVR [12] | 100 | 467 | 1560.3 | 17364.5 | CR | CT |
| VDC [47] | 1,000 | 1,027 | 30.1 | 508.0 | CR | CT |
| **MG-LVR (Ours)** | 9,971 | 4,844 | 705.9 | 44.7 | All | Both |

This analysis highlights a key insight that the knowledge required for effective low-density inference is already latent within high-density models, but it does not automatically transfer when the sampling configuration changes. To address this, we propose Video Embedding Waterfall (VEterfall), a progressive dense-to-sparse self-distillation framework. Inspired by the waterfall effect, our method cascades high-fidelity semantic knowledge from densely sampled embeddings down to sparser representations. In this way, VEterfall achieves up to a 20% relative recall gain on fine-grained queries while operating in a $4\times$ to $16\times$ more efficient inference setting. Our experiments confirm that the scaling behaviors identified by MG-LVR can be directly and effectively exploited in practice.

In summary, our contributions are: (1) MG-LVR, the first benchmark for multi-granular long-video retrieval that enables scalable research into spatiotemporal sampling; (2) a multi-dimensional scaling analysis identifying key principles such as frame-count anchoring and granularity-dependent token allocation; and (3) VEterfall, a self-distillation method that enhances video embeddings under sparse sampling by unlocking multi-granular knowledge already latent within the models.

## 4.2 Related Works

### 4.2.1 Video Retrieval Benchmarks

Early text-video retrieval benchmarks such as MSR-VTT [2] and DiDeMo [3] consist of short clips in which sparse frame sampling suffices to capture the full content, rendering sampling strategy largely inconsequential. Subsequent benchmarks have extended the scope in complementary directions: LoVR [12] targets retrieval over hour-long videos, while TVR [10] and ActivityNet Captions [11] provide fine-grained temporal annotations for partially relevant video retrieval [9]. Despite this progress, each benchmark addresses only one dimension of the problem, covering either video duration or query granularity, but not both. MG-LVR addresses this gap by pairing a long-form corpus with temporally categorized queries, enabling the first controlled study of how spatiotemporal sampling interacts with retrieval granularity.

### 4.2.2 Video Embedding Models

Video-language embedding models have evolved from frame-level temporal aggregation [36] to dedicated spatiotemporal encoders, dividing into two families. CLIP-based models extend contrastive image-text pretraining to video, with representative examples including InternVideo2 [37] and X-CLIP [38]. MLLM-based models repurpose large multimodal language models for embedding extraction, as exemplified by GVE [19], Qwen3-VL-Embedding [17], and other modality-unified approaches [14]. Scaling-law studies in this domain have primarily examined model size and training data volume; a recent complementary effort [20] establishes power-law scaling with respect to frame count and caption density on short clips. The present work differs by evaluating end-to-end multimodal embedding models on long-form video, decomposing sampling into orthogonal spatial and temporal axes, and introducing query granularity as a first-class variable.

Building on the resulting scaling principles, we further propose VEterfall, a progressive dense-to-sparse self-distillation framework distinguished from conventional knowledge distillation by its cascaded, density-descending regime.

## 4.3 Rethinking Text-Video Retrieval Evaluation

Text-video retrieval has historically been formulated as a global-matching task, where each query describes the entirety of its paired video. This convention reflects the structural limitations of existing benchmarks: queries are either brief summaries of short clips or document-level aggregations of dense captions, making the query and video co-extensive by construction and effectively sidestepping the challenge of temporal scale. In the era of long, multi-scene video, this paradigm is insufficient. User intent may range from identifying a moment of a few seconds within an hour-long lecture to capturing the overarching theme of an entire documentary, imposing qualitatively different demands on spatiotemporal sampling and representation density.

As shown in Figure 4.1, the **Multi-Granular Long Video Retrieval (MG-LVR)** benchmark is designed to bridge this gap by formalizing *temporal granularity* as an explicit evaluation axis. Unlike traditional datasets [10, 11] where granularity emerges as a byproduct of annotator bias and video readability (e.g., length, dynamics, complexity), MG-LVR employs an automated pipeline that explicitly controls query granularity by analyzing semantic relationships among clips within each video, enabling a systematic study of how models navigate the spectrum from localized events to global narratives. The resulting benchmark contains $9,971$ queries paired with a corpus of $4,844$ videos averaging $705.9$ seconds in duration. As summarized in Table 4.1, MG-LVR is the only benchmark that jointly covers all three granularity levels while supporting both single-clip and multi-clip evidence structures. The dataset and code of MG-LVR will be publicly released upon acceptance.

### 4.3.1 Formulations

**Definition 4.3.1 (Text-Video Retrieval)** *Given a text query $q$ and a video corpus $\mathcal{V}$, the task is to identify the target video $v^* \in \mathcal{V}$ whose content is described by $q$. The query may refer to any portion of the video, from a brief localized event to the overall theme, with the fraction of relevant content serving as a variable difficulty factor.*

**Definition 4.3.2 (Temporal Granularity)** *Temporal granularity $G$ is defined as the ratio of relevant content duration to total video length:*

$$G = \frac{|\mathcal{S}(v^*,\, q)|}{d_{\text{video}}} \in (0,\, 1]. \tag{4.1}$$

*As $G \to 0$, retrieval approaches a needle-in-a-video problem in which the target moment occupies a vanishingly small fraction of the video. For systematic evaluation, we partition the granularity spectrum into three categories: **Fine-grained (FN)**, **Medium-grained (MD)**, and **Coarse-grained (CR)**.*

In this work, granular thresholds are set to $G \in [0.001, 0.01]$ for FN and $G \in [0.1, 0.3]$ for MD, ensuring high inter-class distinctiveness and enabling clear observation of how model performance scales with task difficulty.

For the temporal distribution of relevant content, we further define temporal continuity $C$ to characterize the structural complexity of each retrieval target:

$$C = \frac{\sum_{i=1}^{k}(e_i - s_i)}{e_k - s_1} \in (0,\, 1], \tag{4.2}$$

where $[s_i, e_i]$ are the $k$ disjoint intervals composing $\mathcal{S}$. A value of $C = 1$ indicates a single contiguous event, while $C < 1$ represents fragmented content distributed across multiple disjoint segments, such as a recurring theme.

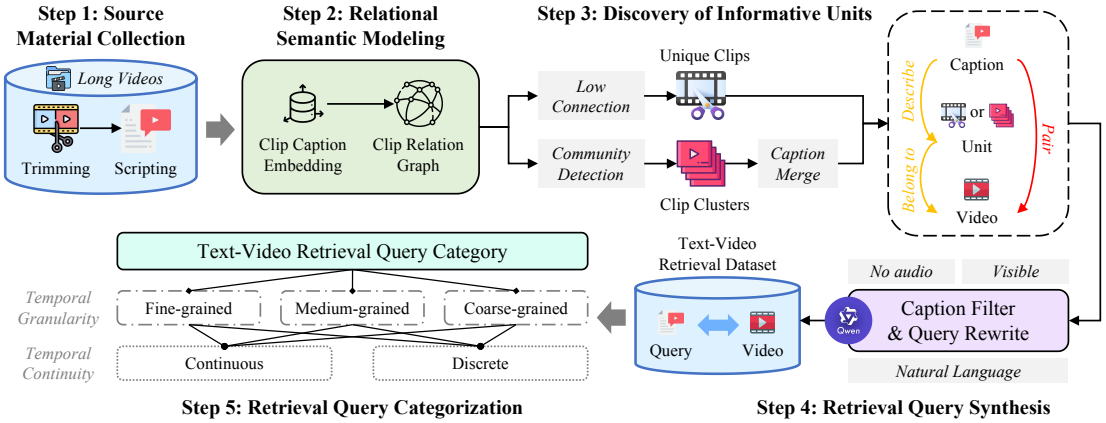



Figure 4.2: The MG-LVR construction pipeline. We model long videos as *Clip Relation Graphs* to transform unstructured content into a quantifiable semantic topology. This structural foundation allows for the systematic discovery of retrieval units across varying temporal granularities and continuity levels, which are then synthesized by an LLM into natural language queries.

### 4.3.2 MG-LVR: Sparse-to-Dense Benchmark Construction

We construct MG-LVR through a semantics-aware pipeline that formalizes video retrieval as a sampling task over structured semantic relationships among clips. The core insight is to represent each video as a similarity graph, enabling the identification of retrieval units that vary in temporal granularity and evidence composition. This approach ensures that MG-LVR covers scenarios where relevant evidence is grounded either in a single clip or across multiple clips that may occur at different timestamps.

**Step 1: Material Curation.** We build upon the Vript dataset [66], selecting long videos ($>$ 120s) with dense, high-quality GPT-4V clip-level captions. These captions serve as semantic proxies, allowing the pipeline to model video content without the prohibitive cost of pixel-level processing during construction.

**Step 2: Semantic Topology Modeling.** To provide a structural basis for unit extraction, each video is represented as a *Clip Relation Graph*, where nodes correspond to clips, and edges correspond to the cosine similarity values between two clip caption embeddings

produced by Qwen3-Embedding-8B [67]. This graph captures semantic relationships among clips: clusters of highly connected nodes often correspond to dominant themes, while weaker connections may indicate localized or transient events.

**Step 3: Discovery of Informative Units.** Retrieval units are extracted from the clip relation graph by applying structural constraints that correspond to our granularity and evidence composition settings. This graph-based discovery allows the benchmark to include both single-clip evidence and semantically related clips that appear at different timestamps. *Single-Clip Units:* Individual nodes with nearly zero external connections are selected as standalone retrieval units, yielding $32,984$ units. *Multi-Clip Units:* Identified via Louvain community detection to capture thematically consistent clips that may be dispersed across the timeline, yielding $7,764$ units.

**Step 4: Retrieval Query Synthesis.** An LLM (Qwen3-32B [68]) synthesizes the metadata of each unit into a natural language query. For multi-clip units, the model is prompted to generate a holistic description covering the relationships among multiple relevant clips. A subsequent refinement pass filters out ambiguous descriptions and removes references to audio content to ensure a focus on visual information.

**Step 5: Retrieval Query Categorization.** Each query-video pair is assigned to a granularity level (FN, MD, or CR) based on the computed value of $G$. The final benchmark retains $9,971$ queries in total, comprising $4,706$, $4,142$, and $1,123$ queries for FN, MD, and CR, respectively.

**Human Validation.** To ensure retrieval uniqueness, a cross-modal collision check is applied: queries exhibiting high semantic similarity to non-target clips within the same video are pruned. Human validation confirms a $96\%$ accuracy rate over $50$ query-video pairs, with

Table 4.2: Multi-granularity retrieval performance of all baselines at 8 uniformly sampled frames per video. **Bold** and underline indicate the best and second-best results within each model group, respectively.

| Model | Overall | | FN | | MD | | CR | |
|---|---|---|---|---|---|---|---|---|
| | R@1 | MRR | R@1 | MRR | R@1 | MRR | R@1 | MRR |
| InternVideo2-1B | 0.2398 | 0.3216 | 0.0803 | 0.1383 | 0.3390 | 0.4435 | 0.5423 | 0.6398 |
| ViCLIP | 0.2659 | 0.3491 | 0.1054 | 0.1714 | 0.3790 | 0.4772 | 0.5209 | 0.6207 |
| CLIP4Clip | 0.2696 | 0.3561 | 0.1067 | 0.1703 | 0.3660 | 0.4757 | 0.5966 | 0.6938 |
| InternVideo2-6B | 0.2890 | 0.3757 | 0.1069 | 0.1756 | 0.4029 | 0.5093 | 0.6322 | 0.7215 |
| VideoCLIP-XL | 0.3914 | 0.4794 | 0.1687 | 0.2488 | 0.5449 | 0.6466 | **0.7587** | **0.8293** |
| LanguageBind | **0.4194** | **0.5046** | **0.1997** | **0.2811** | **0.5787** | **0.6728** | 0.7524 | 0.8204 |
| GME-2B | 0.2793 | 0.3642 | 0.1128 | 0.1783 | 0.3754 | 0.4816 | 0.6224 | 0.7101 |
| Unite-2B | 0.2875 | 0.3728 | 0.1169 | 0.1834 | 0.3889 | 0.4936 | 0.6287 | 0.7213 |
| Ops-MM-2B | 0.3085 | 0.3893 | 0.1258 | 0.1918 | 0.4211 | 0.5180 | 0.6589 | 0.7416 |
| VLM2Vec-V2 | 0.3089 | 0.3870 | 0.1243 | 0.1833 | 0.4162 | 0.5147 | 0.6866 | 0.7695 |
| GVE-3B | 0.3747 | 0.4593 | 0.1583 | 0.2358 | 0.5128 | 0.6100 | **0.7720** | **0.8397** |
| Qwen3-VL-Emb-2B | **0.3914** | **0.4751** | **0.1723** | **0.2481** | **0.5386** | **0.6348** | 0.7667 | 0.8375 |
| U-MARVEL | 0.1169 | 0.1919 | 0.0368 | 0.0784 | 0.1526 | 0.2501 | 0.3215 | 0.4528 |
| LamRA-Ret | 0.1885 | 0.2671 | 0.0858 | 0.1414 | 0.2566 | 0.3516 | 0.3678 | 0.4822 |
| GME-7B | 0.3161 | 0.4018 | 0.1309 | 0.2004 | 0.4278 | 0.5326 | 0.6803 | 0.7630 |
| BGE-VL | 0.3201 | 0.4000 | 0.1362 | 0.2018 | 0.4425 | 0.5376 | 0.6394 | 0.7228 |
| B3-7B | 0.3475 | 0.4282 | 0.1519 | 0.2211 | 0.4657 | 0.5627 | 0.7311 | 0.7999 |
| Ops-MM-7B | 0.3546 | 0.4357 | 0.1538 | 0.2258 | 0.4778 | 0.5733 | 0.7418 | 0.8076 |
| RzenEmbed | 0.3707 | 0.4541 | 0.1498 | 0.2246 | 0.5118 | 0.6101 | 0.7756 | 0.8402 |
| Unite-7B | 0.3733 | 0.4591 | 0.1664 | 0.2453 | 0.5007 | 0.6011 | 0.7703 | 0.8312 |
| UniME-V2 | 0.3881 | 0.4721 | 0.1575 | 0.2338 | 0.5447 | 0.6415 | 0.7774 | 0.8458 |
| GVE-7B | 0.4121 | 0.4960 | 0.1813 | 0.2634 | 0.5652 | 0.6590 | 0.8148 | 0.8693 |
| Qwen3-VL-Emb-8B | **0.4492** | **0.5269** | **0.2102** | **0.2861** | **0.6106** | **0.6993** | **0.8557** | **0.9002** |

failure cases detailed in the supplementary material.

## 4.4 Spatiotemporal Scaling Laws: Experiments, Analysis, and Discoveries

Leveraging MG-LVR as a controlled testbed, we systematically analyze how spatiotemporal sampling density affects retrieval performance across query granularity levels. The analysis proceeds in three phases: (i) baseline comparison under default configurations; (ii) test-time scaling, in which spatial and temporal densities are varied during inference; and (iii) training-time scaling, in which the density used during model training is adjusted to examine

Table 4.3: Multi-granularity retrieval performance of MLLM-based baselines at 128 uniformly sampled frames per video. **Bold** and underline indicate the best and second-best results within each model group, respectively.

| Model | Overall | | FN | | MD | | CR | |
|---|---|---|---|---|---|---|---|---|
| | R@1 | MRR | R@1 | MRR | R@1 | MRR | R@1 | MRR |
| GME-2B | 0.3576 | 0.4470 | 0.1575 | 0.2378 | 0.4947 | 0.5974 | 0.6910 | 0.7689 |
| Unite-2B | 0.3802 | 0.4673 | 0.1698 | 0.2494 | 0.5321 | 0.6305 | 0.7017 | 0.7783 |
| Ops-MM-2B | 0.4098 | 0.4956 | 0.1872 | 0.2729 | 0.5751 | 0.6651 | 0.7329 | 0.8040 |
| VLM2Vec-V2 | 0.4369 | 0.5190 | 0.2129 | 0.2926 | 0.6045 | 0.6936 | 0.7569 | 0.8236 |
| Qwen3-VL-Emb-2B | 0.4901 | 0.5710 | 0.2318 | 0.3227 | **0.6849** | **0.7640** | **0.8540** | **0.9000** |
| GVE-3B | **0.4914** | **0.5732** | **0.2433** | **0.3314** | 0.6801 | 0.7624 | 0.8353 | 0.8881 |
| GME-7B | 0.4171 | 0.5057 | 0.1785 | 0.2651 | 0.5942 | 0.6909 | 0.7640 | 0.8307 |
| UniME-V2 | 0.4461 | 0.5290 | 0.2004 | 0.2841 | 0.6260 | 0.7146 | 0.8121 | 0.8705 |
| Ops-MM-7B | 0.4708 | 0.5519 | 0.2316 | 0.3193 | 0.6497 | 0.7320 | 0.8130 | 0.8628 |
| Unite-7B | 0.4736 | 0.5584 | 0.2340 | 0.3244 | 0.6497 | 0.7379 | 0.8281 | 0.8773 |
| GVE-7B | 0.5075 | 0.5869 | 0.2663 | 0.3567 | 0.6900 | 0.7662 | 0.8451 | 0.8900 |
| RzenEmbed | 0.5112 | 0.5889 | 0.2401 | 0.3290 | 0.7228 | 0.7972 | 0.8664 | 0.9095 |
| Qwen3-VL-Emb-8B | **0.5488** | **0.6220** | **0.2871** | **0.3786** | **0.7501** | **0.8137** | **0.9029** | **0.9355** |

its effect on the quality of the learned embeddings.

### 4.4.1 Experimental Setup

**Model Selection.** Twenty-three models from two paradigms are evaluated: 6 CLIP-based models and 17 MLLM-based models.

CLIP-based models: CLIP4Clip [36] (87M); ViCLIP [52] (0.4B); VideoCLIP-XL [56] (0.4B); LanguageBind-Video-Huge-V1.5 [57] (1.2B); InternVideo2-Stage2-1B [37] (1.4B); InternVideo2-Stage2-6B [37] (6.4B).

MLLM-based models: gme-Qwen2-VL-2B-Instruct [48] (GME-2B, 2.2B); Unite-Base-Qwen2-VL-2B [14] (Unite-2B, 2.2B); VLM2Vec-V2.0 [15] (VLM2Vec-V2, 2.2B); Ops-MM-embedding-v1-2B [69] (Ops-MM-2B, 2.2B); GVE-3B [19] (GVE-3B, 3.8B); Qwen3-VL-Embedding-2B [17] (Qwen3-VL-Emb-2B, 2.1B); BGE-VL-v1.5-mmeb [58] (BGE-VL, 7.6B); UniME-V2-LLaVA-OneVision-8B [70] (UniME-V2, 8.0B); B3-Qwen2-7B [60] (B3-7B, 8.3B); gme-Qwen2-VL-7B-Instruct [48] (GME-7B, 8.3B); Unite-Base-Qwen2-VL-7B [14] (Unite-7B, 8.3B); Ops-MM-embedding-v1-7B [69] (Ops-MM-7B,

8.3B); U-MARVEL-Qwen2VL-7B-Instruct [71] (U-MARVEL, 8.3B); LamRA-Ret-Qwen2.5VL-7B [72] (LamRA-Ret, 8.3B); GVE-7B [19] (GVE-7B, 8.3B); RzenEmbed-7B [73] (RzenEmbed, 8.3B); Qwen3-VL-Embedding-8B [17] (Qwen3-VL-Emb-8B, 8.1B).

**Evaluation Protocol.** Retrieval performance is measured using Recall@1 (R@1) and Mean Reciprocal Rank (MRR) across three query granularity levels: Fine-grained (FN), Medium-grained (MD), and Coarse-grained (CR). The total visual token budget per video is defined as $N_{\text{total}} = F \times T$, where $F$ denotes the number of uniformly sampled frames and $T$ denotes the number of spatial tokens per frame as determined by the visual encoder. In the analyses that follow, $F$ and $T$ are varied independently while all other experimental factors are held constant to isolate the effect of sampling density.

### 4.4.2 Baseline Comparison

All twenty-three models are evaluated under two configurations (8 and 128 frames; results at 32 frames are provided in the supplementary material). As shown in Table 4.2 and Table 4.3, performance degrades consistently from CR to FN across all architectures, regardless of model family, parameter scale, or training data composition. For Qwen3-VL-Emb-8B, R@1 drops from $0.8557$ on CR to $0.2102$ on FN at 8 frames, a relative decline of over 75%. Even at 128 frames, FN R@1 improves only modestly to $0.2871$, a gain of less than 8 percentage points despite a $16\times$ increase in temporal sampling density. This pronounced granularity gradient indicates that simply increasing the number of frames yields strongly diminishing returns on fine-grained retrieval.




Figure 4.3: Test-time spatial scaling results at 32 frames per video. Sensitivity results under varying temporal densities are provided in the supplementary material.

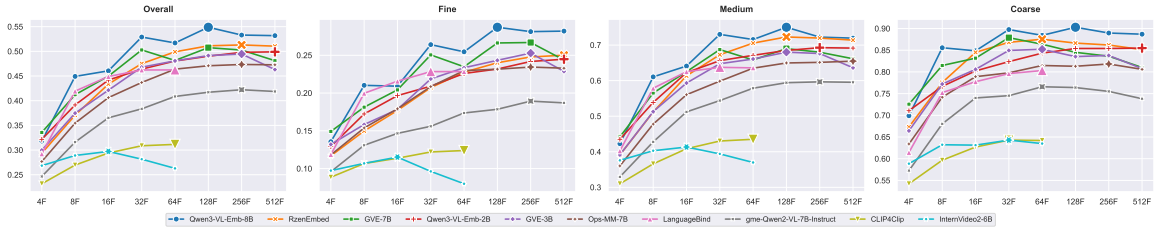



Figure 4.4: Test-time temporal scaling across model families. MLLM-based models exhibit continuous improvement with increasing frame count, whereas CLIP-based models plateau and degrade at high frame counts.

### 4.4.3 Test-Time Scaling

We examine how varying spatiotemporal sampling density at inference time affects retrieval performance, isolating spatial and temporal effects by fixing one dimension while varying the other.

**Spatial Scaling.** For MLLM-based models, the benefit of increasing spatial tokens per frame depends critically on the available temporal context (Figure 4.3). When the number of frames is low ($F \leq 8$), higher spatial resolution yields consistent improvements. As $F$ increases beyond 32, the marginal gain from additional spatial tokens diminishes and occasionally reverses, particularly for CR queries where holistic scene understanding is more important than fine spatial detail. This suggests that spatial and temporal information are complementary rather than independently additive.

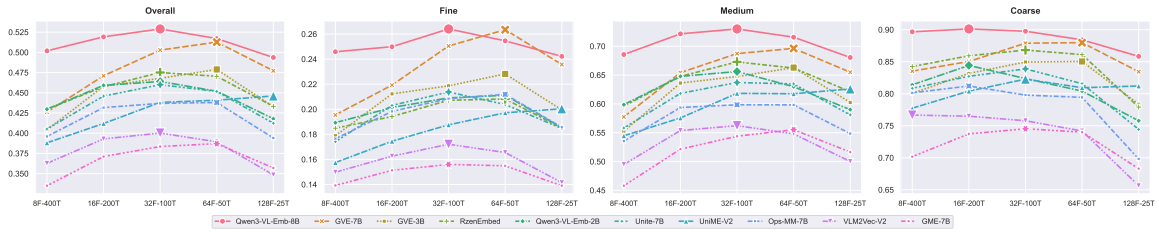



Figure 4.5: Retrieval performance under a fixed total token budget. The optimal allocation between spatial and temporal tokens shifts systematically with query granularity.

**Temporal Scaling.** Varying $F$ from 4 to 512 frames reveals a divergence in scaling behavior across model families (Figure 4.4). MLLM-based models exhibit continuous improvement up to $F = 128$, with the largest absolute gains on FN queries. CLIP-based models, by contrast, plateau around $F = 16$ and exhibit performance degradation on FN and MD queries at higher frame counts. This difference is consistent with the underlying architectural design: MLLM-based models process frames jointly through a transformer with positional encodings, whereas CLIP-based models aggregate frame-level features via mean pooling, which dilutes discriminative signals as $F$ increases.

**Spatiotemporal Trade-off.** When $N_{\text{total}}$ is held constant, the optimal allocation between $F$ and $T$ depends on query granularity (Figure 4.5). CR queries favor high-resolution, low-frame-count configurations, while FN queries favor more frames at lower spatial resolution. Reducing spatial tokens primarily discards fine-grained texture while preserving semantic content, whereas reducing the number of frames risks eliminating visual evidence of brief events entirely.

### 4.4.4 Training-Time Scaling

Following the protocol of an existing work [19], we post-train Qwen2.5-VL-Instruct-3B [54] with InfoNCE loss [55] on 500K instances to examine how the training density $(F_{\text{train}}, T_{\text{train}})$ shapes the learned embedding space.

Table 4.4: Training-time spatial scaling results at a fixed temporal density of 4 frames. Models trained at varying spatial resolutions ($T_{\text{train}} \in \{50, 100, 200, 400\}$) are evaluated across all spatial test configurations. Bold indicates the best result within each group.

| Training | | Testing | | Overall | | FN | | MD | | CR | |
|---|---|---|---|---|---|---|---|---|---|---|---|
| Temporal | Spatial | Temporal | Spatial | R@1 | MRR | R@1 | MRR | R@1 | MRR | R@1 | MRR |
| 4F | 50T | 4F | 50T | 0.1941 | 0.2679 | 0.0731 | 0.1226 | 0.2591 | 0.3509 | 0.4613 | 0.5710 |
| | 100T | | | 0.2019 | 0.2770 | 0.0797 | 0.1298 | 0.2677 | 0.3617 | 0.4711 | 0.5811 |
| | 200T | | | 0.2060 | 0.2820 | 0.0837 | 0.1346 | 0.2714 | 0.3671 | 0.4773 | 0.5865 |
| | 400T | | | **0.2096** | **0.2851** | **0.0865** | **0.1378** | **0.2740** | **0.3687** | **0.4880** | **0.5939** |
| 4F | 50T | 4F | 100T | 0.2243 | 0.3011 | 0.0865 | 0.1390 | 0.2996 | 0.3968 | 0.5236 | 0.6277 |
| | 100T | | | 0.2212 | 0.2979 | 0.0837 | 0.1375 | 0.2945 | 0.3901 | 0.5272 | 0.6299 |
| | 200T | | | 0.2384 | 0.3180 | 0.0922 | 0.1494 | 0.3182 | 0.4173 | 0.5565 | 0.6583 |
| | 400T | | | **0.2474** | **0.3262** | **0.0975** | **0.1558** | **0.3300** | **0.4267** | **0.5708** | **0.6696** |
| 4F | 50T | 4F | 200T | 0.2406 | 0.3168 | 0.0890 | 0.1420 | 0.3199 | 0.4178 | 0.5833 | 0.6764 |
| | 100T | | | 0.2425 | 0.3202 | 0.0922 | 0.1473 | 0.3197 | 0.4187 | 0.5877 | 0.6820 |
| | 200T | | | 0.2454 | 0.3230 | 0.0948 | 0.1500 | 0.3238 | 0.4220 | 0.5877 | 0.6834 |
| | 400T | | | **0.2581** | **0.3385** | **0.1031** | **0.1628** | **0.3440** | **0.4425** | **0.5913** | **0.6910** |
| 4F | 50T | 4F | 400T | 0.2503 | 0.3263 | 0.0926 | 0.1471 | 0.3353 | 0.4318 | **0.5975** | 0.6883 |
| | 100T | | | 0.2507 | 0.3285 | 0.0914 | 0.1501 | 0.3378 | 0.4332 | **0.5975** | 0.6898 |
| | 200T | | | 0.2561 | 0.3342 | **0.0984** | **0.1566** | 0.3431 | 0.4392 | 0.5966 | **0.6909** |
| | 400T | | | **0.2575** | **0.3359** | 0.0963 | 0.1563 | **0.3496** | **0.4442** | 0.5939 | 0.6889 |

**Spatial Scaling: Resolution Robustness.** Increasing $T_{\text{train}}$ yields consistent performance gains across most granularity levels and inference resolutions (Table 4.4). Models trained at $T_{\text{train}} = 400$ achieve the best Overall R@1 in all four test-time spatial groups. Notably, even when evaluated at $T_{\text{test}} = 50$, the model trained at $T_{\text{train}} = 400$ substantially outperforms the model trained directly at $T_{\text{train}} = 50$ ($+0.0155$ Overall R@1). We term this property *resolution robustness*: representations learned at high spatial density generalize effectively to low-density inference. However, this trend is not strictly monotonic at all granularity levels: at $T_{\text{test}} = 400$, increasing $T_{\text{train}}$ from 200 to 400 yields only marginal overall gains ($+0.0014$ Overall R@1) while slightly degrading Fine R@1 ($-0.0021$) and Coarse R@1 ($-0.0027$), suggesting diminishing returns at extreme spatial density.

**Temporal Scaling: Frame-Count Anchoring.** Unlike spatial representations, temporal representations are tightly coupled to the frame count seen during training, a phenomenon we term *frame-count anchoring*. A mismatch between $F_{\text{train}}$ and $F_{\text{test}}$ consistently degrades

Table 4.5: Training-time temporal scaling results at a fixed spatial density of 50 tokens per frame. Models trained at varying frame counts ($F_{\text{train}} \in \{4, 8, 16, 32\}$) are evaluated across six temporal test configurations. Bold indicates the best result within each group.

| Training | | Testing | | Overall | | FN | | MD | | CR | |
|---|---|---|---|---|---|---|---|---|---|---|---|
| Temporal | Spatial | Temporal | Spatial | R@1 | MRR | R@1 | MRR | R@1 | MRR | R@1 | MRR |
| 4F | 50T | 4F | 50T | 0.2076 | 0.2837 | 0.0841 | 0.1352 | **0.2706** | **0.3666** | 0.4924 | 0.6002 |
| 8F | | | | 0.2080 | 0.2842 | 0.0858 | 0.1374 | 0.2694 | 0.3654 | **0.4933** | **0.6004** |
| 16F | | | | **0.2082** | **0.2854** | **0.0882** | **0.1396** | 0.2677 | 0.3659 | 0.4915 | 0.5987 |
| 32F | | | | 0.1930 | 0.2687 | 0.0737 | 0.1261 | 0.2528 | 0.3466 | 0.4720 | 0.5792 |
| 4F | 50T | 8F | 50T | 0.2639 | 0.3515 | 0.1054 | 0.1694 | 0.3566 | 0.4669 | 0.5859 | 0.6892 |
| 8F | | | | **0.2741** | **0.3605** | **0.1143** | **0.1788** | **0.3667** | **0.4764** | **0.6020** | **0.6946** |
| 16F | | | | 0.2486 | 0.3295 | 0.0992 | 0.1591 | 0.3281 | 0.4291 | 0.5815 | 0.6763 |
| 32F | | | | 0.2390 | 0.3168 | 0.0982 | 0.1531 | 0.3117 | 0.4095 | 0.5610 | 0.6614 |
| 4F | 50T | 16F | 50T | 0.3165 | 0.4086 | 0.1207 | 0.1951 | 0.4464 | 0.5590 | 0.6581 | 0.7484 |
| 8F | | | | 0.3071 | 0.3941 | 0.1147 | 0.1839 | 0.4288 | 0.5363 | 0.6643 | 0.7501 |
| 16F | | | | **0.3254** | **0.4136** | **0.1235** | **0.1972** | **0.4587** | **0.5648** | **0.6803** | **0.7628** |
| 32F | | | | 0.3090 | 0.3987 | 0.1196 | 0.1903 | 0.4254 | 0.5385 | 0.6732 | 0.7560 |
| 4F | 50T | 32F | 50T | 0.3310 | 0.4196 | 0.1373 | 0.2088 | 0.4611 | 0.5678 | 0.6625 | 0.7559 |
| 8F | | | | 0.3556 | 0.4433 | 0.1432 | 0.2192 | 0.5017 | 0.6057 | 0.7070 | 0.7831 |
| 16F | | | | 0.3574 | 0.4466 | **0.1466** | **0.2255** | 0.5034 | 0.6068 | 0.7026 | 0.7820 |
| 32F | | | | **0.3596** | **0.4476** | 0.1456 | 0.2224 | **0.5075** | **0.6118** | **0.7115** | **0.7857** |
| 4F | 50T | 64F | 50T | 0.3829 | 0.4717 | 0.1655 | 0.2440 | 0.5328 | 0.6392 | **0.7409** | **0.8110** |
| 8F | | | | 0.3772 | 0.4640 | 0.1596 | 0.2375 | 0.5280 | 0.6294 | 0.7329 | 0.8031 |
| 16F | | | | 0.3877 | 0.4746 | **0.1698** | **0.2488** | 0.5420 | 0.6421 | 0.7320 | 0.8026 |
| 32F | | | | **0.3892** | **0.4769** | 0.1668 | 0.2472 | **0.5468** | **0.6472** | 0.7400 | **0.8110** |
| 4F | 50T | 128F | 50T | 0.4021 | 0.4900 | 0.1772 | 0.2604 | 0.5633 | 0.6626 | 0.7498 | 0.8174 |
| 8F | | | | 0.3941 | 0.4799 | 0.1698 | 0.2511 | 0.5538 | 0.6500 | 0.7453 | 0.8116 |
| 16F | | | | 0.4058 | 0.4939 | 0.1806 | 0.2651 | **0.5681** | **0.6661** | 0.7507 | 0.8174 |
| 32F | | | | **0.4078** | **0.4949** | **0.1859** | **0.2695** | 0.5666 | 0.6629 | **0.7516** | **0.8195** |

performance in both directions, but the degradation is asymmetric. When $F_{\text{train}} \gg F_{\text{test}}$, the performance drop is more severe: a model trained at $F_{\text{train}} = 32$ and evaluated at $F_{\text{test}} = 4$ drops $0.0104$ in Fine R@1 relative to the matched $F_{\text{train}} = 4$ baseline (Group 1 in Table 4.5). In the inverse direction, a model trained at $F_{\text{train}} = 4$ and evaluated at $F_{\text{test}} = 32$ drops $0.0083$ in Fine R@1 relative to the matched $F_{\text{train}} = 32$ baseline (Group 4 in Table 4.5). Although these gaps are measured against different absolute performance levels and should be interpreted accordingly, the consistent pattern across groups suggests that low-frame-count training better preserves fine-grained discriminability under temporal mismatch than high-frame-count training does.

## 4.5 VEterfall: Channeling Scaling Potential for Self-Enhancement of Video Embedding Models

Our analysis reveals a key asymmetry: spatial embeddings tolerate token compression well, whereas temporal ones are governed by frame-count anchoring, i.e., models evaluated with high frame-density inputs degrade when the frame count is reduced at inference time. This suggests that the knowledge required for low-density inference is already latent within representations produced under high-density input sampling, but is not automatically transferred when the sampling configuration changes. We therefore propose **Video Embedding Waterfall (VEterfall)**, a progressive dense-to-sparse self-distillation framework that explicitly propagates this knowledge along the sampling-density axis, from high- to low-density configurations stage by stage, analogous to water descending through successive levels of a waterfall as shown in Figure 4.6.

### 4.5.1 Method

**Single Dense-to-Sparse Distillation Step.** The basic unit of VEterfall is a single distillation step [74] from a denser to a sparser input sampling configuration, where density refers jointly to the number of frames sampled from the video and the number of spatial tokens retained per frame at inference time. A frozen teacher processes inputs at higher sampling density, while a student—sharing the same architecture and initialized from the same pretrained checkpoint $\mathcal{V}^{(0)}$ (here GVE-3B [19])—is trained at a strictly lower density. The student is optimized to align its video embedding with that of the teacher via MSE loss, with an additional InfoNCE [55] loss term ($\lambda$=0.5) to maintain video-text alignment by contrastive learning throughout density reduction.

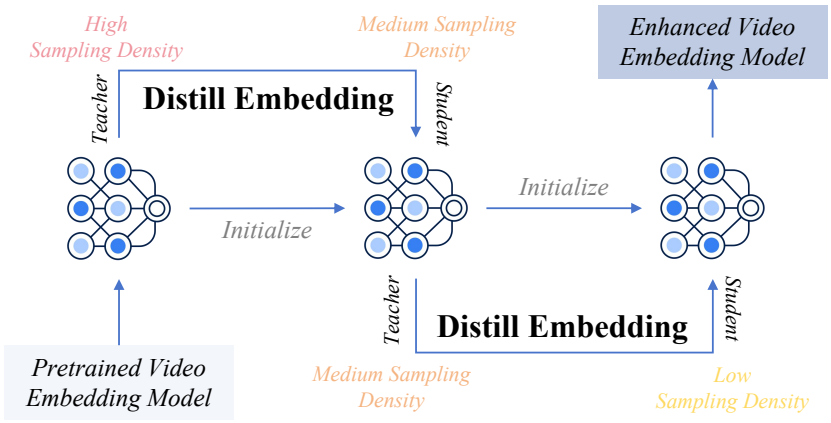



Figure 4.6: VEterfall progressively distills video embeddings across progressively sparser input sampling configurations using the pretrained model itself as the teacher at each stage.

**$K$-Round Cascade.** To support large overall density reductions while keeping each individual step within a reliable transfer range, VEterfall chains $K$ distillation steps into a cascade, where each round takes the previous checkpoint as its frozen teacher: $\mathcal{V}^{(k)} \xleftarrow{\text{distill}} \mathcal{V}^{(k-1)},\ k = 1, \ldots, K$. Here $\mathcal{V}^{(0)}$ serves as the pre-trained video embedding model, and $K$ controls the granularity of the reduction schedule.

**Instantiation.** We set $K$=2. Starting from $\mathcal{V}^{(0)}$ at (16F, 400T), the first round produces $\mathcal{V}^{(1)}$ at (8F, 200T), and the second produces $\mathcal{V}^{(2)}$ at (4F, 100T). Across two rounds, the input token budget is reduced by $16\times$ with no modification to the inference architecture. Each round uses 100K text-video pairs from InternVid [52], a substantially smaller data requirement than comparable models.

### 4.5.2 Experiments

**Main Results.** As shown in Table 4.6, each distillation round yields consistent R@1 gains, with improvements concentrated on fine- and medium-grained queries. This is consistent with our earlier finding that these granularities are most sensitive to frame sparsity. Coarse-grained performance remains stable across rounds, confirming that holistic scene under-

Table 4.6: **Iterative Distillation.** R@1 performance across successive rounds ($K = 1, 2$). VEterfall effectively recovers performance at lower densities, particularly for fine-grained queries.

| Setting | Model | Overall | Fine | Medium | Coarse |
|---|---|---|---|---|---|
| 16F-400T | $\mathcal{V}^{(0)}$ | 0.447 | 0.202 | 0.622 | **0.829** |
| | $\mathcal{V}^{(1)}$ | 0.454 | 0.212 | 0.628 | 0.826 |
| | $\mathcal{V}^{(2)}$ | **0.456** | **0.215** | **0.630** | 0.819 |
| 8F-200T | $\mathcal{V}^{(0)}$ | 0.369 | 0.148 | 0.508 | **0.782** |
| | $\mathcal{V}^{(1)}$ | 0.398 | 0.182 | 0.540 | 0.780 |
| | $\mathcal{V}^{(2)}$ | **0.402** | **0.188** | **0.543** | 0.777 |
| 4F-100T | $\mathcal{V}^{(0)}$ | 0.300 | 0.132 | 0.391 | 0.664 |
| | $\mathcal{V}^{(1)}$ | 0.300 | 0.130 | 0.394 | 0.664 |
| | $\mathcal{V}^{(2)}$ | **0.325** | **0.158** | **0.423** | **0.667** |

Table 4.7: **Frame-Efficiency.** Evaluated at fixed $T = 200$. VEterfall ($\mathcal{V}^{(1)}$) significantly improves performance as frame count $F$ decreases.

| Setting | Model | Overall | Fine | Medium | Coarse |
|---|---|---|---|---|---|
| 16F-200T | $\mathcal{V}^{(0)}$ | **0.458** | **0.212** | **0.636** | **0.832** |
| | $\mathcal{V}^{(1)}$ | 0.446 | 0.211 | 0.615 | 0.811 |
| 8F-200T | $\mathcal{V}^{(0)}$ | 0.369 | 0.148 | 0.508 | **0.782** |
| | $\mathcal{V}^{(1)}$ | **0.398** | **0.182** | **0.540** | 0.780 |
| 4F-200T | $\mathcal{V}^{(0)}$ | 0.303 | 0.125 | 0.403 | 0.677 |
| | $\mathcal{V}^{(1)}$ | **0.319** | **0.138** | **0.420** | **0.706** |

standing is already well-preserved at low density. At 4F-100T, $\mathcal{V}^{(2)}$ improves overall R@1 from 0.300 to 0.325, with a $\sim$20% relative gain on fine-grained queries. $\mathcal{V}^{(2)}$ also yields a marginal improvement at the original high-density setting, suggesting that the contrastive loss term provides mild regularization as a beneficial side effect.

**Frame-Efficiency.** We fix $T$=200 and vary the number of sampled frames $F$ to isolate the effect of temporal sparsity and evaluate the effectiveness of $\mathcal{V}^{(1)}$. As summarized in Table 4.7, $\mathcal{V}^{(1)}$ consistently outperforms $\mathcal{V}^{(0)}$ at 8 frames and below, with gains growing as the frame budget tightens. This confirms that VEterfall is most effective in the low-frame regime relevant for efficient deployment.

Table 4.8: **Token-Efficiency.** Evaluated at fixed $F = 8$. Benefits are consistent but less pronounced than frame-count adjustments.

| Setting | Model | Overall | Fine | Medium | Coarse |
|---|---|---|---|---|---|
| 8F-400T | $\mathcal{V}^{(0)}$ | 0.404 | 0.179 | 0.553 | **0.801** |
| | $\mathcal{V}^{(1)}$ | **0.412** | **0.191** | **0.558** | 0.800 |
| 8F-200T | $\mathcal{V}^{(0)}$ | 0.369 | 0.148 | 0.508 | **0.782** |
| | $\mathcal{V}^{(1)}$ | **0.398** | **0.182** | **0.540** | 0.780 |
| 8F-100T | $\mathcal{V}^{(0)}$ | 0.375 | 0.158 | 0.513 | **0.772** |
| | $\mathcal{V}^{(1)}$ | **0.380** | **0.171** | **0.516** | 0.758 |

Table 4.9: **Ablation on $\lambda$.** Impact of contrastive loss term weight on 8F-200T performance. $\lambda = 0.5$ provides the best alignment balance.

| $\lambda$ | Overall | Fine | Medium | Coarse |
|---|---|---|---|---|
| 0 | 0.396 | 0.178 | 0.537 | **0.782** |
| 0.5 | **0.398** | **0.182** | **0.540** | 0.780 |

**Token-Efficiency.** As shown in Table 4.8, where we fix $F$=8 and vary $T$, $\mathcal{V}^{(1)}$ improves consistently across all spatial token budgets. However, the margins are smaller and more uniform compared to frame-efficiency gains, confirming that spatial token compression is a secondary factor relative to frame sparsity.

**Ablation on Contrastive Learning.** Table 4.9 illustrates the impact of the loss weight $\lambda$. Setting $\lambda$=0 already yields competitive performance, and adding the InfoNCE term provides marginal but consistent gains. These results confirm that the primary source of improvement is the embedding distillation objective rather than the contrastive learning term.

## 4.6 Conclusion

We introduced MG-LVR, a benchmark for the controlled study of spatiotemporal sampling across query granularity levels in long-video retrieval. Evaluating 23 models revealed a fundamental asymmetry between spatial and temporal scaling: spatial representations are resolution-robust, whereas temporal representations exhibit frame-count anchoring that is

most pronounced on fine-grained queries. Under a fixed token budget, the optimal allocation between spatial and temporal tokens depends on query granularity. Building on these findings, we proposed VEterfall, a progressive dense-to-sparse self-distillation framework in which the high-density representations of a model are used to improve its own low-density embeddings without requiring external supervision, achieving up to $\sim$20% relative R@1 gains on fine-grained queries under sparse sampling. An important direction for future work is to develop architectures and training strategies that generalize robustly across spatiotemporal sampling configurations.

# CHAPTER 5

# GPU-ACCELERATED MULTI-RELATIONAL PARALLEL GRAPH RETRIEVAL FOR WEB-SCALE RECOMMENDATIONS

**Chapter Abstract.** Web recommendations provide personalized items from massive catalogs for users, which rely heavily on retrieval stages to trade off the effectiveness and efficiency of selecting a small relevant set from billion-scale candidates in online digital platforms. As one of the largest Chinese search engine and news feed providers, Baidu resorts to Deep Neural Network (DNN) and graph-based Approximate Nearest Neighbor Search (ANNS) algorithms for accurate relevance estimation and efficient search for relevant items. However, current retrieval at Baidu fails in comprehensive user-item relational understanding due to dissected interaction modeling, and performs inefficiently in large-scale graph-based ANNS because of suboptimal traversal navigation and the GPU computational bottleneck under high concurrency. To this end, we propose a GPU-accelerated Multi-relational Parallel Graph Retrieval (GMP-GR) framework to achieve effective yet efficient retrieval in web-scale recommendations. First, we propose a multi-relational user-item relevance metric learning method that unifies diverse user behaviors through multi-objective optimization and employs a self-covariant loss to enhance pathfinding performance. Second, we develop a hierarchical parallel graph-based ANNS to boost graph retrieval throughput, which conducts breadth-depth-balanced searches on a large-scale item graph and cost-effectively handles irregular neural computation via adaptive aggregation on GPUs. In addition, we integrate system optimization strategies in the deployment of GMP-GR in Baidu. Extensive experiments demonstrate the superiority of GMP-GR in retrieval accuracy and efficiency. Deployed across more than twenty applications at Baidu, GMP-GR serves hundreds of millions of users with a throughput exceeding one hundred million requests per second.

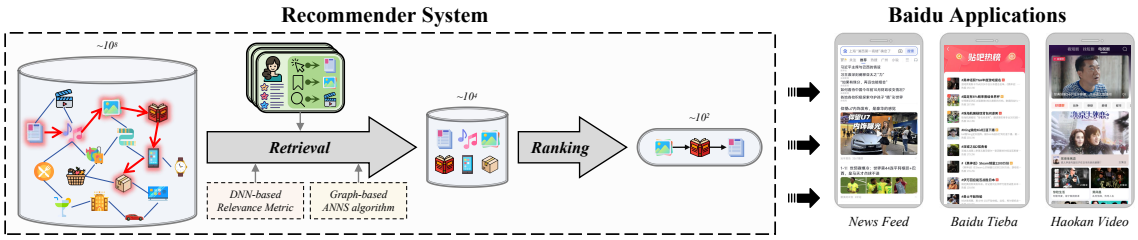



Figure 5.1: Applications of recommender systems at Baidu.

## 5.1 Introduction

Recently, recommender systems have become essential tools for helping users navigate various options and discover relevant products or content [75]. However, large-scale relevance evaluation based on user preference is computationally prohibitive in real-world recommendation applications [76]. For timely answering requirements, computing relevance values of billions of items is unacceptable [28]. To balance effectiveness and efficiency, retrieval-and-ranking recommendation frameworks [26, 77] have gained widespread adoption in modern industrial systems, such as YouTube [27], LinkedIn [34], and Pinterest [33]. The first stage (*i.e.* retrieval) focuses on retrieving a thousand-scale relevant subset from the entire billion-scale item catalog, which then serves as the candidates for further ordering in the second stage (*i.e.* ranking). In particular, retrieval plays an important role in real-time and satisfactory answers for large-scale queries. Effective retrieval can significantly simplify the search space for potential answers while maintaining personalization and serendipity, thus reducing the ranking difficulty in producing reliable final recommendations.

In this work, we focus on the retrieval stage in Baidu's web-scale recommendation scenarios, e.g., news feed, Tieba, and video clips. Recent works [25, 32] establish the retrieval framework in a training-and-search manner. Based on the complex relational dependencies modeling ability of Deep Neural Network (DNN) [78], they attempt to train a DNN-based metric for more accurate user-item relevance estimation compared with simple functions [30, 31]. Nevertheless, real-time retrieval is difficult due to complicated neural com-

putations on massive candidates. To solve the problem, researchers have been exploring the potential of Approximate Nearest Neighbor Search (ANNS) algorithms to mitigate extensive computations, which search for relatively relevant items for each query user by selectively visiting instead of the entire item base. Early works propose tree-based ANNS to organize data points in a tree-like structure by recursively splitting the dimensional space [21]. However, they underperform in web-scale recommendations that aim to retrieve divergent and high-dimensional information. Because they are sensitive to complex feature space and item relationships [24]. To improve retrieval effectiveness, the latest frameworks leverage graph-based ANNS algorithms that build similarity-based candidate graphs to efficiently expand the candidate set via graph traversal. For example, HNSW [23] hierarchically establishes a multi-layer indexing graph, grounding coarse-to-fine navigation towards the most satisfactory candidates.

However, we confront three challenges in developing an accurate and efficient retrieval framework for web-scale recommendations. *(1) Unified modeling of multi-relational user-item relevance.* Baidu recommendation applications consist of dozens of distinct and related behaviors (e.g., click, browse) that are typically modeled by a tailored metric for estimating relevance between users and items. However, the independent modeling of these user-item interactions fails to capture the semantic relations of diverse user behaviors, which are mutually beneficial between them [32]. Besides, training multiple behavior-specific metrics incurs exponential efforts in system updates. Thus, the first challenge lies in cost-effectively multi-relational metric joint training for more accurate relevance estimation. *(2) Efficient search on large-scale graph item base.* Baidu devises Graph-based ANNS to traverse relevant candidate items from a graph item base. Practically, a trade-off problem arises that increasing the online retrieval throughput will restrict the search efforts, *i.e.* the graph traversal steps. However, existing methods make delivering satisfactory items in limited steps difficult, especially for billion-scale graphs in web-scale recommender systems. On the one

hand, neural relevance metrics often violate the triangle inequality, a property that ensures optimal pathfinding in graph traversal [25]. This violation forces the exploration of redundant edges, decreasing the possibility of reaching distant yet relevant candidates. On the other hand, graph-based ANNS usually search for relevant items greedily, which may be stuck in a narrow space after a short-length traversal among a large-scale graph. The inability to balance search depth and breadth degrades the quality of real-time recommendations. Addressing this challenge requires developing a search-compatible relevance metric and a deep-and-broad traversal algorithm for efficient graph search. *(3) Accelerating irregular neural computation in high concurrency.* At Baidu, users raise hundreds of millions of recommendation requests per second. These request executions are irregular because divergent user profiling drives distinct search paths, where the visited items should be estimated for their relevance by the neural metric. Baidu has developed a GPU-accelerated framework for web-scale recommendations to leverage the computational economy of GPUs [43]. However, their performance degrades under highly concurrent, non-uniform workloads because of frequent kernel launches, a process with fixed latency overhead that dominates runtime when computations are small and irregular [79]. Millions of sequential processes of deep relevance computations on a GPU cluster introduce bottlenecks of recommendation throughput. Therefore, the third challenge is redesigning computation scheduling to accelerate large-scale irregular neural computations for higher throughput.

To this end, we propose a **GPU-accelerated Multi-relational Parallel Graph Retrieval (GMP-GR)** framework for effective and efficient retrieval in web-scale recommendations. Specifically, we first devise a *Multi-relational User-Item Relevance Metric Learning (MUIRML)* to generate a practical DNN-based metric via multi-objective optimization. The metric extracts multi-relational knowledge in inter-dependent user behaviors to capture nuanced user preferences for accurate relevance measurement. We also infuse our metric's approximate triangle inequality property via a self-covariant loss to navigate

large graphs with shorter paths. Second, we design a *Hierarchically Parallel Approximate Nearest Neighbor Search (HiPANNS)* algorithm to achieve timely and accurate retrieval for highly concurrent queries. HiPANNS broadens the search space of the large graph item base by divergent parallel and co-optimized search processes, which can efficiently generate more relevant candidates in real-time retrieval. Based on it, HiPANNS accelerates irregular neural computations from asynchronous requests by adaptive aggregation in a GPU-based cluster for higher retrieval throughput. In Baidu recommendation applications, we further apply several system optimization strategies, including traffic dispersal, compilation optimization, model quantization, and timely stream update. Extensive experiments demonstrate the superior retrieval effectiveness and efficiency of GMP-GR in offline retrieving evaluations and online recommendation services. Our framework has been deployed in more than twenty web-scale recommender systems at Baidu, where it efficiently handles over one hundred billion requests per day, improving more than 3% time of page for hundreds of millions of users.

The main contributions of our work are concluded as follows: (1) We propose a GPU-accelerated Multi-relational Parallel Graph Retrieval framework to achieve accurate and efficient retrieval for web-scale recommendations. (2) We devise a DNN-based metric to estimate user-item relevance via capturing inter-dependency among complex user-item relations, which can also improve the search efficiency on a large-scale graph for shorter navigation. (3) We design a GPU-accelerated parallel graph-based ANNS algorithm for highly concurrent retrieval by billion-scale breadth-depth balanced graph search and parallel irregular computations with adaptive aggregation. (4) We conduct extensive experiments to demonstrate retrieval effectiveness and efficiency improvements in offline and online recommendations at Baidu.

## 5.2 Preliminaries

Baidu has developed a recommendation framework as a comprehensive funnel mechanism to efficiently retrieve and rank items for users from a web-scale database for over twenty internet products (e.g., news feed, short video clips, search engine, and online advertising) [28]. The recommendation framework has served over one hundred billion requests for online recommendations made by hundreds of millions of users per day. Next, we detail the retrieval framework for Baidu recommendations, including the retrieval problem and the retrieval pipeline.

### 5.2.1 Online Retrieval at Baidu

Given $N_u$ users $\{u_1, u_2, \cdots, u_{N_u}\}$ and $N_v$ items $\{v_1, v_2, \cdots, v_{N_v}\}$. Consider a query from a user $u$ with raw feature $x_u$, the objective of the retrieval stage is to recommend the top-$K$ items that are most relevant to $u$ in order. Specifically, we define the retrieval problem as a function $\mathcal{F}(\cdot;\cdot)$ generates a set $V_u$ based on the user features. $V_u$ contains the $K$ most similar items $V_u = \{v_{u,1}, v_{u,2}, \cdots, v_{u,K}\}$ as

$$V_u = \mathcal{F}(x_u; \{v_1, v_2, \cdots, v_{N_v}\}). \tag{5.1}$$

### 5.2.2 Retrieval Pipeline at Baidu

Baidu has constructed a graph retrieval framework in their recommendation system, including two stages: offline training and online search [25, 32].

#### Step 1. Offline Training

The first stage aims to learn user and item embeddings associated with a relevance metric for estimating the relevance between users and items. Embeddings and the metric are learnable modules stored by the system, which are immutable in the search stage. We can

also periodically re-train the modules once the properties change significantly. Overall, the pipeline of the training step is presented below.

*(1) Users and item feature construction.* We first prepare the raw features of the users and items that are denoted as $\{x_{u_1}, x_{u_2}, \cdots, x_{N_u}\}$ and $\{x_{v_1}, x_{v_2}, \cdots, x_{N_v}\}$, where $N_u$ and $N_v$ are number of users and items, respectively. Meanwhile, the interaction records of users $u$ and items $b$ are denoted as $\{D^z_{u,v}\}$. For an interaction type $z$, $D^z_{u_i,v_j}$ is the interactive value between a user $u_i$ and an item $v_j$, which reflects how close they are in terms of the interaction $z$.

*(2) User and item embedding projection.* Then, we pre-define a user and an item projector, $\mathcal{H}_u(\cdot)$ and $\mathcal{H}_v(\cdot)$, to transform raw features into learnable embeddings as user and item representations, which are defined as $h_{u_i} = \mathcal{H}_u(x_{u_i})$ and $h_{v_j} = \mathcal{H}_v(x_{v_j})$.

*(3) User-item relevance metric definition.* After that, we devise a DNN-based learnable metric [30, 31] to estimate the relevance between a user and an item by a high-dimensional calculation of their embeddings. Hence, we aim to obtain a metric $\Delta(\cdot, \cdot)$ to quantify the relevance value given a user embedding and an item embedding as $\delta_{u,v} = \Delta(h_u, h_v)$.

*(4) Optimization of embeddings and the metric.* Next, we optimize the user embeddings, item embeddings, and the relevance metric based on the user features, item features, and user-item interactions. We describe the optimization as a function $\mathcal{F}_t(\cdot, \cdot, \cdot)$ that

$$\{h_u\}, \{h_v\}, \Delta(\cdot, \cdot) = \mathcal{F}_t(\{x_u\}, \{x_v\}, \{D^z_{u,v}\}). \tag{5.2}$$

The learned embeddings and the relevance metric are used in the online search stage to measure user-item relevance.

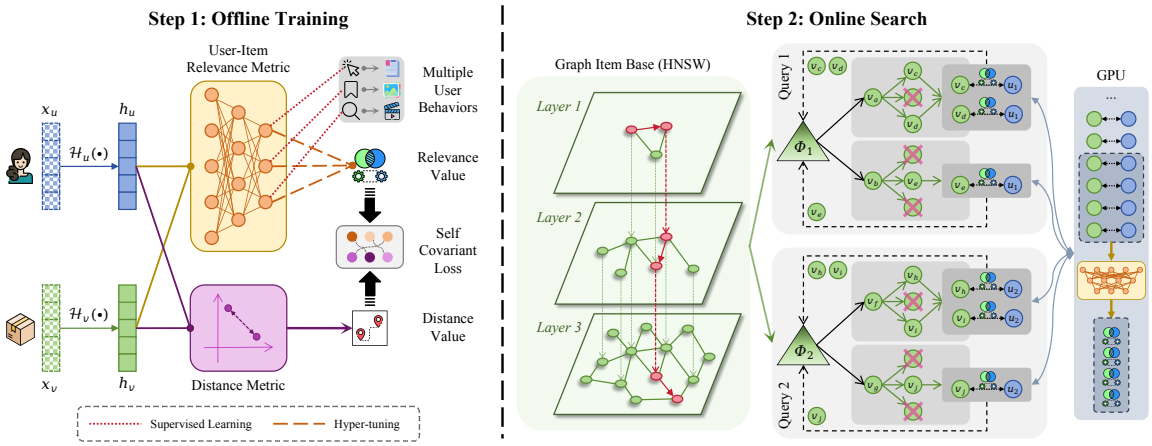



Figure 5.2: An overview of the GPU-accelerated Multi-relational Parallel Graph Retrieval framework.

### Step 2. Online Search

In the second stage, we construct a graph-based item database that supports an efficient search for the target items. Traditional tree-based ANNS fails to handle web-scale data with high dimensions and uneven distributions, and requires extensive tree construction costs. Instead, we follow graph-based ANNS to construct a graph item base that can efficiently navigate possibly relevant items and retrieve satisfactory items for given users based on graph search. Specifically, we adopt HNSW [23] as the graph structure. HNSW utilizes a multi-layered graph structure, denoted as a $L$-layer graph $G$, where each upper layer contains fewer nodes to facilitate efficient search paths. Based on its hierarchy, we can effectively narrow the search space for nearest neighbors in the base layer, initiating the search process from the upper layers.

In the online search, we infer $K$ relevant items with a querying user as follows. We perform the search iteratively across each layer of the HNSW structure, with the selected items from one layer serving as seed nodes for traversal in the subsequent layer. For each layer, we first access the corresponding user embedding. Second, we generate seed nodes, from which we start to traverse the graph. Third, we expand the candidate node set by visiting neighbors of existing nodes and continuously update the most similar ones for the

queried user. The $K$ most similar items are ultimately extracted from the final layer. The overall search process for the relevant item set $\hat{V}_u$ for user $u$ can be defined as

$$\hat{V}_u = \arg\max_{V_u \in V} \sum_{v \in V_u} \delta_{u,v}. \tag{5.3}$$

## 5.3 GPU-accelerated Multi-relational Parallel Graph Retrieval Framework

This section introduces the GPU-accelerated Multi-relational Parallel Graph Retrieval (GMP-GR) framework deployed at Baidu for web-scale recommendation. As shown in Figure 5.2, GMP-GR equips two main modules to achieve effective and efficient performance. In the training step, a multi-relational user-item relevance metric learning generates a DNN-based metric capturing inter-dependent relationships between users and items and inherits the triangle inequality property for path-efficient graph search. In the search step, a hierarchically parallel graph-based ANNS algorithm effectively delivers reliable search candidates in high concurrency, which explores a breadth-depth balanced search space and synchronizes large-scale irregular neural computations on GPUs.

### 5.3.1 Multi-relational User-item Relevance Metric Learning

The training step aims to optimize the user and item embeddings with the DNN-based metric to model the relevance between users and items. However, existing DNN-based metrics either fail in insufficient understanding of nuance user preference due to partial incorporation of multi-dimensional behaviors on items, or do not satisfy the triangle inequality property necessitated by efficient navigation of graph-based ANNS. Therefore, we propose a *Multi-relational User-Item Relevance Metric Learning (MUIRML)* algorithm to train a relevance metric that not only ensures elaborate multi-relational modeling, but also enhances navigating efficiency in the search step, ultimately improving the retrieval effectiveness.

*(1) DNN-based Relevance computation.* We first utilize a Multi-Layer Perceptron (MLP) to model multiple interactive behaviors. Initially, the input consists of the user embedding $h_u$, the item embedding $h_v$, and the serendipity vector $\tilde{h} \sim \mathcal{N}(0, 1)$ for diverse exploration as

$$h_{u,v}^{(0)} = \text{concat}(h_u + \tilde{h}, h_v), \tag{5.4}$$

the MLP inputs $h_{u,v}^{(0)}$ and aims to output the interaction vector $Z_{u,v}$ that stacks multiple interactions $z_{u,v}$ between user $u$ and item $v$. The overall operation can be defined as

$$\hat{Z}_{u,v} = \text{MLP}(h_{u,v}^{(0)}), \tag{5.5}$$

where $\hat{Z}_{u,v}$ is the predicted interaction vector. Specifically, we define the computation of the $m$-th layer MLP as

$$h_{u,v}^{(m)} = \mathbf{W}^{(m)} \cdot h_{u,v}^{(m-1)} + b^{(m)}, \tag{5.6}$$

where $h_{u,v}^{(m)}$ is the $m$-th layer joint representation of user $u$ and item $v$, and $\mathbf{W}^{(m)}$ and $b^{(m)}$ are the $m$-th layer learnable parameters.

Then, we leverage an attention mechanism to weighted aggregate predicted interaction values for a joint understanding of diverse user behaviors. Specifically, the attention vector $\mathbf{A}$ is multiplied on $\hat{Z}_{u,v}$ to produce the final user-item relevance value $\delta_{u,v}$ as $\delta_{u,v} = \mathbf{A} \cdot \hat{Z}_{u,v}$ where $\mathbf{A}$ is initialized with $\frac{1}{|\mathbf{A}|}$ and can be hyper-tuned to achieve personalized behavior importance for different web recommendation scenarios.

*(2) Self-supervised loss for short graph navigation.* Instead of directly forcing the alignment between user-item relevance values computed by the DNN-based metric and the Euclidean distance, we aim to retain the triangle inequality property by transplanting the ranking regularity of Euclidean distance into the DNN-based metric. Specifically, we devise a Self Covariant Loss (SCL) to quantify the gap of the ranking regularity via the divergence of the pairwise values covariance for two metrics. By minimizing the loss, the order of

items ranked according to our metric will be similar to the Euclidean distance, while the relevance values will be maximally retained for accurate estimation by multi-dimensional understanding. In this way, we can eliminate unnecessary traversal paths and increase the possibility of approaching the optimal candidates.

Specifically, we randomly sample $N_l$ pairs of users and items $\{(u_{i_1}, v_{j_1}), \cdots, (u_{i_{N_l}}, v_{j_{N_l}})\}$ and compute their DNN-based relevance values $\{\delta_{u,v}\}$ and Euclidean distance $\{\delta'_{u,v}\}$, respectively. Then, we calculate the correlation of two groups of values based on their covariance as

$$\rho_{u,v} = \frac{\sum_{k=1}^{N_l} (\delta_{u_k,v_k} - \overline{\delta_{u,v}})(\delta'_{u_k,v_k} - \overline{\delta'_{u,v}})}{\text{VAR}(\delta_{u,v}) \cdot \text{VAR}(\delta'_{u,v})}, \tag{5.7}$$

where $\text{VAR}(x) = \sqrt{\sum_{k=1}^{N_l}(x - \overline{x})^2}$.

*(3) Multi-objective optimization for embeddings and the relevance metric.* Lastly, we design the multi-objective optimization to train the user and item embeddings, as well as the DNN-based relevance metric. The loss is defined as

$$\mathcal{L} = \sum_{i=1}^{N_u} \sum_{j=1}^{N_v} (\|Z_{u_i,v_j} - \hat{Z}_{u_i,v_j}\|_2 + \sum_{k=1}^{N_l} \frac{1}{\rho_{u_{i_k},v_{j_k}} + 1}), \tag{5.8}$$

which will be optimized by gradient-based algorithms. In this way, we can simultaneously minimize the prediction error of multi-relational interaction behaviors and maximize the similarity of ranking regularity between our DNN-based metric and Euclidean distance for triangle inequality property, which can generate shorter paths in graph search for more efficient retrieval.

### 5.3.2 GPU-accelerated Hierarchically Parallel Approximate Nearest Neighbor Search

In this work, the search step aims to retrieve the most similar items using graph-based ANNS. Existing graph retrieval frameworks struggle to achieve low-latency retrieval in high-concurrency scenarios for two reasons. First, their traversal strategies underperform at scale, as they inadequately balance search depth, *i.e.* refinement of local neighborhoods, and breadth, *i.e.* coverage of global graph regions, within constrained computational budgets [42]. Second, the underlying GPU-based infrastructure faces inefficiencies when handling asynchronous retrieval requests, which includes tremendous irregular neural computations according to divergent search routes. The frequent kernel launch of GPU computation from different queries induces significant overhead and contention under extreme concurrency [80]. These limitations collectively degrade the retrieval throughput for real-time recommendations. To this end, we propose a *Hierarchically Parallel Approximate Nearest Neighbor Search (HiPANNS)* algorithm to efficiently answer highly concurrent retrieval queries. Specifically, HiPANNS consists of two sub-algorithms, *i.e.* inter-candidate HiPANNS and inter-query HiPANNS.

Inter-candidate HiPANNS (C-HiPANNS) allows parallel search within the large-scale graph item base to broaden the global search space for more comprehensive retrieval. For each query $u$, we aim to execute $k$ parallel search processes with different initial seeds $S$. Each search process traverses the graph item base by visiting the most relevant neighbors. We jointly maintain candidates by a shared max heap $\Phi_u$ that ranks $k$ current most relevant items among processes. In this work, we carry out the multi-processing at each layer of the HNSW graph, seeded with top-$k$ candidates ranked by $\Phi_u$ of the last layer. The parallelized traversal achieves a $k$-fold expansion of the search space, which yields more effective retrieval results.

Inter-query HiPANNS (Q-HiPANNS) adaptively aggregates irregular neural computations for more efficient GPU-accelerated retrieval against launch bound from extreme concurrency. We adaptively synchronize the irregular user-item relevance evaluation by a queuing aggregation scheme and parallelize batched neural computation on GPU for acceleration. First, we initialize a queue $\Psi$ to persistently listen to neural computations. $\Psi$ will record the computations orderly for the following sequential batching, *i.e.* the element received first will be batched first. Each element in $\Psi$ is produced from C-HiPANNS as a group of $(u, v)$ pairs for measuring neighbor embedding similarity. We dynamically generate batches for parallel computing the GPU cluster $U$. However, the elements of $\Psi$ vary in amounts due to divergent connections in the graph item base, causing difficulties in aggregating fixed batches that are beneficial to fully utilize the computational ability of GPUs. To address that, we synthesize batches by adaptively slicing $(u, v)$ groups to fit certain configurations. Specifically, we set the maximum size of the computing batch as $B_U$. If the size of current batch $B_i$, $N_{B_i}$, is larger than the remaining space $\epsilon$, we split it into two elements, including $B_i^{[1,\epsilon]} = \{(u_{i,1}, v_{i,1}), \cdots, (u_{i,\epsilon}, v_{i,\epsilon})\}$ and $B_i^{[\epsilon+1,N_{B_i}]} = \{(u_{i,\epsilon+1}, v_{i,\epsilon+1}), \cdots, (u_{i,N_{B_i}}, v_{i,N_{B_i}})\}$. $B_i^{[1,\epsilon]}$ will be computed in the current executive round of $U$ while $B_i^{[\epsilon+1,N_{B_i}]}$ will be computed in the next. The output values will be returned as estimations of the relevance between users and items during the processes of C-HiPANNS.

More details are presented in Appendix C.1.

## 5.4 System Optimization

We devise various system optimization strategies to accelerate our retrieval framework deployed at Baidu.

**Traffic Dispersal** We construct a communicative computing cluster composed of multiple interconnected servers designed to facilitate traffic dispersal and mitigate the effects of

Table 5.1: Offline retrieval performance of different methods on four datasets for three metrics.

| | Video | | | MVideo | | |
|---|---|---|---|---|---|---|
| | Cov | Rec@10 | Rec@100 | Cov | Rec@10 | Rec@100 |
| C-NSW | 0.3386 | 0.3829 | 0.4028 | 0.3185 | 0.3775 | 0.3986 |
| D-NSW | 0.4084 | 0.5527 | 0.6094 | 0.4283 | 0.5428 | 0.5908 |
| SL2G | 0.4413 | 0.5784 | 0.6121 | 0.4428 | 0.5684 | 0.6049 |
| NANN | 0.5368 | 0.6717 | 0.6635 | 0.5021 | 0.6491 | 0.6498 |
| GMP-GR | **0.6492** | **0.8239** | **0.8052** | **0.6044** | **0.7175** | **0.7325** |
| | Explore | | | Fresh | | |
| | Cov | Rec@10 | Rec@100 | Cov | Rec@10 | Rec@100 |
| C-NSW | 0.3288 | 0.3486 | 0.3674 | 0.3493 | 0.3823 | 0.4084 |
| D-NSW | 0.4081 | 0.5265 | 0.5376 | 0.5083 | 0.6075 | 0.6344 |
| SL2G | 0.4076 | 0.5249 | 0.5485 | 0.5123 | 0.6285 | 0.6298 |
| NANN | 0.5029 | 0.6038 | 0.6345 | 0.6130 | 0.7318 | 0.7555 |
| GMP-GR | **0.6279** | **0.7999** | **0.7810** | **0.6906** | **0.8420** | **0.8428** |

extreme query loads. Each server is equipped with a monitoring module that continuously assesses its computing load by analyzing available memory and current query traffic levels. When a server reaches its saturation point, it proactively requests assistance from its peer servers to redistribute the excess queries. The receiving servers will accept these queries if they possess adequate computational resources at that time. This approach significantly enhances overall system efficiency by optimizing the utilization of distributed computational resources.

**Compilation Optimization** Metric learning and graph search algorithms employ fundamental operators. To accelerate retrieval processes, we integrate these operators to minimize redundant computations based on existing techniques of computational graph optimization and pattern recognition [81]. Our system includes an automatic analysis module for operator kernel compilation, which aids in the optimization of neural computations for specific hardware configurations. Moreover, to address the launch bound issue that may affect computational performance on GPUs [82], we abstract the execution process of DNN-based

operations as a graph. This approach utilizes an adaptive bucketing mechanism to aggregate independent submissions of individual operations into a single, cohesive submission, thereby enhancing computational efficiency.

**Model Quantization** We utilize a post-training quantization technique on the DNN-based relevance metric to decrease the computing costs with little accuracy loss. Specifically, we reduce the size of the entire MLP connection layers by quantizing the weights from 32-bit floating point numbers to 16-bit. After reductions, the metric only requires half of the size for computing and memorization and supports faster operators tailored for lower precise calculation. In large-scale recommendations, this method can reduce retrieval latency and significantly conserve computational resources on participating processing units for higher throughput.

**Timely Stream Update** The user and item information is time-varying. To deliver accurate recommendations over time, it is crucial for the system to maintain up-to-date user and item representations and model parameters to reflect the evolving knowledge. However, increasing the freshness of this information necessitates more frequent updates, which can lead to higher training costs. To balance freshness and training costs, we first design a stepwise entry scheme to select active users and items via a dynamic threshold for timely updates. Besides, we use a click trigger that activates updates of the item base to incorporate items that occurred initially. Fresh data is then cumulatively integrated with the original item base in a batched manner to ensure both responsiveness and efficiency in handling data updates.

## 5.5 Experiments

### 5.5.1 Experimental Setup

We present datasets, baselines, and metrics in our offline and online experiments. Besides, implementation details are provided in Appendix C.1.1.

**Datasets.** We collect real-world video resources from Baidu applications and construct four datasets according to their potential of user satisfaction, including (1) Video: popular landscape videos, (2) MVideo: popular portrait videos, (3) Explore: videos that are potentially favorable but not popular, and (4) Fresh: videos that are uncommon and infrequently discovered.

**Baselines.** We adopt four retrieval baselines in offline experiments, including (1) C-NSW: a basic retrieval framework with cosine function as the relevance metric based on NSW [83]; (2) D-NSW: a DNN-based retrieval framework based on NSW, supervised by single user-item interaction; (3) SL2G [32]: a DNN-based retrieval framework based on HNSW [23]; and (4) NANN [25]: an industrial retrieval framework improved on SL2G with adversarial training and more efficient ANNS.

**Metrics.** For offline experiments, we involve three metrics in our evaluations on retrieval performance, including Coverage (Cov), Recall@10 (Rec@10), and Recall@100 (Rec@100). We take the brute-force-sorted items as the ground truths of retrieval. Cov describes the percentage of retrieved items that rank in the top 100 items of the ground truths. Rec@10 and Rec@100 measure the percentage of the top 10 and 100 items of the ground truths in the top 10 and 100 retrieved items, respectively. Moreover, we evaluate the speed by the number of items retrieved per second. For online testing,

Table 5.2: Retrieval speed (items per second).

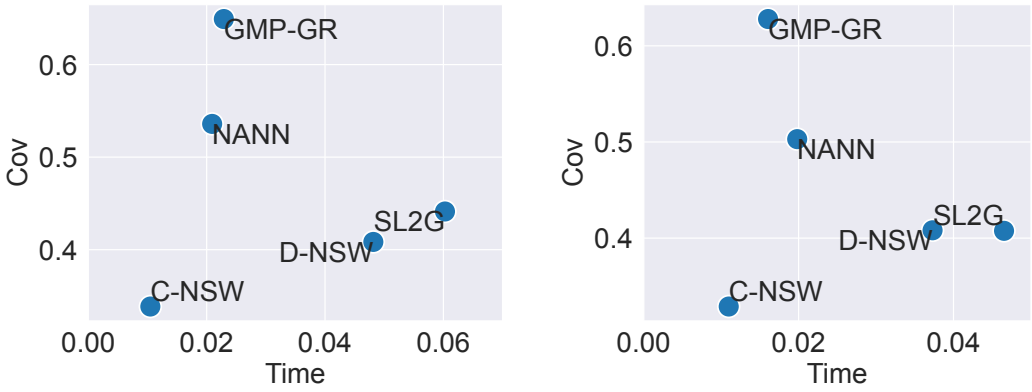
| | Video | MVideo | Explore | Fresh |
|---|---|---|---|---|
| C-NSW | 520,390 | 405,096 | 521,639 | 345,577 |
| D-NSW | 163,093 | 163,821 | 199,163 | 170,889 |
| NANN | 281,758 | 226,280 | 248,118 | 150,022 |
| SL2G | 134,947 | 145,312 | 162,033 | 176,316 |
| GMP-GR | 321,352 | 299,242 | 384,458 | 229,902 |

we collect query traffic, latency, and throughput of servers for different services across timestamps.

### 5.5.2 Offline Evaluation

We evaluate the retrieval performance and efficiency of GMP-GR and baseline frameworks on four datasets in an offline environment.

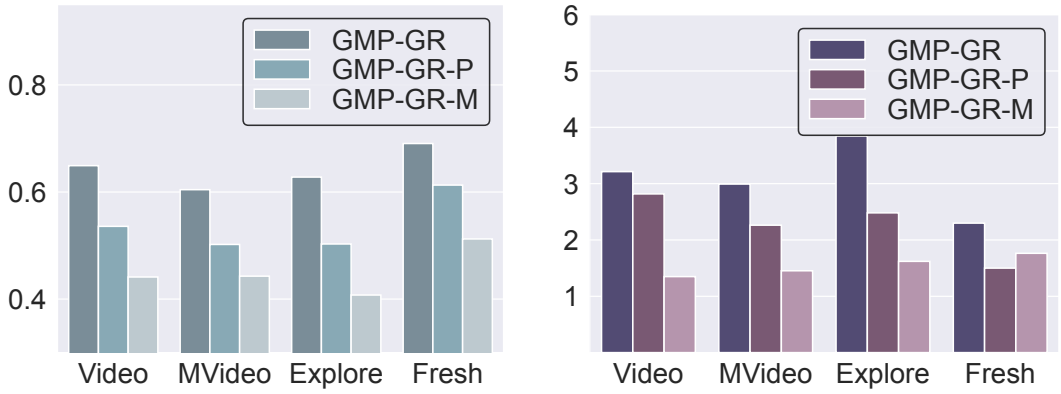
**Retrieval Performance.** Overall, GMP-GR consistently outperformed the baseline methods across all settings. For instance, GMP-GR demonstrated improvements of at least 20.94%, 22.66%, and 21.36% in terms of Cov, Rec@10, and Rec@100, respectively, on the Video dataset. Notably, significant improvements are also evident on other datasets. Specifically, compared to SL2G and NANN, two typical industrial retrieval frameworks consistently based on HNSW, GMP-GR produces more accurate retrieved results. GMP-GR achieved performance improvements of 20.37%, 24.86%, and 12.66% over SL2G and NANN on Cov on MVideo, Explore, and Fresh, respectively. The potential reasons are that (1) GMP-GR overcomes the shortage of SL2G that the neural metric may harm graph search efficiency due to the unsatisfaction of triangle inequality, and (2) GMP-GR incorporates valuable insights from dimensional interactive information in metric learning and leverages a broader search space for higher possibility of effective retrieval.




(a) Video (b) Explore

Figure 5.3: Analysis of correlations between retrieval performance and efficiency on Video and Explore datasets. Methods close to the left top (↖) have better retrieval performance, *i.e.* Cov (↑), with less time costs (←).

**Efficiency Analysis.** This part analyzes the efficiency by testing their inference time and search speed. We first analyze the correlation between retrieval performance and time by scattering five methods in Figure 5.3. More results on MVideo and Fresh datasets are in Appendix C.1.2. Intuitively, a method is considered more efficient if it achieves higher performance (here we use Cov to evaluate) with lower time consumption. Results reveal that GMP-GR outperforms the four baseline methods in terms of efficiency, as evidenced by its proximity to the upper left quadrant in the scatter plots. Notably, C-NSW stands out for its minimal retrieval time, attributed to its reliance on the cosine similarity metric which is computationally lightweight than DNNs. However, C-NSW underperforms in retrieval accuracy due to the limitation that the simple metric is unable to capture complex user-item relationships. Then, we compare the retrieval speed in Table 5.2, which reflects the number of nodes that methods traverse on HNSW per second. GMP-GR also exhibits the capability to search through more nodes (*i.e.* larger search space) than any DNN-based approach. In summary, GMP-GR successfully defeats all baseline methods, striking an optimal balance between retrieval efficiency and accuracy.




(a) Cov

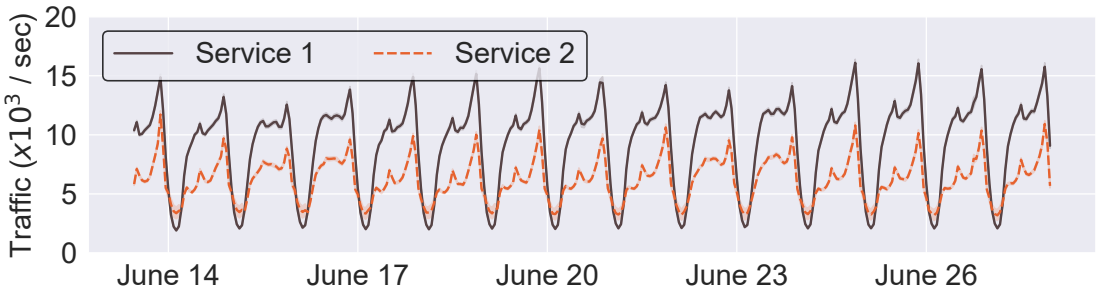
(b) Speed ($10^6$ items / sec)

Figure 5.4: Ablation study of GMP-GR on retrieval performance (Cov) and speed.

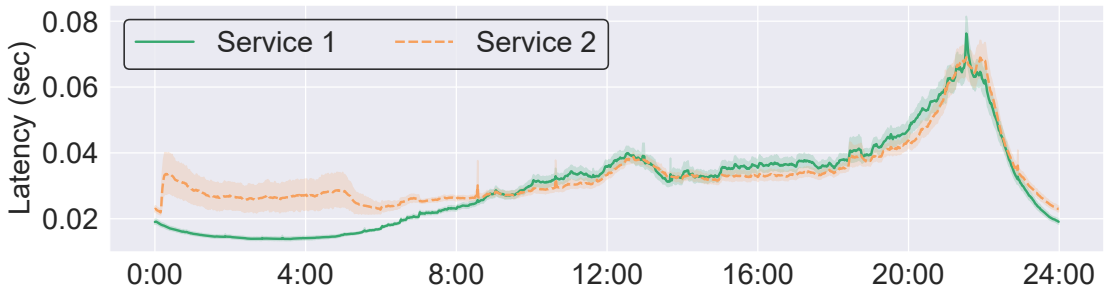
**Ablation Study.** We conduct an ablation study on GMP-GR in Figure 5.4, by comparing it with two variants, *i.e.* GMP-GR-P and GMP-GR-M. Evaluations on Rec@10 and Rec@100 are provided in Appendix C.1.3. GMP-GR-P replaces MUIRML with a single supervision of the behavior in which a user visits an item, and GMP-GR-M substitutes HiPANNS with a standard HNSW search algorithm. Specifically, we find that GMP-GR consistently outperforms both GMP-GR-P and GMP-GR-M across different datasets. This superiority can be attributed to two key factors. First, MUIRML significantly enhances the relevance estimation accuracy and pathfinding efficiency. Second, HiPANNS prevents the graph-based ANNS process from succumbing to local optima by distributed and co-optimized search. In addition, GMP-GR also shows a notable advantage in retrieval speed that replacing HiPANNS with a standard HNSW search algorithm can result in a great degradation of retrieval speed. This observation underscores the pivotal role of HiPANNS in acceleration. Furthermore, a more effective user-item relevance metric not only enhances the accuracy but also reduces traversal steps to converge to optimal candidates.

Table 5.3: Online user statistics for two services.

| | Time on Page | | Daily Active Users | |
|---|---|---|---|---|
| | *Service 1* | *Service 2* | *Service 1* | *Service 2* |
| GMP-GR | +1.13% | 1.19% | +0.23% | +0.50% |




(a) Traffic of two weeks in June, 2024.




(b) Latency in one day.

Figure 5.5: Temporal statistics of traffic and latency.

### 5.5.3 Online Testing

We deploy GMP-GR in the Baidu Mobile APP for two services supported by five servers for online testing. Service 1 is for the main recommendation list on the initial page. Service 2 is for the next recommendation sequence that can be accessed after clicking on a video in immersive mode.

### Time on Page and Daily Active Users

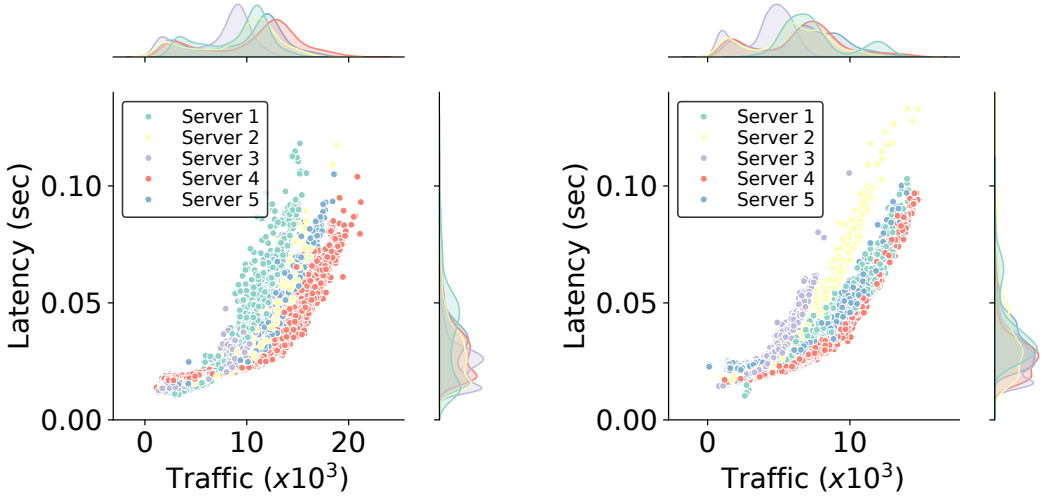
Table 5.3 depicts the impact of deploying GMP-GR on time on page and daily active users. Our results indicate a significant improvement in time on page and daily active users across the two services. The integral components of GMP-GR, MUIRML, and HiPANNS, contribute to a $0.57\%$ and $0.23\%$ improvement in time on page, respectively. Our findings suggest that the deployment of GMP-GR with improved modules has positively impacted user engagement and satisfaction.

### Query Throughput

We also examine the query throughput influenced by the system acceleration strategies. The results demonstrate a strong improvement in query throughput, with an approximate doubling of throughput in the two services. Specifically, our analysis shows that the compilation optimization has led to a $74\%$ and $75\%$ increase in throughput by simplifying the computational graphs. Similarly, the model quantization has resulted in a $26\%$ and $25\%$ increase in throughput by decreasing DNN-based calculations. These findings underscore the effectiveness of GMP-GR in optimizing query processing and system efficiency.

### Statistical Analysis of Traffic and Latency

We collect traffic and latency statistics per second, which are distributedly recorded at five servers in two services. First, we examine the temporal patterns as shown in Figure 5.5. Specifically, Figure 5.5a illustrates the traffic trends over a two-week period, highlighting periodic fluctuations in query volumes. Meanwhile, Figure 5.5b provides a more granular view of latency statistics over a 24-hour cycle, revealing variations in online response times in one day. Moreover, we investigate the distributions of traffic and latency and explore their




(a) Service 1

(b) Service 2

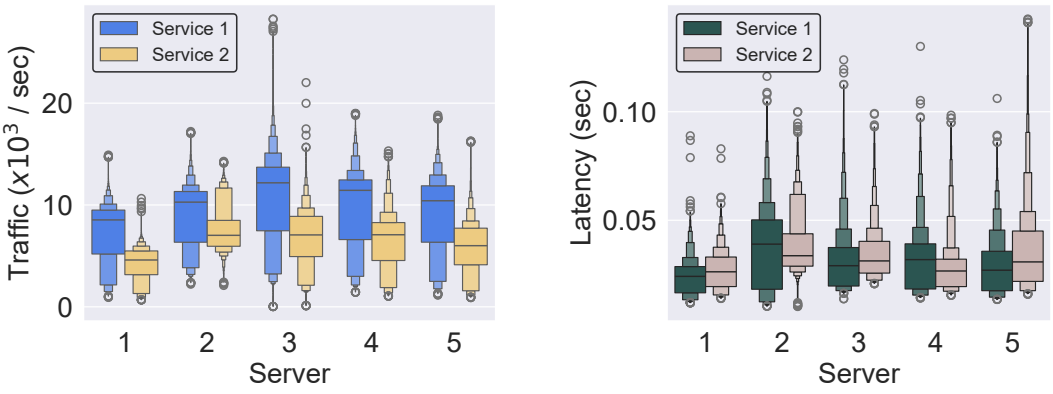
Figure 5.6: Analysis of distributions of traffic and latency.

correlations in Figure 5.6. The result indicates a direct relationship between query traffic and latency, with higher traffic volumes leading to longer response times. Furthermore, we observe distinct patterns in the latency-traffic relationships across five servers, reflecting divergence in computational resources and workload distribution. Finally, we summarize the traffic and latency statistics across five servers in Figure 5.7, providing insights into the performance characteristics in terms of query processing and response times.

## 5.6 Related Works

This section reviews related works, including DNN-based recommender systems and approximate nearest neighbor search.

**Deep Neural Network-based Recommender Systems** Deep Neural Network (DNN) has become a popular tool for recommendation systems due to its ability to capture intricate user-item interaction patterns through nonlinear transformations [78]. For example, [84] leverages convolutional and recurrent neural networks for recommendations to learn text




(a) Traffic

(b) Latency

Figure 5.7: Traffic and latency distributions.

features from tweets. Recently, neural collaborative filtering has been increasingly adopted, where a Multi-layer Perceptron (MLP) is deployed to approximate the interaction function and has significant performance gains over traditional methods [85]. Along with the idea, two-tower architectures have become popular in DNN-based recommender systems [29]. They train dual encoders for users and items, respectively, which generate user and item representations for downstream operations such as relevance evaluation. With two sets of high-dimensional embeddings, the DNN-based system can provide recommendations in user-based or item-based paradigms [86]. User-based collaborative filtering compares similarities between users based on their past ratings and recommends items liked by similar users [87]. In contrast, item-based collaborative filtering computes similarities between items rather than between users [88]. We design a DNN-based metric optimized in a multi-objective way to incorporate comprehensive behaviors and triangle inequality for better recommendation accuracy and efficiency.

**Approximate Nearest Neighbor Search** Approximate Nearest Neighbor Search (ANNS) is a fundamental problem in computer science, particularly within domains that handle high-dimensional data such as computer vision [89] and multimedia [90]. ANNS aims to

find points in a dataset that are close to a query point, where searching the exact nearest neighbor is computationally prohibitive [91]. One of the early approaches, KD-tree [21], performs well in low-dimensional spaces. But their efficiency decreases significantly as dimensionality increases, called ”curse of dimensionality”. To address the limitation, more sophisticated tree-based structures like Randomized KD-trees [92] attempt to partition the data space more effectively and offer improved performance in higher-dimensional spaces. As research progressed, hashing-based methods emerged as a powerful alternative for ANNS, with Locality-Sensitive Hashing (LSH) being a prominent technique to hash input items by mapping similar items to the same ”buckets” with high probability [22]. More recently, graph-based methods have gained popularity for their effectiveness in handling high-dimensional ANNS [24]. The idea is to construct a graph where nodes represent the dataset points, and edges connect points close to each other. Navigating this graph allows for efficient ANN searches. Notably, the Navigable Small World (NSW) [83] and its improved variant, Hierarchical Navigable Small World (HNSW) [23], have shown remarkable performance, significantly outperforming previous methods on large-scale datasets. Besides, instead of Delaunay graphs, other graph-based approaches choose K-nearest neighbor graph [40] and relative neighborhood graph [41] for index construction. In industrial applications, SL2G [32] first leverages DNN as the relevance metric for graph-based ANNS in real-world recommendations. NANN [25] extends SL2G by improving the DNN-based metric for better accuracy and adaptivity and working ANNS with controllable costs for industrial requirements. In this work, we propose a parallel retrieval algorithm for web-scale recommendations with wider search space and better concurrent computational efficiency.

## 5.7 Conclusion

This work investigates the retrieval stage optimization for the web-scale recommendation. We propose a GMP-GR framework to enhance the retrieval accuracy and efficiency. First, we devise multi-relational user-item relevance metric learning to improve user-item multi-relational understanding and graph search efficiency in a multi-objective way. Second, we design a tailored parallel graph-based ANNS algorithm to distributedly broaden search space and parallelize irregular neural computations on GPUs. Besides, we employ system optimization strategies to improve online recommendation performance. We conduct extensive experiments on offline datasets and online services to demonstrate the outperformance of GMP-GR. We have implemented GMP-GR in the recommender systems at Baidu, where it serves hundreds of millions of users and processes more than one hundred billion online requests per day.

# CHAPTER 6

# CONCLUSIONS AND FUTURE WORKS

## 6.1 Conclusions

This thesis investigated how video retrieval can be made generalizable, observation-aware, and scalable—three conditions that together determine whether learned retrieval signals remain effective in realistic systems. Organized around the semantic, observational, and search dimensions introduced in Chapter 1, the research progressed from establishing what capabilities a retrieval model should possess, to understanding how visual observation affects those capabilities, and finally to ensuring that retrieval remains efficient and deployable at industrial scale. The key findings and contributions of each part are summarized below.

### 6.1.1 Summary of Contributions

**Chapter 3: Universal Video Retrieval through Capability-Oriented Learning.** Existing video retrieval research often evaluates on a narrow set of benchmarks, leaving critical capability gaps unexamined. This work proposed the General Video Embedder (GVE) framework, which (1) identified deficiencies in fine-grained, temporal, and partially relevant retrieval through a structured assessment across 16 public datasets; (2) introduced V-SynFlow, a synthesis pipeline that produced the Universal Video Retrieval Dataset (UVRD) with over 1.55 million multi-task video-text pairs targeting those gaps; and (3) developed a Modality Pyramid curriculum that leverages inherent task hierarchies for progressive learning. The resulting GVE model achieved state-of-the-art zero-shot performance across diverse retrieval scenarios, demonstrating that conventional benchmarks poorly correlate with

holistic retrieval capability and that partially relevant retrieval is a pivotal yet overlooked real-world challenge.

**Chapter 4: Spatiotemporal Scaling Analysis and Efficient Inference.** The way videos are observed during embedding generation fundamentally affects retrieval quality, yet this dimension has received limited attention. This work introduced the Multi-Granular Long Video Retrieval (MG-LVR) benchmark, the first benchmark supporting multi-granular queries for long-form video retrieval. Evaluation across 23 multimodal embedding models revealed a significant granularity gap—fine-grained retrieval lags coarse-grained performance by over 75% under sparse sampling. The comprehensive spatiotemporal scaling analysis identified actionable principles including frame-count anchoring and granularity-dependent token allocation. Building on these insights, the Video Embedding Waterfall (VEterfall) framework was proposed, achieving up to 20% improvement in fine-grained query performance while operating in $4\times$ to $16\times$ more efficient inference settings.

**Chapter 5: Scale-Efficient Retrieval via Co-Designed Metrics, Graph Search, and GPU Execution.** A learned retrieval signal must not only be accurate but also searchable and deployable at scale. This work proposed the GPU-accelerated Multi-relational Parallel Graph Retrieval (GMP-GR) framework with three key innovations: (1) Multi-relational User-Item Relevance Metric Learning (MUIRML) that unifies diverse user behaviors through multi-objective optimization and employs a self-covariant loss to enhance graph pathfinding; (2) Hierarchically Parallel Approximate Nearest Neighbor Search (HiPANNS) that conducts breadth-depth-balanced graph traversal with adaptive GPU aggregation for irregular neural computation; and (3) system-level optimizations including traffic dispersal, compilation optimization, model quantization, and timely stream update. Deployed across more than twenty applications at Baidu, GMP-GR serves hundreds of millions of users with throughput exceeding one hundred million requests per second, improving more than 3%

time of page for users.

### 6.1.2 Unified Methodology and Insights

Together, these studies provide a layered methodology for video retrieval that extends beyond isolated technical contributions. A retrieval system first needs representations that generalize across semantic conditions, as demonstrated by the capability-oriented evaluation and heterogeneous multi-task training in the first study. It then needs embedding generation strategies that remain reliable under changing observation density, as shown by the spatiotemporal scaling analysis and dense-to-sparse adaptation in the second study. Finally, it needs candidate search mechanisms that preserve retrieval quality while meeting system constraints, as achieved by the co-designed relevance metrics, graph traversal algorithms, and GPU execution in the third study.

This progression makes the thesis more than a collection of application-specific studies: it identifies a coherent path from semantic representation learning to density-aware inference and deployment-scale retrieval. The three parts are interconnected through shared concerns about generalization, efficiency, and scalability. The first part establishes what capabilities a retrieval model should possess; the second part examines how visual observation affects the realization of these capabilities; and the third part demonstrates how retrieval signals can be made searchable at industrial scale. This unified view provides practical guidance for building video retrieval systems that support richer semantic tasks, adapt to different sampling budgets, and operate over large candidate spaces while maintaining effectiveness across heterogeneous queries, videos, and deployment conditions.

## 6.2 Future Works

The three studies in this thesis address distinct dimensions of video retrieval, yet each opens avenues that extend beyond the scope of the present work. This section outlines four directions for future research, organized from immediate extensions of the current findings to longer-term visions for the field.

### 6.2.1 Query- and Content-Adaptive Observation

The results in this thesis suggest that different queries do not require the same visual evidence. Coarse topical queries, fine-grained event queries, visual queries, and composed queries may prefer different allocations of temporal coverage and spatial detail. A natural next step is to make the observation policy adaptive to both the query and the video content, so that the system can spend computation where evidence is most likely to matter.

One promising direction is to develop lightweight query classifiers that predict the optimal sampling configuration before video encoding. Such classifiers could analyze query text to estimate temporal granularity, spatial specificity, and relevance distribution patterns, then select appropriate frame counts and resolutions accordingly. Another direction is content-aware sampling, where the system analyzes video content to identify information-dense segments that warrant higher sampling density. This could involve preliminary passes with cheap feature extractors to detect scene changes, action boundaries, or semantically rich regions, followed by targeted dense sampling in those regions.

More ambitiously, end-to-end differentiable sampling policies could be trained jointly with the retrieval model, allowing the system to learn task-specific observation strategies through reinforcement learning or attention mechanisms. Such approaches could enable dynamic allocation of computational resources within a single video, concentrating frames on moments most relevant to the query while maintaining sufficient coverage to avoid missing

distributed evidence.

### 6.2.2 Retrieval-Oriented Video Foundation Models

Current multimodal models are often trained for broad vision-language instruction following or contrastive alignment. Future video foundation models could be trained more explicitly around retrieval requirements, including partial relevance, temporal evidence preservation, multimodal query support, robustness under sparse observation, and compatibility with efficient search.

The findings from Chapter 4 suggest that current video models exhibit frame-count anchoring, where temporal representations become overly specialized to specific training densities. Future training objectives could explicitly encourage density-invariant representations, perhaps through multi-density contrastive learning where the same video must retrieve the same query across different sampling configurations. Similarly, the capability gaps identified in Chapter 3 suggest that training data should more systematically cover fine-grained temporal reasoning, spatial relation understanding, and composed query scenarios.

Another important direction is developing video foundation models that natively support partial relevance, where a video is relevant to a query even if only a portion of its content matches. This requires moving beyond global video-level representations toward segment-aware or moment-aware embeddings that can capture localized relevance. Such models might employ hierarchical encoding schemes that maintain both coarse global summaries and fine-grained local representations, enabling retrieval at multiple granularity levels simultaneously.

Furthermore, future video foundation models should be designed with deployment constraints in mind. This includes compatibility with approximate search structures, efficient

update mechanisms for dynamic corpora, and representations that remain discriminative even under aggressive compression or quantization for large-scale storage.

### 6.2.3 Joint Optimization of Embeddings and Indexes

Large-scale retrieval depends on both representation quality and index searchability. Future work can further close the loop between embedding learning and index behavior, optimizing models not only for pairwise similarity or ranking accuracy, but also for graph navigability, update efficiency, memory footprint, batching behavior, and hardware execution.

The work in Chapter 5 demonstrated that metric properties like approximate triangle inequality significantly impact graph traversal efficiency. Future research could explore learned metrics that are explicitly optimized for specific index structures, such as hierarchical navigable small world graphs or product quantization schemes. This could involve differentiable approximations of graph traversal that allow gradient-based optimization of embedding spaces for both retrieval accuracy and search efficiency.

Another promising direction is co-designing embeddings and indexes for dynamic scenarios where the candidate corpus evolves over time. This requires representations that support efficient incremental indexing without full rebuilds, as well as metrics that remain stable as the corpus distribution shifts. Online learning approaches that continuously update both embeddings and index structures could enable more responsive retrieval systems for applications like news recommendation or trending content discovery.

Hardware-aware embedding learning represents another frontier. Different hardware platforms (CPUs, GPUs, TPUs, specialized accelerators) have distinct computational characteristics that affect retrieval performance. Future work could develop embedding models that are co-optimized with specific hardware constraints, such as memory bandwidth, parallelism patterns, or instruction set capabilities. This could lead to significant efficiency gains

in large-scale deployment scenarios.

### 6.2.4 Evaluation Protocols for Real-World Video Retrieval

Existing benchmarks remain useful, but real retrieval systems involve changing corpora, mixed query modalities, variable video duration, latency budgets, freshness constraints, and downstream ranking interactions. Building evaluation protocols that reflect these conditions will be essential for measuring progress beyond static benchmark recall.

The benchmarks developed in this thesis, including UVRD and MG-LVR, provide foundations for more comprehensive evaluation, but significant gaps remain. Future evaluation frameworks should incorporate temporal dynamics, where videos are added, removed, or modified over time, testing the system's ability to maintain retrieval quality in evolving corpora. They should also include diverse query modalities within the same evaluation, requiring systems to handle text, image, video, and composed queries seamlessly.

Latency and throughput constraints should be explicitly incorporated into evaluation metrics, moving beyond pure recall measurements to efficiency-adjusted metrics that reward systems achieving high accuracy within computational budgets. This is particularly important for real-time applications where response time directly impacts user experience.

Downstream task evaluation represents another important direction. Rather than evaluating retrieval in isolation, future protocols should measure how retrieval quality affects downstream tasks like recommendation, content discovery, or user engagement. This requires end-to-end evaluation frameworks that integrate retrieval with ranking, filtering, and presentation components.

Finally, evaluation should consider fairness, diversity, and serendipity aspects of retrieval, ensuring that systems do not merely optimize for narrow relevance metrics but also support broader information access goals. This includes evaluating retrieval across different

user populations, content categories, and temporal contexts to ensure robust and equitable performance.

# CHAPTER 7

# LIST OF INVOLVED PUBLICATIONS

This thesis is based on the following three first-authored publications. Each publication corresponds to one of the three main research chapters of this dissertation, addressing the semantic, observational, and search dimensions of video retrieval, respectively.

1. **Chapter 3** — Zhuoning Guo, Mingxin Li, Yanzhao Zhang, Dingkun Long, Pengjun Xie, and Xiaowen Chu. "Towards Universal Video Retrieval: Generalizing Video Embedding via Synthesized Multimodal Pyramid Curriculum." Submitted to *Proceedings of the 34th ACM International Conference on Multimedia (MM '26)*. ACM, 2026.

2. **Chapter 4** — Zhuoning Guo, Tingyu Song, Mingxin Li, Yanzhao Zhang, Dingkun Long, Pengjun Xie, Xiaowen Chu. "Demystifying Spatiotemporal Scaling Laws of Multimodal Video Embeddings." Submitted to *Proceedings of the European Conference on Computer Vision (ECCV 2026)*. Springer, 2026.

3. **Chapter 5** — Zhuoning Guo, Guangxing Chen, Qian Gao, Xiaochao Liao, Jianjia Zheng, Lu Shen, and Hao Liu. "GPU-accelerated Multi-relational Parallel Graph Retrieval for Web-scale Recommendations." In *Proceedings of the ACM Web Conference 2026 (WWW '26)*. ACM, 2026.

# BIBLIOGRAPHY


[1] C. Zhu, Q. Jia, W. Chen, Y. Guo, and Y. Liu, "Deep learning for video-text retrieval: a review," *International Journal of Multimedia Information Retrieval*, vol. 12, no. 1, p. 3, 2023.

[2] J. Xu, T. Mei, T. Yao, and Y. Rui, "MSR-VTT: A large video description dataset for bridging video and language," in *Proceedings of the IEEE/CVF Conference on Computer Vision and Pattern Recognition*, 2016, pp. 5288–5296.

[3] L. Anne Hendricks, O. Wang, E. Shechtman, J. Sivic, T. Darrell, and B. Russell, "Localizing moments in video with natural language," in *Proceedings of the IEEE/CVF International Conference on Computer Vision*, 2017, pp. 5803–5812.

[4] L. Ventura, A. Yang, C. Schmid, and G. Varol, "CoVR-2: Automatic data construction for composed video retrieval," *IEEE Transactions on Pattern Analysis and Machine Intelligence*, 2024.

[5] T. Hummel, S. Karthik, M.-I. Georgescu, and Z. Akata, "EgoCVR: An egocentric benchmark for fine-grained composed video retrieval," in *Proceedings of the European Conference on Computer Vision*. Springer, 2024, pp. 1–17.

[6] L. Liu, J. Li, L. Niu, R. Xu, and L. Zhang, "Activity image-to-video retrieval by disentangling appearance and motion," in *Proceedings of the AAAI Conference on Artificial Intelligence*, vol. 35, 2021, pp. 2145–2153.

[7] Y. Xu, X. Li, Y. Yang, D. Meng, R. Huang, and L. Wang, "Carebench: A fine-grained benchmark for video captioning and retrieval," in *The Fourteenth International Conference on Learning Representations*, 2026.

[8] Z. Lin, S. Cen, D. Jiang, J. Karhade, H. Wang, C. Mitra, T. Ling, Y. Huang, S. Liu, M. Chen *et al.*, "Towards understanding camera motions in any video," *arXiv preprint*, 2025.

[9] J. Dong, X. Chen, M. Zhang, X. Yang, S. Chen, X. Li, and X. Wang, "Partially relevant video retrieval," in *Proceedings of the 30th ACM International Conference on Multimedia*, 2022, pp. 246–257.

[10] J. Lei, L. Yu, T. L. Berg, and M. Bansal, "Tvr: A large-scale dataset for video-subtitle moment retrieval," in *Proceedings of the European Conference on Computer Vision*. Springer, 2020, pp. 447–463.

[11] R. Krishna, K. Hata, F. Ren, L. Fei-Fei, and J. Carlos Niebles, "Dense-captioning events in videos," in *Proceedings of the IEEE/CVF International Conference on Computer Vision*, 2017, pp. 706–715.

[12] Q. Cai, H. Liang, H. Dong, M. Qiang, R. An, Z. Han, Z. Zhu, B. Cui, and W. Zhang, "LoVR: A benchmark for long video retrieval in multimodal contexts," *arXiv preprint*, 2025.

[13] A. Radford, J. W. Kim, C. Hallacy, A. Ramesh, G. Goh, S. Agarwal, G. Sastry, A. Askell, P. Mishkin, J. Clark *et al.*, "Learning transferable visual models from natural language supervision," in *Proceedings of the International Conference on Machine Learning*. PMLR, 2021, pp. 8748–8763.

[14] F. Kong, J. Zhang, Y. Liu, H. Zhang, S. Feng, X. Yang, D. Wang, Y. Tian, F. Zhang, G. Zhou *et al.*, "Modality curation: Building universal embeddings for advanced multimodal information retrieval," *arXiv preprint*, 2025.

[15] R. Meng, Z. Jiang, Y. Liu, M. Su, X. Yang, Y. Fu, C. Qin, Z. Chen, R. Xu, C. Xiong

*et al.*, "VLM2Vec-v2: Advancing multimodal embedding for videos, images, and visual documents," *arXiv preprint*, 2025.

[16] Z. Lan, L. Niu, F. Meng, J. Zhou, and J. Su, "LLaVE: Large language and vision embedding models with hardness-weighted contrastive learning," in *Findings of the Association for Computational Linguistics: EMNLP 2025*, 2025.

[17] M. Li, Y. Zhang, D. Long, K. Chen, S. Song, S. Bai, Z. Yang, P. Xie, A. Yang, D. Liu, J. Zhou, and J. Lin, "Qwen3-vl-embedding and qwen3-vl-reranker: A unified framework for state-of-the-art multimodal retrieval and ranking," *arXiv preprint arXiv:2601.04720*, 2026.

[18] Z. Hu, N. Ye, and I. Mohomed, "mmsampler: Efficient frame sampler for multimodal video retrieval," *Proceedings of Machine Learning and Systems*, vol. 4, pp. 153–171, 2022.

[19] Z. Guo, M. Li, Y. Zhang, D. Long, P. Xie, and X. Chu, "Towards universal video retrieval: Generalizing video embedding via synthesized multimodal pyramid curriculum," 2025. [Online]. Available: https://arxiv.org/abs/2510.27571

[20] M. Ovsjanikov, V. Patraucean, L. Guibas, T. Zhu, and T. Han, "Dynamic reflections: Probing video representations with text alignment," in *The Fourteenth International Conference on Learning Representations*, 2026.

[21] J. H. Friedman, J. L. Bentley, and R. A. Finkel, "An algorithm for finding best matches in logarithmic expected time," *ACM Transactions on Mathematical Software (TOMS)*, vol. 3, no. 3, pp. 209–226, 1977.

[22] P. Indyk and R. Motwani, "Approximate nearest neighbors: towards removing the curse of dimensionality," in *Proceedings of the thirtieth annual ACM symposium on Theory of computing*, 1998, pp. 604–613.

[23] Y. A. Malkov and D. A. Yashunin, "Efficient and robust approximate nearest neighbor search using hierarchical navigable small world graphs," *IEEE transactions on pattern analysis and machine intelligence*, vol. 42, no. 4, pp. 824–836, 2018.

[24] M. Wang, X. Xu, Q. Yue, and Y. Wang, "A comprehensive survey and experimental comparison of graph-based approximate nearest neighbor search," *Proceedings of the VLDB Endowment*, vol. 14, no. 11, pp. 1964–1978, 2021.

[25] R. Chen, B. Liu, H. Zhu, Y. Wang, Q. Li, B. Ma, Q. Hua, J. Jiang, Y. Xu, H. Deng *et al.*, "Approximate nearest neighbor search under neural similarity metric for large-scale recommendation," in *Proceedings of the 31st ACM International Conference on Information & Knowledge Management*, 2022, pp. 3013–3022.

[26] H.-T. Cheng, L. Koc, J. Harmsen, T. Shaked, T. Chandra, H. Aradhye, G. Anderson, G. Corrado, W. Chai, M. Ispir *et al.*, "Wide & deep learning for recommender systems," in *Proceedings of the 1st workshop on deep learning for recommender systems*, 2016, pp. 7–10.

[27] P. Covington, J. Adams, and E. Sargin, "Deep neural networks for youtube recommendations," in *Proceedings of the 10th ACM conference on recommender systems*, 2016, pp. 191–198.

[28] H. Liu, Q. Gao, J. Li, X. Liao, H. Xiong, G. Chen, W. Wang, G. Yang, Z. Zha, D. Dong *et al.*, "Jizhi: A fast and cost-effective model-as-a-service system for web-scale online inference at baidu," in *Proceedings of the ACM SIGKDD International Conference on Knowledge Discovery and Data Mining*, 2021, pp. 3289–3298.

[29] J. Yang, X. Yi, D. Zhiyuan Cheng, L. Hong, Y. Li, S. Xiaoming Wang, T. Xu, and E. H. Chi, "Mixed negative sampling for learning two-tower neural networks in recommendations," in *Proceedings of the Web Conference*, 2020, pp. 441–447.

[30] M. Dehghani, H. Zamani, A. Severyn, J. Kamps, and W. B. Croft, "Neural ranking models with weak supervision," in *Proceedings of the International ACM SIGIR Conference on Research and Development in Information Retrieval*, 2017, pp. 65–74.

[31] Y. Tay, L. Anh Tuan, and S. C. Hui, "Latent relational metric learning via memory-based attention for collaborative ranking," in *Proceedings of the Web Conference*, 2018, pp. 729–739.

[32] S. Tan, Z. Zhou, Z. Xu, and P. Li, "Fast item ranking under neural network based measures," in *Proceedings of the 13th International Conference on Web Search and Data Mining*, 2020, pp. 591–599.

[33] C. Eksombatchai, P. Jindal, J. Z. Liu, Y. Liu, R. Sharma, C. Sugnet, M. Ulrich, and J. Leskovec, "Pixie: A system for recommending 3+ billion items to 200+ million users in real-time," in *Proceedings of the Web Conference*, 2018, pp. 1775–1784.

[34] F. Borisyuk, K. Kenthapadi, D. Stein, and B. Zhao, "CaSMoS: A framework for learning candidate selection models over structured queries and documents," in *Proceedings of the ACM SIGKDD International Conference on Knowledge Discovery and Data Mining*, 2016, pp. 441–450.

[35] Z. Xue, J. Zhang, T. Hu *et al.*, "Ultravideo: High-quality uhd video dataset with comprehensive captions," in *Advances in Neural Information Processing Systems*, 2025.

[36] H. Luo, L. Ji, M. Zhong, Y. Chen, W. Lei, N. Duan, and T. Li, "CLIP4Clip: An empirical study of clip for end to end video clip retrieval and captioning," *Neurocomputing*, vol. 508, pp. 293–304, 2022.

[37] Y. Wang, K. Li, X. Li, J. Yu, Y. He, G. Chen, B. Pei, R. Zheng, Z. Wang, Y. Shi *et al.*, "InternVideo2: Scaling foundation models for multimodal video understanding," in

*Proceedings of the European Conference on Computer Vision*. Springer, 2024, pp. 396–416.

[38] S. K. Gorti, N. Vouitsis, J. Ma, K. Golestan, M. Volkovs, A. Garg, and G. Yu, "X-pool: Cross-modal language-video attention for text-video retrieval," in *Proceedings of the IEEE/CVF Conference on Computer Vision and Pattern Recognition*, 2022, pp. 5006–5015.

[39] Z. Tong, Y. Song, J. Wang, and L. Wang, "Videomae: Masked autoencoders are data-efficient learners for self-supervised video pre-training," *Advances in Neural Information Processing Systems*, vol. 35, pp. 10 078–10 093, 2022.

[40] C. Fu and D. Cai, "EFANNA: An extremely fast approximate nearest neighbor search algorithm based on knn graph," *arXiv preprint*, 2016.

[41] S. Jayaram Subramanya, F. Devvrit, H. V. Simhadri, R. Krishnawamy, and R. Kadekodi, "DiskANN: Fast accurate billion-point nearest neighbor search on a single node," *Advances in Neural Information Processing Systems*, vol. 32, 2019.

[42] H. Ootomo, A. Naruse, C. Nolet, R. Wang, T. Feher, and Y. Wang, "CAGRA: Highly parallel graph construction and approximate nearest neighbor search for GPUs," in *2024 IEEE 40th International Conference on Data Engineering (ICDE)*. IEEE, 2024, pp. 4236–4247.

[43] H. Liu, Q. Gao, X. Liao, G. Chen, H. Xiong, S. Ren, G. Yang, and Z. Zha, "Lion: A GPU-accelerated online serving system for web-scale recommendation at baidu," in *Proceedings of the ACM SIGKDD International Conference on Knowledge Discovery and Data Mining*, 2022, pp. 3388–3397.

[44] Y. Ma, G. Xu, X. Sun, M. Yan, J. Zhang, and R. Ji, "X-CLIP: End-to-end multi-

grained contrastive learning for video-text retrieval," in *Proceedings of the 30th ACM international conference on multimedia*, 2022, pp. 638–647.

[45] M. Bain, A. Nagrani, G. Varol, and A. Zisserman, "Frozen in time: A joint video and image encoder for end-to-end retrieval," in *Proceedings of the IEEE/CVF International Conference on Computer Vision*, 2021, pp. 1728–1738.

[46] S. Chen, H. Li, Q. Wang, Z. Zhao, M. Sun, X. Zhu, and J. Liu, "Vast: A vision-audio-subtitle-text omni-modality foundation model and dataset," *Advances in Neural Information Processing Systems*, vol. 36, pp. 72 842–72 866, 2023.

[47] W. Chai, E. Song, Y. Du, C. Meng, V. Madhavan, O. Bar-Tal, J.-N. Hwang, S. Xie, and C. D. Manning, "Auroracap: Efficient, performant video detailed captioning and a new benchmark," *arXiv preprint*, 2024.

[48] X. Zhang, Y. Zhang, W. Xie, M. Li, Z. Dai, D. Long, P. Xie, M. Zhang, W. Li, and M. Zhang, "Bridging modalities: Improving universal multimodal retrieval by multimodal large language models," in *Proceedings of the IEEE/CVF Conference on Computer Vision and Pattern Recognition (CVPR)*, June 2025, pp. 9274–9285.

[49] Y. Wang, X. Li, Z. Yan, Y. He, J. Yu, X. Zeng, C. Wang, C. Ma, H. Huang, J. Gao *et al.*, "InternVideo2.5: Empowering video MLLMs with long and rich context modeling," *arXiv preprint*, 2025.

[50] Y. Li, C. Tang, J. Zhuang, Y. Yang, G. Sun, W. Li, Z. Ma, and C. Zhang, "Improving LLM video understanding with 16 frames per second," *arXiv preprint*, 2025.

[51] D. Bolya, P.-Y. Huang, P. Sun *et al.*, "Perception encoder: The best visual embeddings are not at the output of the network," in *Advances in Neural Information Processing Systems*, 2025.

[52] Y. Wang, Y. He, Y. Li *et al.*, "InternVid: A large-scale video-text dataset for multimodal understanding and generation," in *The Twelfth International Conference on Learning Representations*, 2024.

[53] K. K. Team, B. Yang, B. Wen, C. Liu, C. Chu, C. Song, C. Rao, C. Yi, D. Li, D. Zang *et al.*, "Kwai keye-VL technical report," *arXiv preprint*, 2025.

[54] S. Bai, K. Chen, X. Liu, J. Wang, W. Ge, S. Song, K. Dang, P. Wang, S. Wang, J. Tang *et al.*, "Qwen2.5-VL technical report," *arXiv preprint*, 2025.

[55] A. v. d. Oord, Y. Li, and O. Vinyals, "Representation learning with contrastive predictive coding," *arXiv preprint*, 2018.

[56] J. Wang, C. Wang, K. Huang *et al.*, "VideoCLIP-XL: Advancing long description understanding for video clip models," in *Proceedings of the 2024 Conference on Empirical Methods in Natural Language Processing*, 2024.

[57] B. Zhu, B. Lin, M. Ning, Y. Yan, J. Cui, W. HongFa, Y. Pang, W. Jiang, J. Zhang, Z. Li, C. W. Zhang, Z. Li, W. Liu, and L. Yuan, "LanguageBind: Extending video-language pretraining to n-modality by language-based semantic alignment," in *The Twelfth International Conference on Learning Representations*, 2024.

[58] J. Zhou, Z. Liu, Z. Liu *et al.*, "MegaPairs: Massive data synthesis for universal multimodal retrieval," in *Proceedings of the 63rd Annual Meeting of the Association for Computational Linguistics*, 2025.

[59] T. Gu, K. Yang, Z. Feng, X. Wang, Y. Zhang, D. Long, Y. Chen, W. Cai, and J. Deng, "Breaking the modality barrier: Universal embedding learning with multimodal LLMs," *arXiv preprint*, 2025.

[60] R. Thirukovalluru, R. Meng, Y. Liu, M. Su, P. Nie, S. Yavuz, Y. Zhou, W. Chen,

B. Dhingra *et al.*, "Breaking the batch barrier (B3) of contrastive learning via smart batch mining," *arXiv preprint*, 2025.

[61] T. Wang, F. Li, L. Zhu, J. Li, Z. Zhang, and H. T. Shen, "Cross-modal retrieval: a systematic review of methods and future directions," *Proceedings of the IEEE*, vol. 112, no. 11, pp. 1716–1754, 2024.

[62] R. Henschel, L. Khachatryan, H. Poghosyan, D. Hayrapetyan, V. Tadevosyan, Z. Wang, S. Navasardyan, and H. Shi, "Streamingt2v: Consistent, dynamic, and extendable long video generation from text," in *Proceedings of the IEEE/CVF Conference on Computer Vision and Pattern Recognition*, 2025, pp. 2568–2577.

[63] Y. Weng, M. Han, H. He, X. Chang, and B. Zhuang, "Longvlm: Efficient long video understanding via large language models," in *Proceedings of the European Conference on Computer Vision*. Springer, 2024, pp. 453–470.

[64] J. Xiao, A. Yao, Z. Liu, Y. Li, W. Ji, and T.-S. Chua, "Video as conditional graph hierarchy for multi-granular question answering," *Proceedings of the AAAI Conference on Artificial Intelligence*, vol. 36, no. 3, pp. 2804–2812, Jun. 2022. [Online]. Available: https://ojs.aaai.org/index.php/AAAI/article/view/20184

[65] Z. Chen, X. Jiang, X. Xu, Z. Cao, Y. Mo, and H. T. Shen, "Joint searching and grounding: Multi-granularity video content retrieval," in *Proceedings of the 31st ACM International Conference on Multimedia*, 2023, pp. 975–983.

[66] D. Yang, S. Huang, C. Lu, X. Han, H. Zhang, Y. Gao, Y. Hu, and H. Zhao, "Vript: A video is worth thousands of words," *Advances in Neural Information Processing Systems*, vol. 37, pp. 57 240–57 261, 2024.

[67] Y. Zhang, M. Li, D. Long, X. Zhang, H. Lin, B. Yang, P. Xie, A. Yang, D. Liu,

J. Lin, F. Huang, and J. Zhou, "Qwen3 embedding: Advancing text embedding and reranking through foundation models," *arXiv preprint*, 2025.

[68] A. Yang, A. Li, B. Yang, B. Zhang, B. Hui, B. Zheng, B. Yu, C. Gao, C. Huang, C. Lv *et al.*, "Qwen3 technical report," *arXiv preprint*, 2025.

[69] OpenSearch-AI, "Opensearch-AI/ops-MM-embedding-v1-7b," 2025. [Online]. Available: https://huggingface.co/OpenSearch-AI/Ops-MM-embedding-v1-7B

[70] T. Gu, K. Yang, K. Zhang, X. An, Z. Feng, Y. Zhang, W. Cai, J. Deng, and L. Bing, "UniME-v2: MLLM-as-a-judge for universal multimodal embedding learning," *arXiv preprint*, 2025.

[71] X. Li, C. Li, S.-Z. Chen, and X. Chen, "U-MARVEL: Unveiling key factors for universal multimodal retrieval via embedding learning with MLLMs," in *The Fourteenth International Conference on Learning Representations*, 2026.

[72] Y. Liu, Y. Zhang, J. Cai, X. Jiang, Y. Hu, J. Yao, Y. Wang, and W. Xie, "LAMRA: Large multimodal model as your advanced retrieval assistant," in *Proceedings of the IEEE/CVF Conference on Computer Vision and Pattern Recognition*, 2025, pp. 4015–4025.

[73] W. Jian, Y. Zhang, D. Liang, C. Xie, Y. He, D. Leng, and Y. Yin, "RzenEmbed: Towards comprehensive multimodal retrieval," *arXiv preprint*, 2025.

[74] G. Hinton, O. Vinyals, and J. Dean, "Distilling the knowledge in a neural network," *arXiv preprint*, 2015.

[75] L. Wu, X. He, X. Wang, K. Zhang, and M. Wang, "A survey on accuracy-oriented neural recommendation: From collaborative filtering to information-rich recommendation," *IEEE Transactions on Knowledge and Data Engineering*, vol. 35, no. 5, pp. 4425–4445, 2022.

[76] H. Zhu, X. Li, P. Zhang, G. Li, J. He, H. Li, and K. Gai, "Learning tree-based deep model for recommender systems," in *Proceedings of the ACM SIGKDD International Conference on Knowledge Discovery and Data Mining*, 2018, pp. 1079–1088.

[77] J. Ma, Z. Zhao, X. Yi, J. Yang, M. Chen, J. Tang, L. Hong, and E. H. Chi, "Off-policy learning in two-stage recommender systems," in *Proceedings of the Web Conference*, 2020, pp. 463–473.

[78] S. Zhang, L. Yao, A. Sun, and Y. Tay, "Deep learning based recommender system: A survey and new perspectives," *ACM computing surveys (CSUR)*, vol. 52, no. 1, pp. 1–38, 2019.

[79] I. El Hajj, J. Gómez-Luna, C. Li, L.-W. Chang, D. Milojicic, and W.-m. Hwu, "KLAP: Kernel launch aggregation and promotion for optimizing dynamic parallelism," in *2016 49th Annual IEEE/ACM International Symposium on Microarchitecture (MICRO)*. IEEE, 2016, pp. 1–12.

[80] U. Gupta *et al.*, "Recpipe: Co-designing models and hardware to jointly optimize recommendation quality and performance," in *Proceedings of the 54th Annual IEEE/ACM International Symposium on Microarchitecture*, 2021.

[81] W. Niu, J. Guan, Y. Wang, G. Agrawal, and B. Ren, "DNNFusion: accelerating deep neural networks execution with advanced operator fusion," in *Proceedings of the 42nd ACM SIGPLAN International Conference on Programming Language Design and Implementation*, 2021, pp. 883–898.

[82] J. Wang and S. Yalamanchili, "Characterization and analysis of dynamic parallelism in unstructured GPU applications," in *2014 IEEE International Symposium on Workload Characterization (IISWC)*. IEEE, 2014, pp. 51–60.

[83] Y. Malkov, A. Ponomarenko, A. Logvinov, and V. Krylov, "Approximate nearest neighbor algorithm based on navigable small world graphs," *Information Systems*, vol. 45, pp. 61–68, 2014.

[84] Q. Zhang, J. Wang, H. Huang, X. Huang, and Y. Gong, "Hashtag recommendation for multimodal microblog using co-attention network," in *Proceedings of the 26th International Conference on Computational Linguistics*, 2016, pp. 3420–3426.

[85] X. He, L. Liao, H. Zhang, L. Nie, X. Hu, and T.-S. Chua, "Neural collaborative filtering," in *Proceedings of the Web Conference*, 2017, pp. 173–182.

[86] H. Ko, S. Lee, Y. Park, and A. Choi, "A survey of recommendation systems: recommendation models, techniques, and application fields," *Electronics*, vol. 11, no. 1, p. 141, 2022.

[87] Z. Zhang, M. Dong, K. Ota, and Y. Kudo, "Alleviating new user cold-start in user-based collaborative filtering via bipartite network," *IEEE Transactions on Computational Social Systems*, vol. 7, no. 3, pp. 672–685, 2020.

[88] F. Xue, X. He, X. Wang, J. Xu, K. Liu, and R. Hong, "Deep item-based collaborative filtering for top-n recommendation," *ACM Transactions on Information Systems (TOIS)*, vol. 37, no. 3, pp. 1–25, 2019.

[89] N. Ben-Zrihem and L. Zelnik-Manor, "Approximate nearest neighbor fields in video," in *Proceedings of the IEEE/CVF Conference on Computer Vision and Pattern Recognition*, 2015, pp. 5233–5242.

[90] H. Ferhatosmanoglu, E. Tuncel, D. Agrawal, and A. El Abbadi, "Approximate nearest neighbor searching in multimedia databases," in *Proceedings 17th International Conference on Data Engineering*. IEEE, 2001, pp. 503–511.

[91] T. Liu, A. Moore, K. Yang, and A. Gray, "An investigation of practical approximate nearest neighbor algorithms," *Advances in Neural Information Processing Systems*, vol. 17, 2004.

[92] C. Silpa-Anan and R. Hartley, "Optimised kd-trees for fast image descriptor matching," in *Proceedings of the IEEE/CVF Conference on Computer Vision and Pattern Recognition*. IEEE, 2008, pp. 1–8.

[93] J. Wang, L. Yuan, Y. Zhang, and H. Sun, "Tarsier: Recipes for training and evaluating large video description models," *arXiv preprint*, 2024.

[94] H. Yuan, J. Ni, Y. Wang *et al.*, "Momentseeker: A comprehensive benchmark and a strong baseline for moment retrieval within long videos," in *Advances in Neural Information Processing Systems*, 2025.

[95] Y. Yu, J. Kim, and G. Kim, "A joint sequence fusion model for video question answering and retrieval," in *Proceedings of the European Conference on Computer Vision*, 2018, pp. 471–487.

[96] Y. Liu, S. Albanie, A. Nagrani, and A. Zisserman, "Use what you have: Video retrieval using representations from collaborative experts," *arXiv preprint*, 2019.

[97] N. Muennighoff, N. Tazi, L. Magne, and N. Reimers, "MTEB: Massive text embedding benchmark," in *Proceedings of the 17th Conference of the European Chapter of the Association for Computational Linguistics*, 2023.

[98] Z. Li, X. Zhang, Y. Zhang, D. Long, P. Xie, and M. Zhang, "Towards general text embeddings with multi-stage contrastive learning," *arXiv preprint*, 2023.

[99] E. J. Hu, Y. Shen, P. Wallis, Z. Allen-Zhu, Y. Li, S. Wang, L. Wang, and W. Chen, "LoRA: Low-rank adaptation of large language models," *arXiv preprint*, 2021.

[100] T. Dao, "FlashAttention-2: Faster attention with better parallelism and work partitioning," *arXiv preprint*, 2023.

[101] I. Loshchilov and F. Hutter, "Decoupled weight decay regularization," in *The Seventh International Conference on Learning Representations*, 2019.

[102] J. Carreira, E. Noland, C. Hillier, and A. Zisserman, "A short note on the Kinetics-700 human action dataset," *arXiv preprint*, 2019.

[103] K. Soomro, A. R. Zamir, and M. Shah, "UCF101: A dataset of 101 human actions classes from videos in the wild," *arXiv preprint*, 2012.

[104] H. Kuehne, H. Jhuang, E. Garrote, T. Poggio, and T. Serre, "HMDB: a large video database for human motion recognition," in *Proceedings of the IEEE/CVF International Conference on Computer Vision*. IEEE, 2011, pp. 2556–2563.

[105] R. Goyal, S. Ebrahimi Kahou, V. Michalski, J. Materzynska, S. Westphal, H. Kim, V. Haenel, I. Fruend, P. Yianilos, M. Mueller-Freitag *et al.*, "The" something something" video database for learning and evaluating visual common sense," in *Proceedings of the IEEE/CVF International Conference on Computer Vision*, 2017, pp. 5842–5850.

[106] H. Kuehne, A. Arslan, and T. Serre, "The language of actions: Recovering the syntax and semantics of goal-directed human activities," in *Proceedings of the IEEE/CVF Conference on Computer Vision and Pattern Recognition*, 2014, pp. 780–787.

# APPENDIX A

# SUPPLEMENTARY MATERIAL FOR TOWARDS UNIVERSAL VIDEO RETRIEVAL: GENERALIZING VIDEO EMBEDDING VIA SYNTHESIZED MULTIMODAL PYRAMID CURRICULUM

## A.1 Overview of Appendix

This appendix provides supplementary material supporting the main paper, organized as follows:

**Methodology Supplementary.**

- **Details of Evaluations (for Section 3.3):** (1) *UVRB Details (Appendix A.1.1):* Provides statistics, construction strategies, and evaluation details for all 16 datasets in UVRB. (2) *Evaluation Pipeline (Appendix A.1.2):* Offers a technical overview of the scalable and reproducible evaluation protocol.
- **Details of Data Synthesis and Preparation (for Section 3.4.1):** (1) *Training Data (Appendix A.1.3):* Details the composition and scale of the multi-modal training mixture. (2) *Dataset Construction Pipeline (Appendix A.1.4):* Explains the design principles of the unified dataset framework. (3) *Synthetic Data Prompts (Appendix A.1.5):* Presents the structured prompts used for generating synthetic video retrieval data.
- **Details of Model and Training (for Section 3.4.2):** (1) *Model Architecture (Appendix A.1.6):* Gives a detailed description of the GVE model architecture,

including input fusion and embedding extraction. (2) *Training Implementation (Appendix A.1.7):* Outlines the parameter-efficient fine-tuning strategy and key hyperparameters.

**Experimental Details and Results.**

- **Baseline Details (Appendix A.1.8):** Lists the specifications of all 14 evaluated baseline models.
- **Training Dynamics (Appendix A.1.9):** Visualizes training dynamics and metrics for the GVE-3B and GVE-7B models.
- **Additional Experiments**:
  (1) **Training-time Scaling (Appendix A.1.10):** Presents the impact of scaling training data on performance, complementing the analysis in the main paper.
  (2) **Test-time Scaling (Appendix A.1.11):** Analyzes the effect of scaling test-time parameters (e.g., number of frames, resolution) on model performance.
  (3) **Data Quality Validation (Appendix A.1.12):** Details the human-in-the-loop evaluation conducted to validate the quality of our synthesized UVRD dataset.
  (4) **Curriculum Analysis (Appendix A.1.13):** Provides in-depth experimental analysis to validate the design and effectiveness of the Modality Pyramid.
  (5) **Video Classification (Appendix A.1.14):** Reports zero-shot classification performance on standard video action recognition benchmarks.

### A.1.1 UVRB Details

This section provides details of UVRB as shown in Figure A.1, including statistics and construction strategies of datasets.

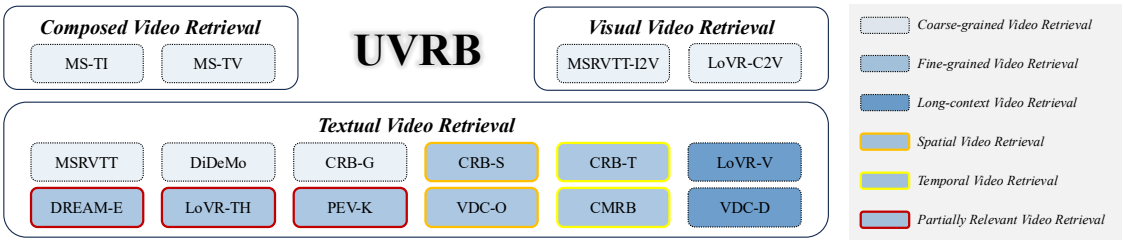



Figure A.1: The dataset category of Universal Video Retrieval Benchmark (UVRB).

First, the statistics for the number of queries and corpus, the video durations, and the text lengths are presented in Table A.1.

Second, we introduce the construction strategies of each dataset as follows.

- **MSRVTT:** We follow the data partition from JSFusion [95], utilizing 1,000 clip-text pairs from the original MSRVTT dataset [2] for evaluation.
- **DiDeMo:** Following the methodology in [96], we concatenate all sentence descriptions associated with a single video from the DiDeMo dataset [3] to create a paragraph-level query for paragraph-to-video retrieval.
- **CRB-G:** We adhere to the CaReBench protocol [7] and use the content from the `CAPTION` field as the general query to retrieve videos.
- **CRB-S:** Similar to CRB-G, we follow [7] and select the text from the `SPATIAL_CAPTION` field to form queries focused on spatial descriptions.
- **VDC-O:** We utilize the VDC dataset [47] and extract text from the `MAIN_OBJECT_CAPTION` field as an object-centric query (e.g., *The main subject, a worker dressed in a gray sleeveless shirt and beige pants...*).
- **CRB-T:** Similar to CRB-S, we again follow [7], using the `TEMPORAL_CAPTION` field to create queries based on temporal progression.

Table A.1: Statistics of datasets in the Universal Video Retrieval Benchmark (UVRB). All videos use 8 uniformly sampled frames. # Query: the number of queries; # Corpus: the number of corpus; Dur (s): Duration in seconds; # Word: text length in words.

| Dataset | # Query | # Corpus | Dur (s) | # Word |
|---|---|---|---|---|
| **Textual Video Retrieval (Coarse-grained)** | | | | |
| MSRVTT [2] | 1,000 | 1,000 | 15.0 | 9.4 |
| DiDeMo [3] | 1,004 | 1,004 | 53.9 | 29.1 |
| CaReBench-General (CRB-G) [7] | 1,000 | 1,000 | 14.4 | 232.2 |
| **Textual Video Retrieval (Fine-grained)** | | | | |
| ***(a) Spatial*** | | | | |
| CaReBench-Spatial (CRB-S) [7] | 1,000 | 1,000 | 14.4 | 115.0 |
| VDC-Object (VDC-O) [47] | 1,027 | 1,027 | 30.1 | 91.4 |
| ***(b) Temporal*** | | | | |
| CaReBench-Temporal (CRB-T) [7] | 1,000 | 1,000 | 14.4 | 103.2 |
| CameraBench (CMRB) [8] | 728 | 1,071 | 5.7 | 24.8 |
| ***(c) Partially Relevant*** | | | | |
| DREAM-1K-Event (DREAM-E) [93] | 6,251 | 1,000 | 8.8 | 6.5 |
| LoVR-Theme2Clip (LoVR-TH) [12] | 8,854 | 8,854 | 16.9 | 48.1 |
| PE-Video-Keyword (PEV-K) [51] | 14,427 | 15,000 | 16.9 | 45.5 |
| **Textual Video Retrieval (Long-context)** | | | | |
| LoVR-Text2Video (LoVR-V) [12] | 100 | 467 | 1560.3 | 17364.5 |
| VDC-Detail (VDC-D) [47] | 1,000 | 1,027 | 30.1 | 508.0 |
| **Composed Video Retrieval** | | | | |
| MomentSeeker-Text-Image (MS-TI) [94] | 400 | 10 | 13.5 | 68.5 |
| MomentSeeker-Text-Video (MS-TV) [94] | 400 | 10 | 13.5 | 68.5 |
| **Visual Video Retrieval** | | | | |
| MSRVTT-ImageVideo (MSRVTT-I2V) [2] | 1,000 | 1,000 | 15.0 | - |
| LoVR-Clip-to-Video (LoVR-C2V) [12] | 467 | 467 | 1560.3 | - |

- **CMRB:** We use the detailed camera motion annotations from CameraBench [8] as queries to retrieve videos (e.g., *The camera smoothly dollies forward, maintaining a steady and fluid motion...*).

- **DREAM-E:** For event-based retrieval, we collect event descriptions from the DREAM-1K dataset [93] to serve as queries for event-to-video matching (e.g., *Wooden trap launches purple squirrel into the air*).

- **LoVR-TH:** From the LoVR dataset [12], we select the theme annotations of video clips as queries for theme-to-clip retrieval (e.g., *The overall style of the animation is vibrant and whimsical...*).

- **PEV-K:** We use the annotations from the `KEYWORD` field in the PE-Video test set [51] to perform keyword-based partially relevant matching (e.g., *colorful, paper, beautiful...*).

- **LoVR-V:** We leverage the full-length video captions from the LoVR dataset [12] to perform long-text to long-video retrieval.

- **VDC-D:** For this task, we extract the long, detailed descriptions from the `DETAILED_CAPTION` field of the VDC dataset [47] to serve as fine-grained queries.

- **MS-TI:** Following the adaptation method in [15] for the MomentSeeker dataset [94], we create a text-image composed retrieval task. The goal is to retrieve a target video clip using a combined text and image query.

- **MS-TV:** Similar to MS-TI, the task for MS-TV is to use a composed query of a text description and a reference video clip to retrieve the target clip.

- **MSRVTT-I2V:** We construct image-to-video retrieval pairs from the aforementioned MSRVTT test set. For each video, a single frame is randomly sampled to serve as the image query for retrieving its source video.

- **LoVR-C2V:** We leverage the original clip-to-video structure of the LoVR dataset [12]. For each full-length video, one of its corresponding short clips is used as the query for clip-to-video retrieval.

Third, we list the query prompt and metrics for datasets in evaluations in Table A.2.

Table A.2: Query Prompts and Metrics for Datasets in UVRB.

| Dataset | Query Prompt | Metric |
|---|---|---|
| MSRVTT | Find the clip that corresponds to the described scene in the given video. | Recall@1 |
| DiDeMo | Find a video that includes the following described scenes. | Recall@1 |
| CRB-G | Find the video according to the general text description. | Recall@1 |
| CRB-S | Find the video according to the spatial description. | Recall@1 |
| VDC-O | Find the video according to the object description. | Recall@1 |
| CRB-T | Find the video according to the temporal description. | Recall@1 |
| CMRB | Find the video according to the camera motion description. | Recall@10 |
| DREAM-E | Find the video according to the text description. | Recall@1 |
| LoVR-TH | Find the video according to text description about video theme information. | Recall@10 |
| PEV-K | Find the video according to the text description of a series of keywords. | Recall@1 |
| LoVR-V | Find the long video according to the long text description. | Recall@1 |
| VDC-D | Find the video according to the detailed text description. | Recall@1 |
| MS-TI | Find the video clip that corresponds to the given text and the given image. | Precision@1 |
| MS-TV | Find the video clip that corresponds to the given text and the given video. | Precision@1 |
| MSRVTT-I2V | Find the video according to the image. | Recall@1 |
| LoVR-C2V | Find the original long video according to the short video clip. | Recall@1 |

### A.1.2 Evaluation Pipeline

Our evaluation is built atop MTEB [97]. It decouples the evaluation engine from model architecture—supporting everything from sentence transformers to custom multimodal

encoders—via a standardized interface. The pipeline operates in three phases: (1) dynamic task orchestration, (2) configurable model execution, and (3) generation of metrics and diagnostics. For instruction-sensitive tasks, it dynamically injects domain-specific prompts to mirror real-world conditions for actionable diagnostics. Custom benchmarks are integrated seamlessly through dedicated loaders. In this framework, expensive tasks are deferred for efficiency, model initialization (precision, multi-GPU) is abstracted via a factory, and data loading supports both online and offline modes for robustness across environments. Engineering safeguards, including explicit multi-GPU management, clean shutdowns, and offline, first retry logic—ensure reliability at scale.

### A.1.3 Training Data

To build a robust and versatile multimodal retrieval system, our models are trained on a large-scale, diverse mixture of text, image, and video data. All tasks are uniformly formulated as instruction-guided retrieval, a strategy designed to foster a unified representation space that can adeptly handle a wide array of queries. The training data is organized into two primary collections: a main mixture of widely-used public datasets (Table A.3), and a synthesized set from our Universal Video Retrieval Dataset (UVRD) suite (Table A.4).

We follow existing works [48, 98] to construct text-only (e.g., MSMARCO) and image-centric data (e.g., CIRR). In addition, we prepare video datasets using the following strategies.

- **VAST** [46]: We randomly select one sentence from the multiple vision captions as the text query for each video.
- **InternVid-FLT** [52]: We drop about 300K low-quality videos and use the left text-video pairs.

- **PE-Video** [51]: We choose the human_caption refined on model_caption as the textual description of videos.

- **WebVid** [45]: We refuse the queries captioning over one video to impede the generality of text, which excludes 5M videos in final training approximately.

As the aforementioned methodology, we train our model based on contrastive learning with pre-mined explicit hard negatives and in-batch negatives. To maintain a balanced training diet and manage computational load, we employ a sophisticated data sampling strategy. For extremely large datasets, we sample a fixed number of instances. To amplify the learning signal from certain high-value or complex datasets, we may apply an upsampling strategy by repeating their data.

The scale of our training data is substantial. For our 3B parameter model, we prepared 12.55 million instances. To further leverage the capacity of our 7B parameter model, we increase the sampling rate for several large-scale datasets, bringing the total instances to 13.73 million. A detailed breakdown of the data composition is provided in Table A.5.

### A.1.4 Dataset Construction Pipeline Details

Current multimodal retrieval research is hindered by fragmented, ad-hoc dataset construction. We introduce a unified, object-oriented framework that elevates this process to a rigorous science, balancing conceptual clarity with robustness for scalable, reproducible benchmarking.

The framework is anchored in a canonical tripartite abstraction: every retrieval task is decomposed into a Corpus, a set of Queries, and a Relevance Mapping. This schema, enforced by an abstract base class, is a conceptual invariant that ensures structural consis-

Table A.3: Configuration of the main training data mixture for our 3B and 7B models. 'K' denotes thousands, 'M' denotes millions. Notes: (a) Task: T=Text, I=Image, V=Video. The format is Query→Corpus. (b) Neg.: Number of explicit hard negatives per positive. '0' indicates use of in-batch negatives only.

| Dataset | Task | Sample Size | | Neg. | BS |
|---|---|---|---|---|---|
| | | 3B | 7B | | |
| **Part 1: Text-only Data** | | | | | |
| MSMARCO | T→T | 300K | 500K | 2 | 64 |
| HotpotQA | T→T | 69K | | 1 | 64 |
| WebQA | T→T | 11K | | 1 | 32 |
| **Part 2: Image-centric Data** | | | | | |
| CIRR | TI→T | 16K | | 1 | 32 |
| Fashion200K | T→I | 4K | | 1 | 32 |
| Nights | I→I | 13K | | 1 | 32 |
| OVEN | TI→TI | 20K | 30K | 1 | 64 |
| OVEN | TI→T | 20K | 30K | 1 | 64 |
| VisualNews | T→I | 40K | 60K | 1 | 64 |
| EDIS | T→TI | 12K | | 1 | 32 |
| FashionIQ | TI→I | 4K | | 1 | 32 |
| MSCOCO | I→T | 4K | | 1 | 32 |
| REMUQ | TI→T | 5K | | 1 | 32 |
| WebQA | T→TI | 12K | | 1 | 32 |
| LLAVA | TI→T | 20K | 30K | 1 | 64 |
| EVQA | TI→TI | 20K | 30K | 1 | 64 |
| CC3M | T→I | 200K | 300K | 3 | 32 |
| CC3M | I→T | 100K | 200K | 2 | 64 |
| Laion | T→I | 300K | 500K | 3 | 32 |
| Laion | I→T | 200K | | 2 | 64 |
| ImageNet | I→T | 100K | 200K | 2 | 32 |
| VL3-Syn7M (short) | T→I | 300K | 500K | 3 | 32 |
| VL3-Syn7M (short) | I→T | 100K | 200K | 2 | 64 |
| VL3-Syn7M (detailed) | T→I | 200K | 300K | 3 | 32 |
| VL3-Syn7M (detailed) | I→T | 100K | 200K | 2 | 64 |
| VISTA | TI→I | 100K | | 2 | 32 |
| VISTA | T→TI | 20K | | 1 | 64 |
| **Part 3: Video-centric Data** | | | | | |
| VAST | T→V | 1.6M | | 0 | 32 |
| InternVid-FLT | T→V | 1.7M | | 0 | 32 |
| PE-Video | T→V | 104K | | 1 | 64 |
| WebVid | T→V | 5.4M | | 0 | 32 |

Table A.4: Configuration of UVRD. Sample sizes are identical for both 3B and 7B models. Notes: (a) Task: T=Text, I=Image, V=Video (Query→Corpus). (b) Neg.: Explicit hard negatives per positive. '0' denotes in-batch negatives only.

| **Dataset** | **Task** | **Size** | **Neg.** | **BS** |
|---|---|---|---|---|
| UVRD-T2T | T→T | 100K | 0 | 64 |
| UVRD-T2I | T→I | 210K | 0 | 32 |
| UVRD-T2V | T→V | 879K | 1 | 64 |
| UVRD-TI2V | TI→V | 89K | 1 | 64 |
| UVRD-TV2V | TV→V | 35K | 1 | 64 |
| UVRD-I2V | I→V | 200K | 0 | 64 |
| UVRD-V2V | V→V | 36K | 0 | 64 |

Table A.5: Total number of instances for our 3B and 7B models across all data categories.

| **Data Category** | **Total Sample Size** | |
|---|---|---|
| | **3B Model** | **7B Model** |
| Collected: Text-only | 380K | 580K |
| Collected: Image-centric | 1.82M | 2.80M |
| Collected: Video-centric | 8.80M | 8.80M |
| Synthesized: UVRD (All Modalities) | 1.55M | 1.55M |
| **Total** | **12.55M** | **13.73M** |

tency across all datasets, from text-to-video to complex composed queries, enabling seamless model and evaluation compatibility.

The expressiveness of this data construction pipeline stems from polymorphic specialization via inheritance, encapsulated in three core strategies:

**Modality as Configuration.** Modality is a dynamic parameter. By overriding a single method, a dataset effortlessly transitions between modalities (text, image, video, or composite), transforming benchmarks like MSRVTT into image-to-video tasks with minimal code.

**Task Derivation via Inheritance.** Complex tasks are composed of simpler ones. A text+image-to-video task inherits its base structure and extends the query schema. Variants are derived by overriding specific data-access methods, turning benchmark creation into a modular, hypothesis-driven workflow.

**Engineering for Scale and Integrity.** Scalability and data quality are first-class principles. Large datasets (e.g., InternVid-FLT) leverage chunked, parallel processing. Crucially, proactive curation is embedded: automated validators check video integrity (resolution, frame count), while repair mechanisms fix common errors using `FFMPEG`, ensuring failures reflect retrieval challenges, i.e, not data corruption.

### A.1.5 Prompt for Synthetic Video Retrieval Data Generation

To ensure high-quality, diverse, and controllable synthetic video retrieval data generation at scale, we design and deploy a suite of structured prompts to instruct MLLMs for captioning. Our pipeline operates in four parts:

1. **Raw (Or Weakly Annotated) Video (Re-) Captioning**: Enhance raw or uncaptioned videos with rich, diverse textual descriptions.

2. **Text-Image Composed Retrieval**: Generate queries that combine reference images with video content for fine-grained retrieval.

3. **Text-Video Composed Retrieval**: Generate queries that combine short reference clips with target videos for practical temporal or perspective-based retrieval.

4. **Frame Image Captioning**: Annotate individual video frames with dynamic-aware captions for auxiliary training signals.

All prompts enforce strict output formatting, factual grounding, and stylistic diversity to ensure dataset quality and coverage. {RAW_CAPTION} represents an optional, potentially low-quality human-provided or auto-generated caption associated with the video. Placeholders (e.g., {READABILITY} and {EDUCATION_LEVEL}) are dynamically instantiated during batch generation.

Besides, we can generate text-to-text retrieval data from the multiple video/frame captions by randomly matching any two sentences in the caption list.

Synthetic Video Captioning Prompt

```
Generate 5 distinct and high-quality ENGLISH captions for the provided video.
    Please first visually understand the video file and analyze the video frame-
    by-frame in depth before captioning.

The original video caption is {raw_caption}. (Ignore if empty.)

Each caption must be:
  1. The final answer MUST only be a JSON dict of captions where the key is the
     caption number and the value is a single-paragraph caption.
  2. Factually accurate and descriptive - include only what is clearly visible
     or reasonably inferable from the video.
  3. Focus exclusively on visible content; do not mention absences or speculate
     about unseen elements.

Content Requirements (per caption):
  1. Spatial Details (30-60%): Describe location, setting, key environmental
     elements, objects, and their spatial relationships. Include notable visual
     features.
  2. Temporal Flow (30-60%): Capture event sequence and action dynamics -
```

```
    movements, interactions, transitions - as they unfold over time.
  3. Theme/Background/Style/Meaning/Highlight/Camera (0-20%): Describe
    observable emotional tone, narrative style, thematic elements, highlighting
    frames, or significant camera movements/angles.
  4. Others (0-10%).

Key Guidelines:
  1. Do not invent fictional elements, dialogue, or backstory not visible in the
     video.
  2. Use the following varied sentence styles (one per caption):
       - concise and punchy summary,
       - spatial-temporal richly descriptive,
       - abstract understanding,
       - keywords-only,
       - partially relevant information.
  3. Ensure diversity: avoid repetition in wording, focus, or rhythm; at least
    one caption must be <20 words and one >100 words; balance objectivity with
    vivid sensory language; randomly omit minor details in 1 or 2 captions.
  4. Ensure readability matches {readability} and is appropriate for {
    education_level} readers.

Now generate these captions in strict JSON format:
{
   "1": <caption text 1: concise and punchy summary, 10-25 words>,
   "2": <caption text 2: spatial-temporal richly descriptive, 80-200 words>,
   "3": <caption text 3: abstract understanding, 30-100 words>,
   "4": <caption text 4: keywords-only, 5-30 words>,
   "5": <caption text 5: partially relevant information, 10-70 words>
}
```

## Synthetic Text-Image Composed Video Retrieval Prompt

```
You are an information retrieval expert specializing in high-value text-image
    composed queries. Your sole objective is to generate queries that
    significantly enhance video retrieval performance by effectively combining a
     reference image and video content.

## What Makes a HIGH-QUALITY Query (Non-Negotiable)
A truly valuable query must satisfy ALL of these criteria:

1. COMBINATION NECESSITY (Most Critical)
   - The query MUST become meaningless or significantly less specific if either
    the image or video is removed.
   - Example (HIGH-QUALITY): "the person FROM REFERENCE IMAGE wearing red jacket
     now skiing"
   - Example (LOW-QUALITY): "a person skiing" (works without image)

2. SEMANTIC PRECISION
   - Must accurately reflect BOTH the visual content of the reference image AND
    the video.
   - Must reference at least ONE specific visual attribute from the image (not
    generic descriptions).
   - Example (HIGH-QUALITY): "matching the blue hat FROM PHOTO, now running
    through park"
   - Example (LOW-QUALITY): "someone similar to image moving" (too vague)

3. RETRIEVAL EFFECTIVENESS
   - Must narrow search results by at least 50\% compared to text-only queries.
```

```
   - Must contain actionable constraints that differentiate from 90\% of videos
    in the database.
   - Example (HIGH-QUALITY): "the woman WITH PONYTAIL FROM IMAGE entering
    building at 2PM"
   - Example (LOW-QUALITY): "a woman walking" (too broad)

4. LOGICAL COHERENCE
   - Must maintain subject-verb-object consistency across modalities.
   - Must avoid semantic contradictions between image attributes and video
    actions.
   - Example (HIGH-QUALITY): "the dog FROM REFERENCE PHOTO chasing a ball"
   - Example (LOW-QUALITY): "the red jacket FROM IMAGE running down hill" (
    jackets don't run)

5. PRACTICAL UTILITY
   - Must solve a real-world ambiguity that neither text nor image could resolve
     alone.
   - Must reflect how actual users would express their information need.
   - Example (HIGH-QUALITY): "same person AS IN PHOTO but wearing blue instead
    of red"
   - Example (LOW-QUALITY): "the image shows a person and the video shows action
    " (no real combination)

## High-Value Query Generation Framework
Follow this structured approach:

1. DEEP ANALYSIS PHASE (Mandatory)
   a) Reference Image Analysis:
      - Identify 1-4 SPECIFIC visual attributes (e.g., "red jacket", "ponytail",
     "blue hat")
      - Determine primary subject with discriminative features
      - Note what CANNOT be determined from image (e.g., action, scene)

   b) Video Content Analysis:
      - Identify primary action using precise verbs (e.g., "running", "entering
    ", "chasing")
      - Note scene context and temporal elements
      - Determine what CHANGES from the static image reference

2. COMBINATION STRATEGY SELECTION
   Choose ONE primary strategy:

   A) IDENTITY PRESERVATION + ACTION CHANGE
      - Structure: [Binding phrase] + [Image attribute] + [Video action]
      - Example: "the man FROM REFERENCE IMAGE in blue shirt now running"

   B) IDENTITY PRESERVATION + SCENE MIGRATION
      - Structure: [Binding phrase] + [Image attribute] + [Scene transition]
      - Example: "same person AS IN PHOTO moving from office to park"

   C) IDENTITY PRESERVATION + NEGATIVE CONSTRAINT
      - Structure: [Binding phrase] + [Negative constraint] + [Video state]
      - Example: "not wearing red jacket FROM IMAGE but blue, walking"

   D) RELATIONAL TRANSFER
      - Structure: [Binding phrase] + [Relationship description]
      - Example: "the dog FROM REFERENCE PHOTO chasing a ball"

3. QUALITY ENHANCEMENT TECHNIQUES
   - Binding Precision: Use "FROM REFERENCE IMAGE", not "like the picture"
```

```
   - Attribute Specificity: Use concrete features ("red jacket", not "clothing")
   - Action Verbs: Use present continuous tense ("running", not "runs")
   - Context Enrichment: Add 1 relevant scene descriptor ("in park", "near
    building")
   - Noise Handling: For low-quality inputs, use "resembling" but maintain
    specificity
   - Audience Adaptation: Ensure readability matches {readability} and suits {
    education_level} readers.

4. MANDATORY QUALITY CHECK
   Before finalizing, verify ALL:
   - [ ] Explicit binding to reference image
   - [ ] References SPECIFIC visual attribute from image
   - [ ] Describes DYNAMIC ELEMENT not in static image
   - [ ] Loses specificity if image removed
   - [ ] Contains actionable retrieval constraint
   - [ ] Maintains logical subject-action consistency
   - [ ] Solves real-world ambiguity

## What to AVOID
- Generic descriptions ignoring image specificity
- Redundant mentions of obvious image content
- Semantic contradictions (e.g., "the jacket is running")
- Overly precise details not visible in inputs
- Standalone video descriptions without image binding
- Vague terms: "something", "thing", "area"
- Excessive length without added value (>50 words)

## Output Format
- Output ONLY a JSON object with one key: "query"
- Value must be the generated query sentence
- No additional text or formatting

Generate the query for:
Reference Image: <image_input>
Video Clip: <video_input>
```

## Synthetic Text-Video Composed Video Retrieval Prompt

```
You are an information retrieval expert specializing in practical text-video
    composed queries. Your objective is to generate queries that effectively
    combine a short reference clip with a target video for real-world retrieval.

## Practical Context Understanding
In real-world scenarios:
- Reference is typically a SHORT CLIP (2-10 seconds)
- Clip is usually HIGHLY RELEVANT to target video (same source or similar
    content)
- Common relationships: temporal continuation, perspective variation, quality
    differences, minor action variations
- Query should reflect how users actually search

## What Makes a HIGH-QUALITY Query (Practical Focus)
Must satisfy these criteria:

1. USEFUL COMBINATION (Most Important)
   - Leverages reference clip to specify what text alone cannot
   - Example (HIGH-QUALITY): "the same person FROM REFERENCE CLIP continuing to
```

```
    run after the jump"
   - Example (LOW-QUALITY): "a person running" (ignores reference)

2. PRACTICAL PRECISION
   - References at least ONE observable feature from reference clip
   - Example (HIGH-QUALITY): "matching the red jacket FROM REFERENCE, now
    entering building"
   - Example (LOW-QUALITY): "someone similar to clip moving" (too vague)

3. REAL-WORLD UTILITY
   - Helps find videos difficult to retrieve with text alone
   - Example (HIGH-QUALITY): "same action AS IN REFERENCE but from front angle"
   - Example (LOW-QUALITY): "the clip shows action" (no retrieval value)

4. NATURAL EXPRESSION
   - Sounds like how a real user would phrase it
   - Example (HIGH-QUALITY): "what happens right after this moment?"
   - Example (LOW-QUALITY): "temporal continuation of the current visual
    sequence" (too academic)

## Practical Query Generation Framework

1. REFERENCE CLIP ANALYSIS
   - Identify 1-3 KEY OBSERVABLE FEATURES (e.g., "red jacket", "starting pose",
    "mid-action")
   - Determine most distinctive visual or action element
   - Note what is CLEARLY VISIBLE (avoid guessing)

2. TARGET VIDEO RELATIONSHIP ASSESSMENT
   Determine relationship type:

   A) TEMPORAL CONTINUATION
      - Reference is earlier part of same sequence
      - Query focus: "what happens next" or "continuing action"

   B) PERSPECTIVE VARIATION
      - Same action from different angle/view
      - Query focus: "same action from different angle"

   C) QUALITY/CONDITION VARIATION
      - Same action with different lighting/resolution
      - Query focus: "same scene in better lighting"

   D) MINOR ACTION VARIATION
      - Slightly different execution of similar action
      - Query focus: "same person but running instead of walking"

3. QUERY CONSTRUCTION
   - Start with binding phrase: "FROM REFERENCE CLIP", "AS IN REFERENCE", etc.
   - Reference 1-2 specific observable features from clip
   - Describe relationship to target video clearly
   - Keep natural and practical (5-15 words typically)
   - For temporal: focus on "what happens next"
   - For perspective: specify desired viewpoint
   - For quality: specify desired condition
   - For action: specify the change

4. PRACTICAL QUALITY CHECK
   Ask before finalizing:
   - Would this help me find what I'm looking for?
```

```
   - Does it add value beyond describing the target?
   - Would a real user phrase it this way?
   - Is everything mentioned clearly visible in reference?

## What to AVOID
- Overly academic or technical language
- References to features NOT clearly visible
- Excessive precision about timing ("exactly 3.2 seconds later")
- Queries that work equally well without reference
- Generic descriptions: "similar video", "related content"
- Making unsupported assumptions

## Output Format
- Output ONLY a JSON object with key: "query"
- Value must be the generated query string
- No additional text, explanations, or formatting

Generate the query for:
Reference Clip: <reference_clip_input>
Target Video: <target_video_input>
```

### Synthetic Frame Captioning Prompt

```
Generate 5 distinct and high-quality ENGLISH captions for the provided image (a
    frame extracted from a video) based solely on visual content. Please first
    visually understand the image and analyze it in depth before captioning.

Each caption must be:
  1. The final answer MUST only be a JSON dict of captions where the key is the
     caption number and the value is a single-paragraph caption.
  2. Factually accurate and descriptive - include only what is clearly visible;
     captions should also be consistent with the short-term video context.
  3. Focus exclusively on visible content; do not mention absences or speculate
     about unseen context.

Content Requirements (per caption):
  1. Spatial Details (50-70%): Describe location, setting, key objects, spatial
     relationships, colors, lighting, composition. Include instantaneous action
     states derived from visible posture/motion cues.
  2. Temporal Snapshots (0-30%): Describe the frozen moment's temporal state (
     movements, interactions, transitions) ONLY if visually provable. Avoid
     implying sequence, duration, or speed.
  3. Theme/Style/Composition (10-20%): Cover emotional tone, camera angle,
     lighting style, or artistic elements directly observable.
  4. Others (0-10%).

Key Guidelines:
  1. Do not invent fictional elements or backstory. If action is ambiguous,
     describe neutrally. Never use future/past tense or speculative phrases.
  2. Use varied sentence styles (randomly assign one per caption):
       - concise spatial-temporal snapshot,
       - spatially rich descriptive,
       - abstract spatial interpretation,
       - keywords with temporal anchors,
       - minimalist spatial focus.
  3. Ensure diversity: avoid repetition in wording, focus, or rhythm; at least
     one caption <20 words and one >100 words; balance objectivity with vivid
     sensory language; randomly omit minor details in 1-2 captions.
```

```
  4. Ensure readability matches {readability} and is appropriate for {
    education_level} readers.

Now generate these captions in strict JSON format:
{
   "1": <caption text 1: concise and punchy summary, 10-25 words>,
   "2": <caption text 2: spatial-temporal richly descriptive, 50-200 words>,
   "3": <caption text 3: abstract understanding, 30-100 words>,
   "4": <caption text 4: keywords-only, 5-30 words>,
   "5": <caption text 5: partially relevant information, 10-70 words>
}
```

**Prompt Utilization.** These prompts are designed for a scalable, schema-constrained generation pipeline for synthesizing diverse video-centric annotations and queries. The system unifies four tasks under a single modular framework. Each task is governed by a structured prompt template with dynamic control slots (e.g., readability, education level), ensuring linguistic and semantic diversity. Input modalities (image, video, or both) are automatically routed and embedded via a distributed multimodal LLM (Keye-VL-8B [53], 32K context), with outputs rigorously validated against JSON schemas for structural correctness. The pipeline supports sharded, resumable batch generation with quality-aware sampling, enabling the production of millions of grounded, stylistically varied synthetic instances.

### A.1.6 Model Architecture Details

The GVE model is architecturally derived from Qwen2.5-VL [54], repurposed as a fixed-length multimodal encoder by removing its autoregressive head. Its core function is to map arbitrarily composed inputs—text, image, or video—into a shared $d$-dimensional embedding space, preserving cross-modal alignment inherited from pretraining.

Input fusion begins with tokenization and visual encoding. Text is converted into a sequence of token IDs $\mathbf{X}_t \in \mathbb{Z}^{B\times T_t}$, while images and video frames are encoded into visual token sequences $\mathbf{X}_v \in \mathbb{R}^{B\times T_v\times d}$, where $T_v = \text{THW}/p_s^2$ for images, and $T_v = K\cdot(\text{THW}/p_s^2)$ for videos with $K$ uniformly sampled frames. Note that frame embeddings will be added with absolute time encoding. Critically, $K$ must satisfy $K \bmod p_t = 0$ (default: $p_t = p_s =$

2) to maintain alignment with the vision encoder's 3D spatiotemporal grid. The processor then injects these visual tokens into the textual sequence by replacing placeholder tokens (<IMAGE>, <VIDEO>), producing a fused input $\mathbf{X}_{\text{fused}} \in \mathbb{R}^{B\times T\times d}$, where $T = T_t + \sum T_v$. This scatter-based fusion preserves positional coherence and enables interleaved modality composition, which is essential for compositional query understanding in multimodal embeddings. The final embedding $\mathbf{e}^{(i)} \in \mathbb{R}^d$ for the $i$-th instance is extracted from the last attended token in the sequence:

$$\mathbf{e}^{(i)} = \frac{\mathbf{h}_{p_i}^{(i)}}{\|\mathbf{h}_{p_i}^{(i)}\|_2}, \quad \text{where } p_i = \max\{j \mid \mathbf{M}_j^{(i)} = 1\},$$

and $\mathbf{M}^{(i)}$ is the attention mask for instance $i$. This position corresponds to the EOS token in left-padded sequences or the final non-pad token in right-padded ones. The choice is motivated by the observation that in instruction-tuned MLLMs, the final token often encapsulates the model's response intent, making it semantically aligned with the user's retrieval goal.

### A.1.7 Training Implementation and Hyperparameters

**Parameter-Efficient Tuning.** To facilitate parameter-efficient fine-tuning (PEFT), we employ Low-Rank Adaptation (LoRA) [99]. Our strategy involves a targeted application of LoRA to the language components of the model, specifically the `Q_PROJ`, `V_PROJ`, `K_PROJ`, `UP_PROJ`, `DOWN_PROJ`, and `GATE_PROJ` modules. Crucially, the entire visual backbone and the base token embedding layer are kept frozen. This approach focuses adaptation on high-level semantic and cross-modal reasoning while preserving the powerful pretrained visual features. We enable FlashAttention-2 [100] to accelerate training and reduce memory. The final embedding for each input is obtained via last-token pooling on the last hidden layer, followed by L2 normalization to project embeddings onto the unit

hypersphere for stable cosine similarity computations.

**Optimizer and Training Dynamics.** The model is trained using the AdamW [101] optimizer with a learning rate of $3 \times 10^{-5}$ and a weight decay of $0.1$. A cosine learning rate scheduler is used. Training is performed in BFloat16 (`BF16`) mixed-precision. The entire training process is managed under the DeepSpeed framework. For video inputs, we uniformly sample $8$ frames per clip at a rate of $1.0$ FPS. By default, we use $32$ NVIDIA A100 GPUs, each with 80GB of memory. Therefore, the overall batch size is at least $1024$.

**Memory Optimization and Distributed Strategy.** To manage GPU memory, we enable gradient checkpointing, which recomputes intermediate activations during the backward pass. While our framework supports more advanced techniques like Gradient Cache, it was disabled in favor of this standard approach. To leverage our multi-GPU setup, we enable cross-device negative sharing. This strategy gathers embeddings from all GPUs, effectively multiplying the pool of in-batch negatives by the number of devices. This enriches the negative set for the contrastive loss computation on each GPU, leading to a stronger training signal without increasing per-device memory load.

**Contrastive Learning and Stability.** The core of our training is an InfoNCE-style contrastive loss with a temperature of $0.03$. The use of cross-device negatives starts from the first step. We also enhance our training logs with contrastive-specific metrics, including the average scores of positive pairs and the average margin between positive and hard-negative pairs, providing crucial insights into the model's learning dynamics.

**Hyperparameter Summary.** A comprehensive summary of all key hyperparameters is provided in Table A.6.

Table A.6: Key hyperparameters used for model training.

| Parameter | Value |
|---|---|
| **Model & LoRA Architecture** | |
| Base Model | `Qwen2.5-VL-3B-Instruct` or `Qwen2.5-VL-7B-Instruct` |
| PEFT Method | LoRA |
| LoRA Rank ($r$) | 16 |
| LoRA Alpha ($\alpha$) | 32 |
| LoRA Dropout | 0.1 |
| LoRA Target Modules | `q_proj, v_proj, k_proj, up_proj, down_proj, gate_proj` |
| Frozen Components | Visual Backbone, Token Embeddings |
| **Optimizer & Training** | |
| Optimizer | AdamW |
| Learning Rate | $3 \times 10^{-5}$ |
| Weight Decay | 0.1 |
| LR Scheduler | Cosine |
| Training Epochs | 3 |
| Precision | BF16 |
| Gradient Checkpointing | Enabled |
| Seed | 42 |
| **Contrastive Learning** | |
| Temperature | 0.03 |
| In-batch Negatives | Enabled |
| Cross-Device Negatives | Enabled |
| **Data & Preprocessing** | |
| Video Frames per Clip | 8 |
| Video Sampling Rate | 1.0 FPS |
| Dataloader Workers | 1 |

### A.1.8 Baseline Details

Here we present more details of baseline models tested on our benchmark in Table A.7, including full model names, abbreviations, architectures, sizes, and training data types. Based on these properties, we analyze to discover potential performance knowledge and dependencies in our experimental part.

Table A.7: Model Abbreviations, Architectures, Parameter Sizes, and Training Data Types. The checkmark (✓) indicates the model was trained on the corresponding data pair types.

| Full Model Name | Abbreviation | Architecture | Size |
|---|---|---|---|
| CLIP4Clip | CLIP4Clip | CLIP-based | 87M |
| ViCLIP | ViCLIP | CLIP-based | 0.4B |
| VideoCLIP-XL | VideoCLIP-XL | CLIP-based | 0.4B |
| LanguageBind-Video-Huge-V1.5 | LanguageBind | CLIP-based | 1.2B |
| InternVideo2-Stage2-1B | InternVideo2-1B | CLIP-based | 1.4B |
| InternVideo2-Stage2-6B | InternVideo2-6B | CLIP-based | 6.4B |
| gme-Qwen2-VL-2B-Instruct | GME-2B | MLLM-based | 2.2B |
| Unite-Base-Qwen2-VL-2B | Unite-2B | MLLM-based | 2.2B |
| VLM2Vec-V2.0 | VLM2Vec-V2 | MLLM-based | 2.2B |
| BGE-VL-v1.5-mmeb | BGE-VL | MLLM-based | 7.6B |
| UniME-LLaVA-OneVision-7B | UniME-7B | MLLM-based | 8.0B |
| B3-Qwen2-7B | B3-7B | MLLM-based | 8.3B |
| gme-Qwen2-VL-7B-Instruct | GME-7B | MLLM-based | 8.3B |
| Unite-Base-Qwen2-VL-7B | Unite-7B | MLLM-based | 8.3B |
| GVE-3B | GVE-3B | MLLM-based | 3.8B |
| GVE-7B | GVE-7B | MLLM-based | 8.3B |

| Abbreviation | Text-Text | Text-Image | Text-Video |
|---|---|---|---|
| CLIP4Clip | - | - | ✓ |
| ViCLIP | - | - | ✓ |
| VideoCLIP-XL | - | - | ✓ |
| LanguageBind | - | - | ✓ |
| InternVideo2-1B | - | - | ✓ |
| InternVideo2-6B | - | - | ✓ |
| GME-2B | ✓ | ✓ | - |
| Unite-2B | ✓ | ✓ | ✓ |
| VLM2Vec-V2 | ✓ | ✓ | ✓ |
| BGE-VL | ✓ | ✓ | - |
| UniME-7B | ✓ | ✓ | - |
| B3-7B | ✓ | ✓ | - |
| GME-7B | ✓ | ✓ | - |
| Unite-7B | ✓ | ✓ | ✓ |
| GVE-3B | ✓ | ✓ | ✓ |
| GVE-7B | ✓ | ✓ | ✓ |

### A.1.9 Training Dynamics

We monitor four key metrics during training: *Training Loss*, *Mean Score*, *Max Negative Gap*, and *Mean Positive Score* in Figure A.2 and Figure A.3. To ensure robust visualization, we mitigate outlier effects, followed by 200-step moving average smoothing. Original trajectories (subsampled every 100 steps) are plotted alongside smoothed trends, with ±1 standard deviation bands indicating local volatility.

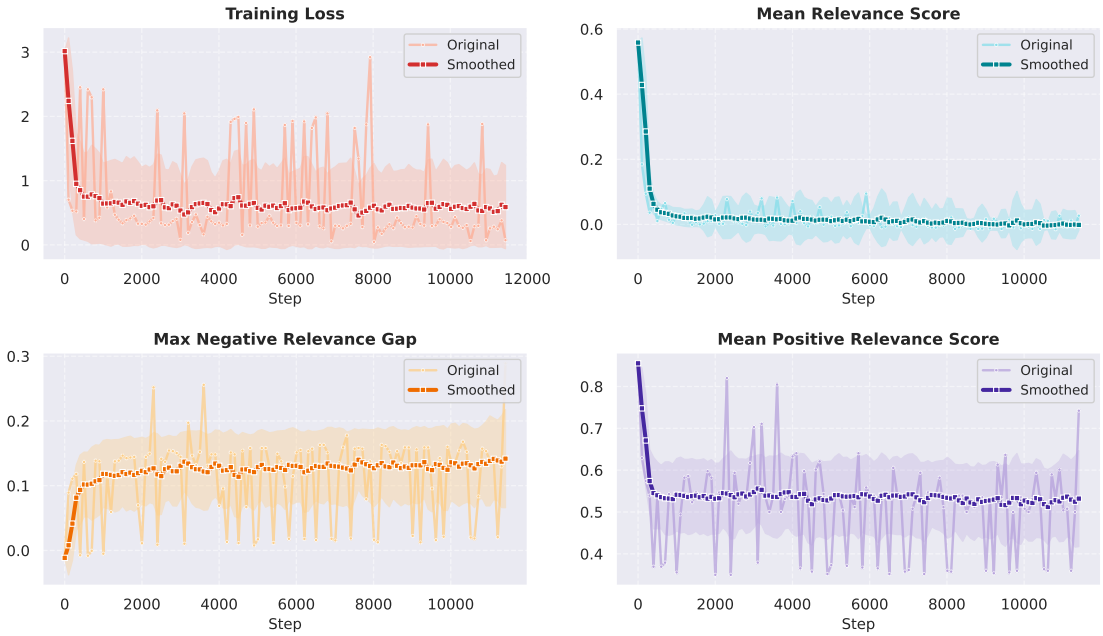



Figure A.2: Training dynamics of `GVE-3B` across four metrics.

### A.1.10 Experiments of Training-time Scaling: More Results of Data Scaling

Along with Section 3.5.2, we depict more experiments for six abilities in data scaling for `GVE-3B` and `GVE-7B` in Figure A.4. Shaded bands show ±1 std; dashed curves are log-linear fits for visual guidance. X-axis is log-scaled to reflect scaling law dynamics.

We fit a logarithmic scaling law $y = a \ln x + b$ to quantify gains per decade of data




Figure A.3: Training dynamics of GVE-7B across four metrics.

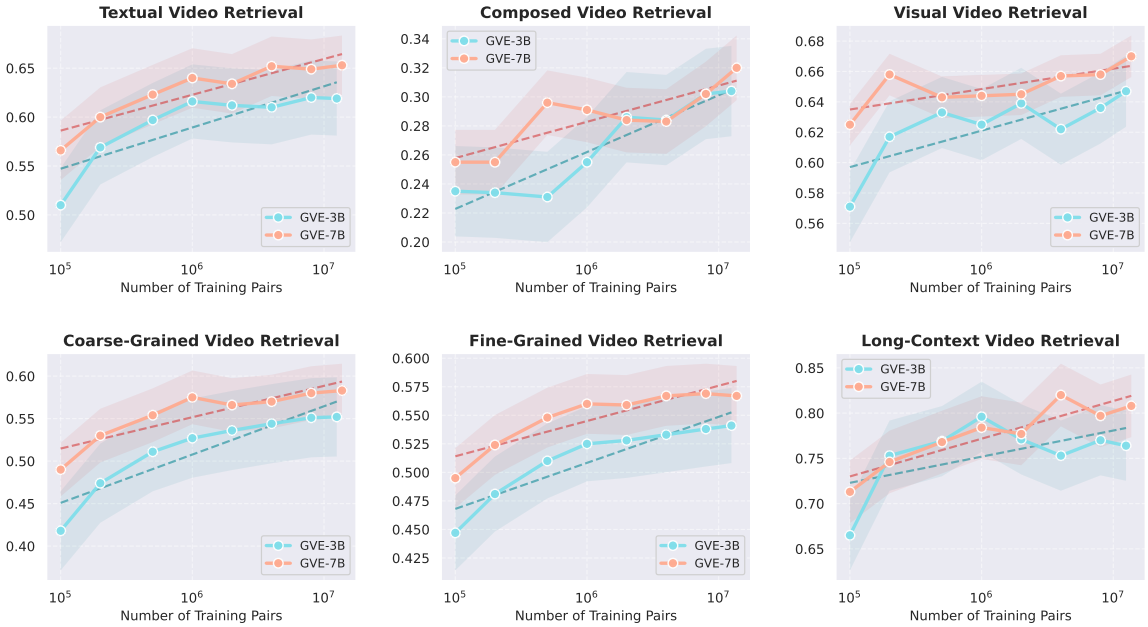



Figure A.4: Performance effect from data scaling for GVE-3B and GVE-7B in detail.

(10× increase). GVE-3B consistently shows higher relative gains: in compositional retrieval (CMP), it improves by $+0.039$ ($14.7\%$), nearly double GVE-7B's $+0.025$ ($8.7\%$); in coarse-grained tasks (CG), it gains $+0.057$ ($11.1\%$), far exceeding GVE-7B's $+0.037$ ($6.6\%$). Textual (TXT) and fine-grained (FG) retrieval follow similar trends, with GVE-3B improving by $+0.042$ ($7.1\%$) and $+0.040$ ($7.9\%$), respectively, versus GVE-7B's $+0.037$ ($5.8\%$) and $+0.031$ ($5.6\%$). Visual retrieval (VIS) scales weakly for both ($+0.024/3.8\%$ for GVE-3B, $+0.013/2.1\%$ for GVE-7B). Notably, only in long-context retrieval (LC) does GVE-7B outperform GVE-3B in both absolute ($+0.042$ vs. $+0.029$) and relative gain ($5.4\%$ vs. $3.8\%$).

This reveals a task-dependent scaling trade-off: smaller models (GVE-3B) scale more efficiently in semantic and compositional tasks, while larger models (GVE-7B) uniquely excel in long-context modeling — suggesting that model size should be chosen not only for capacity, but for alignment with the data-scaling profile of the target task.

### A.1.11 Experiments of Test-time Scaling

We investigate the impact of scaling two test-time parameters: the number of sampled frames and the maximum tokens per frame (i.e., effective resolution). We analyze each in isolation: when scaling the frame count from $8$ to $48$, the maximum token count is fixed at $200$; conversely, when scaling the token count from $200$ to $800$, the frame count is fixed at $8$.

**Temporal Scaling: the Number of Sampled Frames.** As shown in Figure A.5, increasing the number of sampled frames generally improves performance. The most substantial gains appear in the Long-Context (LC) task (GVE-3B: +19.6%, GVE-7B: +12.8%), underscoring the value of denser temporal sampling for long-range reasoning. However, the Compositional (CMP) task shows a slight performance degradation, suggesting its sensitiv-

ity to potentially redundant visual cues from excessive frames. Furthermore, while GVE-7B consistently outperforms GVE-3B, the performance gap narrows as frames increase (from 0.029 to 0.024 on average scores across datasets), indicating that the larger model is more efficient at extracting information from sparser inputs.

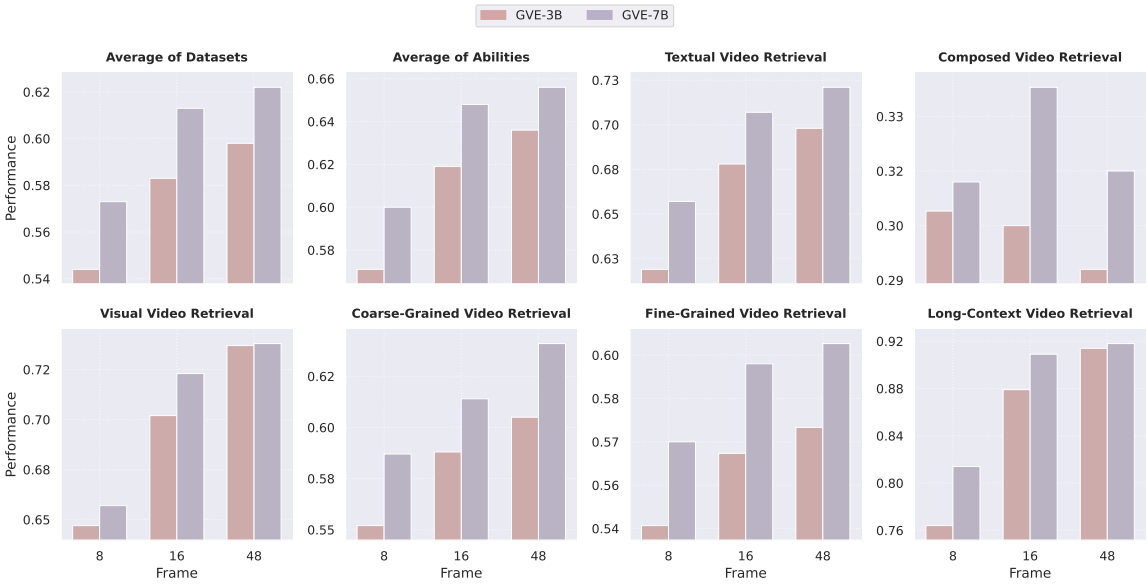



Figure A.5: Model performance as a function of the number of sampled frames at inference time (max tokens fixed at 200).

**Spatial Scaling: the Maximum Tokens Per Frame.** In contrast, increasing the token budget yields non-monotonic returns (Figure A.6). Performance for most tasks peaks around 400 tokens and then declines. This suggests that for semantic retrieval tasks, there is an optimal point of spatial detail. Scaling beyond this introduces a massive influx of fine-grained visual features that are largely redundant for the task. This over-saturation of information can dilute the effective semantic signal within the LLM's context window, making it more challenging for the model to distill the core visual concepts into the final embedding. The CMP task's performance again deteriorates with more tokens, reinforcing its sensitivity to input redundancy.




Figure A.6: Model performance versus the maximum number of tokens per frame (frame count fixed at 8), determining the resolution of frames in resizing.

**Key Findings and Implications.** Our scaling analysis reveals four key findings:

- **Temporal Scaling (More Frames):** Provides a reliable, though diminishing, performance boost, especially for long-range tasks.
- **Spatial Scaling (More Tokens):** Exhibits a clear optimal point (approx. 400 tokens). Exceeding it degrades performance, indicating a trade-off between detail and distraction.
- **Model Scale Efficiency:** The larger model (GVE-7B) benefits less from input scaling, suggesting a greater intrinsic capacity to process sparse inputs effectively.

For test-time enhancement, temporal scaling is a robust strategy, whereas naive spatial scaling is not. This distinction underscores a critical insight: performance is not merely a function of total input data, but of its effective composition. It strongly motivates a shift from brute-force data scaling towards adaptive input mechanisms, such as dynamic token or frame selection, that can intelligently manage information density.

### A.1.12 Human-in-the-Loop Quality Validation of UVRD

To provide a ground-truth assessment of our synthesized data, we conducted a human expert evaluation on a random sample of 100 instances generated from UVRD. As referenced in Section 3.4.1, the validation yielded a 95% **factual accuracy rate**. The 5 erroneous instances were categorized as follows, confirming they were minor and non-critical in nature: 2 instances with minor over/under-claims of visual details (e.g., recognize an object as a laptop/butterfly but it is not obvious); 2 instances with minor inaccuracies in camera motion description (e.g., movement hallucination); 1 instance with a subtle temporal sequencing error (e.g., reversed temporal description). This high fidelity rate validates the effectiveness of our multi-stage quality assurance process in producing reliable training data at scale.

### A.1.13 Experimental Analysis of Modality Pyramid

This subsection provides detailed experimental data to quantitatively validate the design choices and overall effectiveness of the Modality Pyramid, as discussed in Section 3.4.2 and Section 3.5.2.

**Empirical Validation of Task Hierarchy** The bottom-up design of our curriculum is predicated on an assumed hierarchy of task complexity. To empirically ground this assumption, we measured the initial alignment scores of different task types before training. We computed the average cosine similarity for 100 positive pairs per task using the GME-7B [48]. The results, presented in Table A.8, reveal a clear monotonic decrease in similarity as task complexity increases, from 0.68 for text-to-text (T2T) down to 0.43 for text-video-composed (TV2V) retrieval. This trend provides strong quantitative evidence for the assumed task hierarchy, justifying the curriculum's prioritization of foundational tasks.

Table A.8: Average cosine similarity of positive pairs across task types at initialization. The scores reveal a natural task difficulty hierarchy, providing an empirical basis for our curriculum design. T: text, I: image, V: video.

| Task Type | T2T | T2I | T2TI | I2TI | TI2TI | T2V | TI2V | TV2V |
|---|---|---|---|---|---|---|---|---|
| Similarity | 0.68 | 0.65 | 0.59 | 0.53 | 0.52 | 0.46 | 0.45 | 0.43 |

**Impact of Temperature Scheduling** The curriculum's dynamic task scheduling is governed by a temperature parameter $\sigma(t)$ that increases linearly over time. To analyze its effectiveness, we compared this linear schedule against a fixed, manually tuned constant temperature ($\sigma = 0.5$) for GVE-3B. As shown in Table A.9, the linear schedule achieves slightly superior final performance across datasets. This result suggests that an automated, adaptive scheduling mechanism can match or exceed a carefully tuned static hyperparameter, enhancing the robustness of the training process.

Table A.9: Performance comparison of temperature scheduling strategies at 3B scale.

| Scheduling Strategy | Score |
|---|---|
| Linear Schedule (Ours) | **0.571** |
| Constant Temperature ($\sigma = 0.5$) | 0.569 |

Table A.10: Video classification accuracy comparison across different models and datasets. For each column: highest score is **bolded**, second-highest is underlined.

| **Model** | **AVG** | **K700** | **UCF101** | **HMDB51** | **SSV2** | **Breakfast** |
|---|---|---|---|---|---|---|
| CLIP4Clip | 0.378 | 0.395 | 0.596 | 0.413 | 0.308 | 0.176 |
| InternVideo2-6B | **0.526** | **0.554** | 0.572 | 0.480 | **0.569** | **0.453** |
| VLM2Vec-V2 | 0.393 | 0.380 | 0.600 | 0.409 | 0.428 | 0.148 |
| GME-7B | 0.374 | 0.397 | 0.547 | 0.479 | 0.306 | 0.143 |
| UniME-7B | 0.306 | 0.388 | 0.377 | 0.407 | 0.190 | 0.166 |
| Unite-7B | 0.519 | 0.537 | 0.752 | **0.534** | 0.513 | 0.261 |
| GVE-3B | 0.476 | 0.489 | 0.661 | 0.483 | 0.471 | 0.277 |
| GVE-7B | **0.526** | 0.540 | **0.757** | 0.525 | 0.521 | 0.289 |

The effectiveness of this linear schedule lies in its data-driven nature. The prober model implicitly determines task difficulty based on alignment scores, leading to an adaptive

schedule without requiring manual prior assumptions about which tasks are inherently "harder." We believe this data-driven approach is more robust for a universal framework than hand-crafted, task-specific schedules.

### A.1.14 Experiments of Video Classification

We test the video embeddings for video classification by following the MMEB-V2 [15]. Note that we do not train on these datasets for zero-shot evaluations, while other baselines may include them in optimization. Specifically, we evaluate video embedding models on five diverse classification benchmarks, including **Kinetics-700 (K700)** [102], **UCF101** [103], **HMDB51** [104], **SomethingSomething-V2 (SSV2)** [105], and **Breakfast** [106], covering fine-grained interactions, open-domain actions, and procedural activities. Each task is cast as video-to-text retrieval over the full label set, using standardized validation/test splits. The results are provided in Table A.10. Our results show that LanguageBind achieves the highest mean accuracy (0.553), followed closely by GVE-7B (0.526) and InternVideo2-6B (0.526), demonstrating the efficacy of unified multimodal representations. However, performance remains suboptimal on temporally complex datasets such as Breakfast (best: 0.453) and fine-grained SSV2 (best: 0.569), revealing a critical bottleneck in modeling dynamic physical interactions.

# APPENDIX B

# SUPPLEMENTARY MATERIAL FOR DEMYSTIFYING SPATIOTEMPORAL SCALING LAWS OF MULTIMODAL VIDEO EMBEDDINGS

This document provides additional results and materials referenced in the main paper. Table B.1 summarises the correspondence between supplementary sections and main-paper sections.

Table B.1: Section correspondence between the supplementary and the main paper.

| Supp. Section | Content | Main Paper |
|---|---|---|
| §B.1 | Error analysis & case studies | §3.2 |
| §B.2 | Baseline results at 32 frames | §4.2 |
| §B.3 | Additional scaling analyses | §4.3-4.4 |
| §B.4 | LLM prompts used in the pipeline | §3.2 |

## B.1 Error Analysis & Case Studies

Section 4 of the main paper describes three key failure modes. The corresponding visual case studies are provided below.

**(1) Degradation on Long Continuous Temporal Segments.** As shown in Figure B.1, the model's performance degrades on long, continuous events. This is because our model, limited by a fixed-length context window (e.g., 16 frames), processes videos in short, independent clips during inference. This segmentation prevents it from capturing the full temporal scope of events that span across multiple clips.

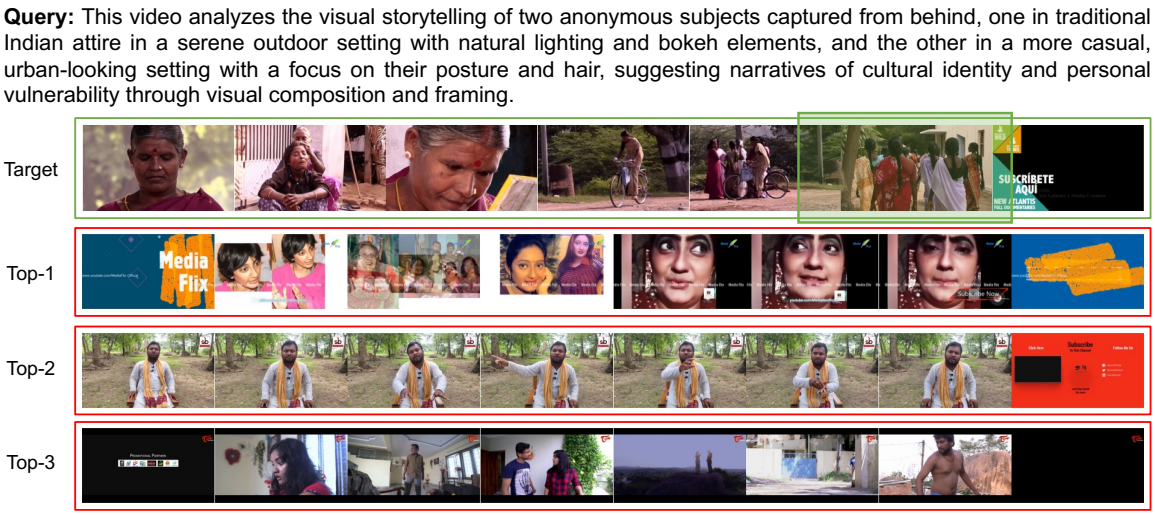



Figure B.1: Example of Error Type 1: *Degradation on Long Continuous Temporal Segments*.

**(2) Failure in Fine-Grained Temporal Retrieval.** As shown in Figure B.2, this failure occurs when the target event is a brief scene in the background, reflecting difficulties similar to "needle-in-a-haystack" scenarios in video retrieval.

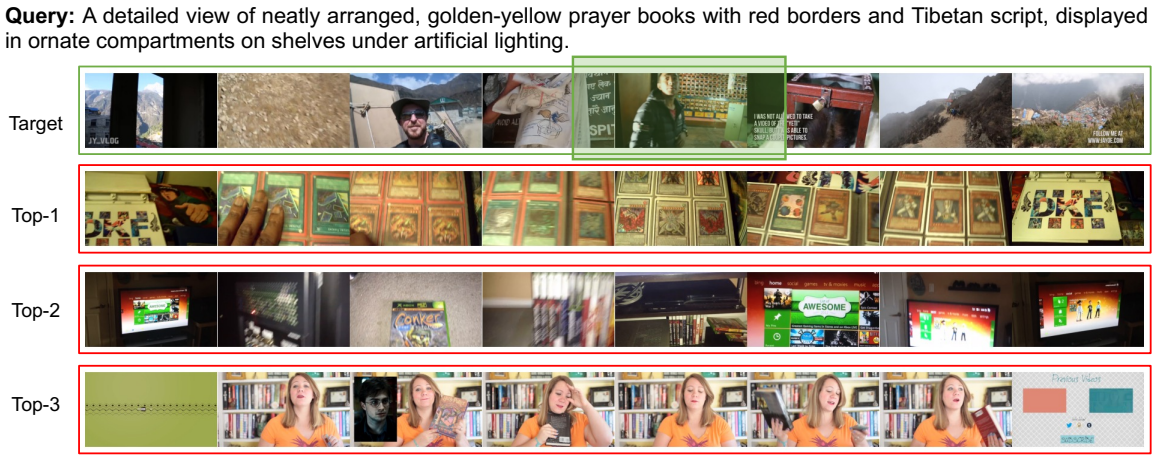



Figure B.2: Example of Error Type 2: *Failure in Fine-Grained Temporal Retrieval*.

**(3) Incomplete Satisfaction of Semantic Constraints.** As shown in Figure B.3, the model sometimes fails to meet all query conditions. For instance, the top-1 retrieved video satisfies the "speaker" requirement but fails to match the "blue background" constraint.

Similarly, the top-3 retrieved video satisfies most constraints but misses the "speaker in a patterned shirt" condition.




Figure B.3: Example of Error Type 3: *Incomplete Satisfaction of Semantic Constraints*.

## B.2 Baseline Results at 32 Frames

The main paper (§3.2) notes that "results at 32 frames are provided in the supplementary material." Table B.2 fills this gap, complementing Table 1 (8 F) and Table 2 (128 F) of the main paper.

## B.3 Additional Scaling Analyses

### B.3.1 Test-Time Spatial Scaling Across Temporal Densities

The caption of Figure 2 in the main paper (§3.3) notes that "sensitivity results under varying temporal densities are provided in the supplementary material." Figure B.4 extends Figure 2 by sweeping over $F \in \{8, 32, 128\}$ frames per video, whereas Figure 2 fixes $F = 32$.

Table B.2: Multi-granularity retrieval performance of all baselines at **32 uniformly sampled frames** per video. **Bold** and underline indicate the best and second-best results within each model group, respectively.

| Model | Overall | | FN | | MD | | CR | |
|---|---|---|---|---|---|---|---|---|
| | R@1 | MRR | R@1 | MRR | R@1 | MRR | R@1 | MRR |
| InternVideo2-1B | 0.1948 | 0.2653 | 0.0463 | 0.0890 | 0.2641 | 0.3611 | 0.5610 | 0.6512 |
| InternVideo2-6B | 0.2815 | 0.3674 | 0.0963 | 0.1620 | 0.3940 | 0.5022 | 0.6429 | 0.7305 |
| CLIP4Clip | 0.3087 | 0.3955 | 0.1220 | 0.1924 | 0.4302 | 0.5360 | 0.6429 | 0.7286 |
| LanguageBind | **0.4622** | **0.5445** | **0.2284** | **0.3153** | **0.6374** | **0.7211** | **0.7961** | **0.8538** |
| GME-2B | 0.3407 | 0.4277 | 0.1445 | 0.2183 | 0.4691 | 0.5741 | 0.6892 | 0.7653 |
| Unite-2B | 0.3672 | 0.4528 | 0.1598 | 0.2352 | 0.5123 | 0.6129 | 0.7008 | 0.7744 |
| Ops-MM-2B | 0.3832 | 0.4662 | 0.1664 | 0.2412 | 0.5355 | 0.6312 | 0.7302 | 0.8007 |
| VLM2Vec-V2 | 0.4002 | 0.4814 | 0.1721 | 0.2446 | 0.5623 | 0.6574 | 0.7578 | 0.8247 |
| Qwen3-VL-Emb-2B | 0.4640 | 0.5464 | 0.2091 | 0.2944 | **0.6562** | **0.7417** | 0.8237 | 0.8816 |
| GVE-3B | **0.4679** | **0.5487** | **0.2187** | **0.3062** | 0.6475 | 0.7302 | **0.8495** | **0.8949** |
| GME-7B | 0.3835 | 0.4722 | 0.1560 | 0.2390 | 0.5439 | 0.6435 | 0.7453 | 0.8181 |
| Ops-MM-7B | 0.4369 | 0.5200 | 0.2085 | 0.2925 | 0.5985 | 0.6879 | 0.7979 | 0.8541 |
| UniME-V2 | 0.4381 | 0.5206 | 0.1876 | 0.2730 | 0.6183 | 0.7054 | 0.8228 | 0.8766 |
| Unite-7B | 0.4600 | 0.5434 | 0.2138 | 0.3010 | 0.6371 | 0.7269 | 0.8388 | 0.8830 |
| RzenEmbed | 0.4751 | 0.5546 | 0.2072 | 0.2934 | 0.6729 | 0.7554 | 0.8682 | 0.9089 |
| GVE-7B | 0.5028 | 0.5833 | 0.2505 | 0.3415 | 0.6873 | 0.7683 | 0.8789 | 0.9144 |
| Qwen3-VL-Emb-8B | **0.5290** | **0.6017** | **0.2641** | **0.3497** | **0.7301** | **0.7991** | **0.8976** | **0.9301** |

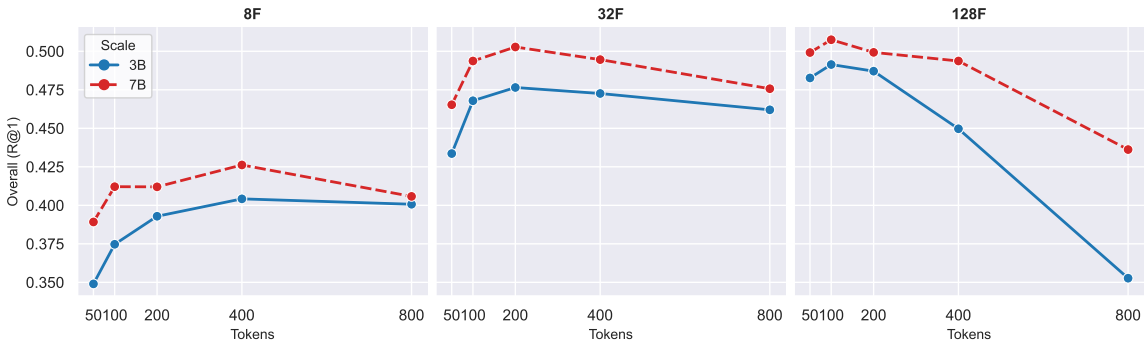



Figure B.4: Test-time spatial scaling sensitivity of GVE at temporal densities $F \in \{8, 32, 128\}$ frames per video. Each panel fixes $F$ and varies the number of spatial tokens $T$ per frame.

### B.3.2 Training-Time Spatial Scaling (Evaluated at 8 Test Frames)

Table 3 of the main paper (§3.4) reports training-time spatial scaling evaluated at 4 test frames. Table B.3 provides the complementary results at 8 test frames, with $F_{\text{train}} = 4$ and $T_{\text{train}} \in \{50, 100, 200, 400\}$.

Table B.3: Training-time spatial scaling results with fixed temporal density ($F_{\text{train}} = 4$), evaluated at **8 test frames**. Models trained at varying spatial resolutions ($T_{\text{train}} \in \{50, 100, 200, 400\}$) are evaluated across all spatial test configurations. **Bold** indicates the best result within each group.

| Training | | Testing | | Overall | | FN | | MD | | CR | |
|---|---|---|---|---|---|---|---|---|---|---|---|
| Temporal | Spatial | Temporal | Spatial | R@1 | MRR | R@1 | MRR | R@1 | MRR | R@1 | MRR |
| 4F | 50T | 8F | 50T | 0.2523 | 0.3349 | 0.0941 | 0.1561 | 0.3438 | 0.4461 | 0.5779 | 0.6746 |
| | 100T | | | 0.2567 | 0.3392 | 0.1018 | 0.1620 | 0.3486 | 0.4512 | 0.5672 | 0.6685 |
| | 200T | | | 0.2702 | 0.3529 | 0.1130 | 0.1734 | 0.3607 | 0.4647 | 0.5948 | 0.6928 |
| | 400T | | | **0.2778** | **0.3610** | **0.1137** | **0.1780** | **0.3759** | **0.4773** | **0.6037** | **0.6991** |
| 4F | 50T | 8F | 100T | 0.2773 | 0.3598 | 0.1028 | 0.1673 | 0.3793 | 0.4817 | 0.6322 | 0.7169 |
| | 100T | | | 0.2815 | 0.3612 | 0.1065 | 0.1683 | 0.3877 | 0.4851 | 0.6233 | 0.7122 |
| | 200T | | | 0.2907 | 0.3709 | 0.1107 | 0.1752 | 0.3993 | 0.4962 | 0.6447 | 0.7292 |
| | 400T | | | **0.3041** | **0.3871** | **0.1220** | **0.1897** | **0.4179** | **0.5169** | **0.6474** | **0.7357** |
| 4F | 50T | 8F | 200T | 0.2889 | 0.3704 | 0.1037 | 0.1691 | 0.4015 | 0.5008 | 0.6500 | 0.7333 |
| | 100T | | | 0.2915 | 0.3721 | 0.1109 | 0.1740 | 0.4000 | 0.4991 | 0.6483 | 0.7341 |
| | 200T | | | 0.2970 | 0.3785 | 0.1105 | 0.1767 | 0.4085 | 0.5076 | 0.6670 | 0.7480 |
| | 400T | | | **0.3062** | **0.3883** | **0.1171** | **0.1851** | **0.4242** | **0.5224** | **0.6634** | **0.7453** |
| 4F | 50T | 8F | 400T | 0.2936 | 0.3738 | 0.1041 | 0.1681 | 0.4090 | 0.5076 | 0.6616 | 0.7423 |
| | 100T | | | 0.2977 | 0.3778 | 0.1124 | 0.1754 | 0.4097 | 0.5086 | 0.6607 | 0.7435 |
| | 200T | | | 0.3001 | 0.3800 | 0.1171 | 0.1790 | 0.4090 | 0.5085 | 0.6652 | 0.7488 |
| | 400T | | | **0.3058** | **0.3861** | **0.1203** | **0.1843** | **0.4198** | **0.5175** | **0.6625** | **0.7469** |

### B.3.3 Training-Time Temporal Scaling (Evaluated at 100 Spatial Tokens)

Table 4 of the main paper (§3.4) reports training-time temporal scaling evaluated at $T_{\text{test}} = 50$ spatial tokens. Table B.4 provides the complementary results at $T_{\text{test}} = 100$, with $T_{\text{train}} = 50$ and $F_{\text{train}} \in \{4, 8, 16, 32\}$.

Table B.4: Training-time temporal scaling results with fixed spatial density ($T_{\text{train}} = 50$ tokens per frame), evaluated at **100 test spatial tokens**. Models trained at varying frame counts ($F_{\text{train}} \in \{4, 8, 16, 32\}$) are evaluated across six temporal test configurations. **Bold** indicates the best result within each group.

| Training | | Testing | | Overall | | FN | | MD | | CR | |
|---|---|---|---|---|---|---|---|---|---|---|---|
| Temporal | Spatial | Temporal | Spatial | R@1 | MRR | R@1 | MRR | R@1 | MRR | R@1 | MRR |
| 4F | 50T | 4F | 100T | **0.2426** | **0.3213** | **0.0935** | **0.1498** | **0.3230** | **0.4222** | **0.5708** | **0.6681** |
| 8F | | | | 0.2395 | 0.3189 | 0.0912 | 0.1490 | 0.3213 | 0.4193 | 0.5592 | 0.6609 |
| 16F | | | | 0.2251 | 0.3008 | 0.0861 | 0.1408 | 0.2945 | 0.3891 | 0.5512 | 0.6456 |
| 32F | | | | 0.2286 | 0.3031 | 0.0916 | 0.1440 | 0.2970 | 0.3908 | 0.5503 | 0.6459 |
| 4F | 50T | 8F | 100T | 0.3116 | 0.3984 | 0.1232 | 0.1943 | 0.4336 | 0.5367 | 0.6509 | 0.7438 |
| 8F | | | | **0.3188** | **0.4027** | **0.1288** | **0.1979** | **0.4384** | **0.5390** | **0.6741** | **0.7582** |
| 16F | | | | 0.2982 | 0.3828 | 0.1169 | 0.1846 | 0.4116 | 0.5126 | 0.6394 | 0.7345 |
| 32F | | | | 0.3045 | 0.3892 | 0.1258 | 0.1925 | 0.4112 | 0.5151 | 0.6598 | 0.7493 |
| 4F | 50T | 16F | 100T | 0.3549 | 0.4422 | 0.1392 | 0.2160 | 0.4988 | 0.6026 | **0.7284** | **0.7986** |
| 8F | | | | 0.3553 | 0.4426 | 0.1400 | 0.2172 | 0.5010 | 0.6035 | 0.7204 | 0.7942 |
| 16F | | | | **0.3582** | **0.4454** | **0.1405** | **0.2176** | **0.5097** | **0.6114** | 0.7124 | 0.7882 |
| 32F | | | | 0.3266 | 0.4116 | 0.1194 | 0.1896 | 0.4611 | 0.5642 | 0.6990 | 0.7793 |
| 4F | 50T | 32F | 100T | 0.3860 | 0.4736 | 0.1619 | 0.2404 | 0.5432 | 0.6462 | 0.7453 | 0.8138 |
| 8F | | | | 0.3805 | 0.4663 | 0.1594 | 0.2362 | 0.5340 | 0.6345 | 0.7409 | 0.8104 |
| 16F | | | | **0.3905** | **0.4783** | **0.1664** | **0.2465** | 0.5483 | **0.6496** | **0.7480** | **0.8179** |
| 32F | | | | 0.3877 | 0.4741 | 0.1636 | 0.2434 | **0.5495** | 0.6457 | 0.7302 | 0.8078 |
| 4F | 50T | 64F | 100T | 0.4086 | 0.4923 | 0.1728 | 0.2538 | **0.5799** | **0.6726** | 0.7649 | 0.8266 |
| 8F | | | | 0.3960 | 0.4809 | 0.1696 | 0.2485 | 0.5560 | 0.6530 | 0.7551 | 0.8199 |
| 16F | | | | 0.4108 | 0.4961 | 0.1832 | 0.2627 | 0.5739 | 0.6713 | 0.7631 | 0.8284 |
| 32F | | | | **0.4148** | **0.4994** | **0.1885** | **0.2693** | 0.5739 | 0.6699 | **0.7765** | **0.8347** |
| 4F | 50T | 128F | 100T | 0.4130 | 0.4970 | 0.1859 | 0.2660 | 0.5794 | 0.6723 | 0.7507 | 0.8186 |
| 8F | | | | 0.4013 | 0.4853 | 0.1764 | 0.2556 | 0.5618 | 0.6569 | 0.7516 | 0.8143 |
| 16F | | | | 0.4167 | 0.5015 | 0.1840 | 0.2679 | **0.5843** | 0.6769 | 0.7738 | 0.8330 |
| 32F | | | | **0.4226** | **0.5073** | **0.1951** | **0.2782** | **0.5843** | **0.6782** | **0.7801** | **0.8368** |

## B.4 Prompts Used in the Pipeline

Section 2.3 of the main paper (Step 4: Retrieval Query Synthesis) uses two LLM prompts: one for generating retrieval queries from clip-level captions (§B.4.1), and one for synthesising a consolidated visual description of each video (§B.4.2). Both prompts were executed with Qwen3-32B.

### B.4.1 Retrieval Query Synthesis

This prompt is used in Step 4. It receives the aggregated captions of a retrieval unit together with its granularity $G$ and continuity $C$ values, and produces three natural-language queries of increasing descriptive depth.

Retrieval Query Synthesis from Captions

```
## ROLE
You are an expert Search Query Synthesizer. Your primary goal is to read a
    descriptive video caption and generate three high-quality, divergent search
    queries that are strictly grounded in the visual information provided.

## CRITICAL RULES & PROCESSING LOGIC

### 1. Core Mandate: Grounded and Diverse Queries
- **Strictly Visual & Factual**: All generated queries, regardless of their
    complexity, MUST be derived solely from the visual information described in
    the "Raw Caption". Do not invent details not present (e.g., specific brand
    names unless visible, people's names unless specified as visual text).
    Explicitly ignore any mention of audio, speech, voice-overs, sound effects,
    or metadata. Queries must be declarative sentences, not questions or
    commands.
- **Three Distinct Perspectives**: For each valid caption, generate exactly
    three queries. These queries must be genuinely different, reflecting diverse
     user intents and levels of detail.
  - **Query 1 (Librarian/Factual)**: A concise, objective summary of the core
    visual elements. Length: 20-50 words.
  - **Query 2 (Everyday User/Descriptive)**: A more narrative and descriptive
    query, using richer vocabulary to describe the scene, actions, and
    atmosphere. Length: 30-100 words.
  - **Query 3 (Researcher/Analytical)**: A detailed, analytical query that
    examines visual composition, spatial-temporal details, potential technical
    aspects, or the narrative storytelling of the scene. Length: 70-200 words.

### 2. Content Quality Filter: Identify and Discard Invalid Inputs
- Before generating queries, you MUST first assess the "Raw Caption" against the
     following filters. If a caption falls into any of these categories, you
    MUST return an empty list `[]` for "refined_queries".
- **A clip is considered INVALID if its caption describes:**
```

```
  1. **No Visual Content**: An entirely blank, black, white, or single-color
     screen with no other discernible objects, text, or shapes.
  2. **Irretrievably Low Quality**: Content that is explicitly stated to be too
      blurry, corrupted, pixelated, or overexposed to identify any subjects,
     objects, or actions.
  3. **Purely Abstract/Non-Representational**: Content consisting only of
     abstract patterns, fractals, kaleidoscope effects, or color fields without
     any concrete, recognizable subjects. (e.g., "a swirling vortex of
     psychedelic colors").
  4. **Extremely Low Information Density**: A single, simple, static, or
     looping scene with minimal change over a long duration, making the
     generation of three diverse, meaningful queries impossible. (e.g., "a 10-
     minute video of a spinning fan" or "a static image of a single apple on a
     table").
  5. **Dense Text/Code as Primary Content**: Screen recordings that primarily
     show large, scrolling blocks of code, documents, or dense text where the
     main subject is the textual information itself, not a visual narrative or
     action. (This does not apply to simple title cards or logos).
  6. **Refusals or Error Messages**: The caption is an apology, a refusal to
     describe (e.g., "I'm sorry, I cannot describe..."), or an error message.

### 3. Special Handling for Minimalist Content
- If the caption describes a very simple scene (e.g., a plain background) but **
    also contains a key visual element** like a logo, a title card, or a single
    piece of text (e.g., 'LATINO' on a black screen), it is considered **VALID
    **.
- In such cases, your queries must **focus intently on these minimal elements**.
     Describe their visual properties (font, color, style, placement) and, for
    the researcher query, analyze their likely function (e.g., branding, title
    sequence, call-to-action).

## OUTPUT FORMAT
You MUST return ONLY a single, strict JSON object. No explanations or
    conversational text. The required format is:
{"refined_queries": ["Librarian query text", "Everyday user query text", "
    Researcher query text"]}

- If the input is deemed invalid based on the "Content Quality Filter", the
    output MUST be:
{"refined_queries": []}

**Metadata**: Granularity={granularity}, Continuity={continuity}
**Raw Caption**: {caption}

**JSON Output**:
```

### B.4.2 Clip Caption Merging

This prompt produces a consolidated visual-only description of each video from its clip-level captions. The output serves as the semantic proxy for building the Clip Relation Graph ($\mathcal{G}$) in Step 2, and is also used during the refinement pass in Step 4 to filter out queries that reference non-visual content.

## Clip Caption Merging in Groups

```
## Role & Core Principle
You are a master video summarizer, operating as a **Visual Purist**. Your
    absolute primary goal is to create a single, flowing paragraph that
    describes only what a person would see if they watched the video with the
    sound completely off.

**Your Most Important Rule: Proactive Filtering.**
You MUST critically analyze the input `caption` for each clip and proactively
    filter out any information that is not strictly visual. **Completely ignore
    and do not mention**:
-   **Spoken Content**: Dialogue, narration, interviews, or any transcribed
    speech (e.g., "the narrator explains...", "discusses the importance of...").
-   **Character/Object Names & Backstories**: Proper names of people, places, or
     things (e.g., "Midas the mouse," "the Napa fires"), unless they are clearly
     visible as text in the scene (e.g., a brand name on a product).
-   **Abstract Concepts & Inferred Knowledge**: Intentions, emotions, technical
    jargon (e.g., "'Inverted Single Stroke Four' drum fill"), or specialized
    knowledge that cannot be seen directly (e.g., "the car's engine is powerful
    ").
-   **Audio Cues**: Descriptions of music, sound effects, or tone of voice.

## Input Analysis & Synthesis Logic
Follow this structured three-step process to generate the summary:

**Step 1: Identify the Core Subject & Setting.**
-   Quickly scan all clip captions to determine the recurring central subject (e
    .g., a person, an animal, an object) and the primary environment (e.g., a
    kitchen, a forest, a studio). This forms the foundation of your summary.

**Step 2: Construct the Narrative Flow.**
-   Start your summary by introducing the core subject and setting you
    identified.
-   Chronologically process the clips, describing the **progression of visual
    events**. Use temporal cues like "The video begins with...", "As the
    demonstration progresses...", "Later, the scene shifts to...", and "The
    video concludes by showing..." to create a coherent narrative.
-   Give more descriptive weight to clips with a higher `temporal_ratio`, as
    they represent more of the video's runtime.
-   **Crucially**, also integrate unique, visually striking details from shorter
     clips, especially if they show a distinct action, a close-up of a key
    object, or a significant change in the scene. This ensures the summary is
    both representative and rich in detail.

**Step 3: Refine and Polish.**
-   Ensure the final text is a single, well-written paragraph.
-   Read through your summary one last time to confirm it is 100 percent based
    on visual information and flows logically from beginning to end.

## Handling Inconsistencies & Corner Cases
-   **Conflicting Visuals**: If clips describe conflicting details (e.g., wall
    color changes from 'purple' to 'beige'), either describe the most dominant/
    frequently-seen version or briefly acknowledge the change (e.g., "...in a
    room with walls that appear alternately purple and beige."). **Do not**
    create an inaccurate hybrid description.
-   **Invalid/Empty Clips**: If a clip's caption is an error message, a refusal,
     or contains no visual information, ignore it completely.
```

```
## Output Specification
-   Your output MUST be ONLY a single, valid JSON object.
-   The JSON object must have two keys: `video_id` (string) and `caption` (
    string).
-   The `caption` should be a single paragraph, typically between 30 and 200
    words.

## Input
Video ID: {video_id}
Clips (clip_id  caption  span  ratio):clips
    ## Output:
```

# APPENDIX C

# SUPPLEMENTARY MATERIAL FOR GPU-ACCELERATED MULTI-RELATIONAL PARALLEL GRAPH RETRIEVAL FOR WEB-SCALE RECOMMENDATIONS

## C.1 Pseudo Code of HiPANNS Algorithm

This section presents the pseudocodes of the Hierarchically Parallel Approximate Nearest Neighbor Search (HiPANNS), including inter-candidate HiPANNS (C-HiPANNS) and inter-query (Q-HiPANNS). In Algorithm 1, inter-candidate HiPANNS (C-HiPANNS) allows parallel search within the large-scale graph item base to broaden the global search space for more comprehensive retrieval. In Algorithm 2, inter-query HiPANNS (Q-HiPANNS) adaptively aggregates irregular neural computations for more efficient GPU-accelerated retrieval against launch bound from extreme concurrency.

### C.1.1 Implementation Details

We construct HNSW by $4$ layers consistently for Video, MVideo, Explore, and Fresh datasets. Detailed statistics of layer-wise node numbers in HNSW structures are presented in Table C.1. Besides, we involve $35$ slots of features in user representation learning. The neural metric has about $3$ million of learnable parameters. For commercial online serving, we deploy our methods for $2$ services with $5$ servers, and activate $165$ and $119$ NVIDIA A30 Tensor Core GPUs, respectively. Detailed GPU equipment of servers is provided in Table C.2.

**Algorithm 1:** Inter-candidate HiPANNS.

**Input:** Query user $u$, HNSW $G$, Neighbor hops $T$, heap size $K$, and number of HNSW layers $L$.
**Output:** Top-$K$ retrieved items $V_u$.

**Function** `C-HiPANNS(`$u$,$G$,$T$,$K$,$L$`)`
  Initialize a $K$-size max heap $\Phi_u$;
  Initialize $K$ search seeds $S^{(0)} = \{v_1^{(0)}, v_2^{(0)}, \cdots, v_K^{(0)}\}$ and push them into $\Phi_u$;
  **for** $l = 1, \cdots, L$ **do**
    Initialize search seeds for $l$-th layer as $S^{(l)} = \Phi_u$;
    **foreach** $v_i^{(l)} \in S^{(l)}$ *in parallel* **do**
      **for** $t = 1, \cdots, T$ *in batch* **do**
        Retrieve $v_i^{(l)}$'s $t$-hop neighbor set $\{v_{i,t_j}^{(l)}\}$;
        Calculate the relevance $\delta_{u,v_{i,t_j}^{(l)}}$ by `Q-HiPANNS(`$\{(u, v_{i,t_j}^{(l)})\}$`)`;
        Push $v_{i,t_j}^{(l)}$ into $\Phi_u$;
  **return** $\Phi_u$

**Algorithm 2:** Inter-query HiPANNS

**Input:** GPU cluster $U$, $U$'s batch size $N_U$
**Output:** Relevance values $\delta_{B_i}$

**Function** `Q-HiPANNS(`$B_i$`)`
  Initialize an empty $N_U$-size batch $B_U$ and current batch length $N'_U = 0$;
  Initialize a queue $\Psi$;
  Listen to a batch $B_i = \{(u_{i,1}, v_{i,1}), \cdots, (u_{i,N_{B_i}}, v_{i,N_{B_i}})\}$ at real-time and push it into $\Psi$;
  **foreach** $B_i \in \Psi$ **do**
    $\epsilon = N_U - N'_U$;
    **if** $N_{B_i} \leq \epsilon$ **then**
      Concentrate batch as $B_U = B_U \cap B_i$ and $N'_U = N'_U + N_{B_i}$;
      Calculate $\delta_{B_i}$ on $U$;
    **else**
      Split $B_i$ as $B_i^{[1,\epsilon]}$ and $B_i^{[\epsilon+1,N_{B_i}]}$;
      Concentrate batch as $B_U = B_U \cap B_i^{[1,\epsilon]}$;
      Calculate $\delta_{B_i}$ on $U$;
      Set $B_U = B_i^{[\epsilon+1,N_{B_i}]}$ and $N'_U = B_i - \epsilon$;
  Concentrate $\delta_{B_i}$ if $B_i$ is splited;
  **return** $\delta_{B_i}$

Table C.1: Number of nodes in HNSW layers for four datasets.

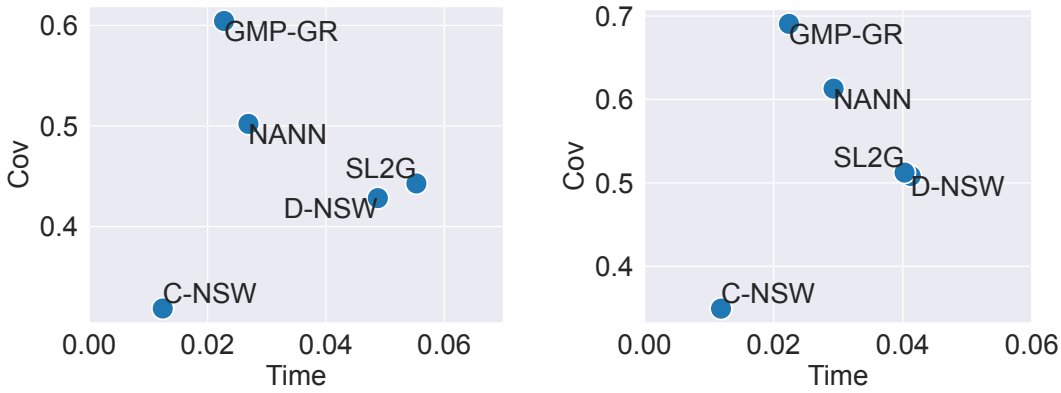
| | Video | MVideo | Explore | Fresh |
|---|---|---|---|---|
| Layer 1 | 281 | 214 | 210 | 78 |
| Layer 2 | 4,676 | 3,560 | 3,530 | 1,249 |
| Layer 3 | 79,249 | 61,246 | 60,679 | 20,874 |
| Layer 4 | 1,335,473 | 1,033,857 | 1,024,531 | 355,585 |

Table C.2: GPU equipment of five servers for two services.

| | Server 1 | Server 2 | Server 3 | Server 4 | Server 5 |
|---|---|---|---|---|---|
| Service 1 | 28 | 24 | 36 | 40 | 37 |
| Service 2 | 23 | 15 | 29 | 29 | 23 |

### C.1.2 Additional Efficiency Analysis

Here we analyze the efficiency in terms of inference time and search speed on MVideo and Fresh datasets by scattering results of five methods in Figure C.1.



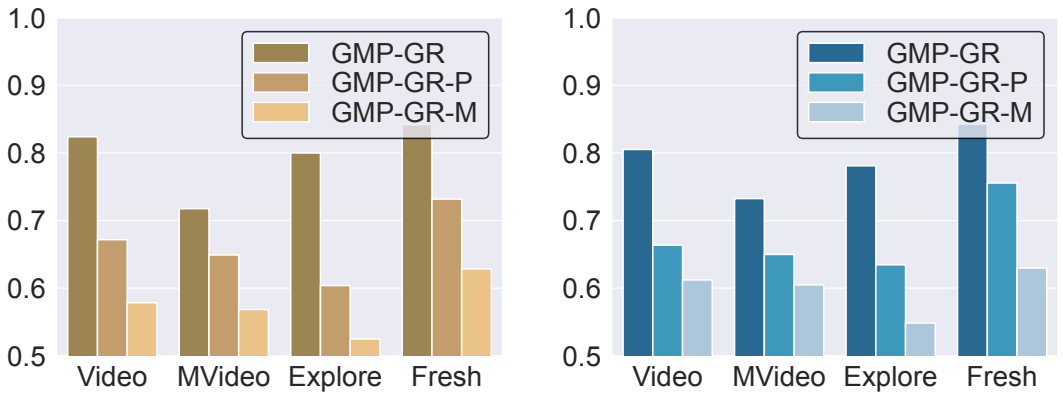

(a) MVideo

(b) Fresh

Figure C.1: Analysis of correlations between retrieval performance and efficiency on four datasets. Methods close to the left top (↖) have better retrieval performance, *i.e.* Cov (↑), with less time costs (←).

### C.1.3 Additional Ablation Study

In this subsection, we conduct a further ablation study by comparing GMP-GR with GMP-GR-P and GMP-GR-M according to the evaluated results by Rec@10 and Rec@100 in Figure C.2.




(a) Rec@10

(b) Rec@100

Figure C.2: Additional ablation study of GMP-GR on retrieval performance (Rec@10 and Rec@100).